

EDUCATION & EXCLUSION: THE BOUNDARY WORK OF AMERICAN JOURNALISM'S
20TH CENTURY HIGHER EDUCATION ALLIANCE

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Mom, Dad, and Sister.

Friends and mentors.

Nathaniel Saunders Floyd

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This dissertation presents a critical perspective on the development of American journalism education by combining historical methods and a sociological framework. That framework is boundary work, and it serves as the organizing principle of this project. As such, this study privileges boundary work paradigms – participation, practices, and professionalism – over a chronological narrative. It uncovers the interrelationships and power dynamics that structured the development of journalism instruction in higher education. Moreover, it heeds the call for journalism historians to engage with other disciplines and develop more theoretical approaches to understanding the past.

Beginning in the 1920s, metropolitan newspaper editors and a select group of educators set out to establish quality control in journalism education. Editors wanted professional status for journalism and they believed linking their professionalism project to elite academic institutions would be to their advantage. Journalism educators wanted an accrediting system to recognize top programs in the field. They established allied professional organizations and educational associations to pursue these goals.

The culminating projects would be the achievement of professional status for journalism, and the development of a specialized accrediting body whose authority would be recognized by political, educational, and legal authorities. While they set out to bring order to the field, their attempt to monopolize the training of journalists created an additional social

barrier that would exclude women, people of color, and other underrepresented groups from participating in journalism at both the educational and industrial levels.

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1. Introduction

This dissertation offers a critical perspective on the development of journalism instruction in higher education from its turn of the century beginnings to the first accredited list of journalism programs published in 1948. Journalism faculty at elite universities claimed journalism education as their own and fought to control its expanding scope. In specialized accreditation, journalism programs and their partners in the newspaper industry found a mechanism to define the essential characteristics of a proper journalism education, and enforce an approach to training future journalists that would raise the status and prestige of a select few. Elite programs differentiated themselves from smaller schools and departments of journalism through the organizational memberships they maintained and the strategic alliances they forged with working journalists. Together, they used specialized accreditation to set the boundaries for who could participate and what was appropriate in journalism education.

Specialized accreditation was a vehicle that would serve elite control of journalism education. From a sociological perspective, elites enjoy “vastly disproportionate control over or access to a resource.”¹ Specialized accreditation would build a wall around the resource of journalism education, but it would serve the interests of educators, editors, and publishers, in unique ways. For educators and editors specialized accreditation was partly a power grab. They would use it to muscle out the competition, raise the profile of their programs, and validate their mission to outside constituencies. Newspaper editors, like other social groups eager to elevate their occupation to professional status, saw in accreditation an opportunity to legitimize their professionalism project by linking it to elite institutions in the academy.

¹ Shamus Rahman Khan, "The Sociology of Elites," *Annual Review of Sociology* 38 (2012): 361.

Publishers would remain ambivalent about both journalism education and professionalism until the two were explicitly linked by the federal government in a dispute over fair labor practices.

At the same time, specialized accreditation would disproportionately affect women and African-Americans and amplify the already discriminatory hiring practices in the newspaper industry. As women's colleges and historically Black colleges embraced journalism education, the professional organizations representing elite journalism educators, editors, and publishers, were primarily interested in cultivating white, male journalists. The lack of interest shown by elites in the academy and the industry to women and people of color practicing journalism is not surprising. Elite schools were not interested in accepting such students, because editors and publishers were not interested in hiring such journalists. Not until the late 1970s would some of these professional organizations begin to take seriously the need for newsroom diversity.² Even today, white males predominate in the news industry and enjoy better pay than women and people of color.³

Today the value of specialized accreditation in journalism education is relative. In May 2017, Brad Hamm, Dean of Northwestern University's Medill School of Journalism, Media, and Integrated Marketing Communications, announced the school would no longer seek specialized accreditation by the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications

² Gwyneth Mellinger, *Chasing Newsroom Diversity: From Jim Crow to Affirmative Action* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2013).

³ Tal Abbady, "The Modern Newsroom is Stuck Behind the Gender And Color Line," NPR Code Switch, May 1, 2017, <https://www.npr.org/sections/codeswitch/2017/05/01/492982066/the-modern-newsroom-is-stuck-behind-the-gender-and-color-line>; Karen K. Ho, "Women and minorities are paid the least in newsrooms: report," Columbia Journalism Review, August 20, 2018, https://www.cjr.org/business_of_news/women-minorities-salary-newsrooms.php; Karen K. Ho, "Diversity in newsrooms has been bad for decades and it probably won't get better: study," Columbia Journalism Review, August 16, 2017, https://www.cjr.org/business_of_news/diversity-newsrooms-asne-study.php

(ACEJMC).⁴ Northwestern, a private research university in Evanston, Illinois, would maintain its institutional accreditation through the Higher Learning Commission, but Medill was opting out of specialized accreditation.⁵

“We find little value in the current version of accreditation,” Hamm wrote, in a statement released by Northwestern’s Office of Alumni Engagement.⁶ “In making this choice,” he continued, “we join Cal Berkeley, which also has opted out in the past year.” ACEJMC, the only specialized accreditor for journalism schools in the United States, had failed to keep pace with the rapidly evolving field of journalism, he suggested. Medill could make better use of its time by investing in its students, signature programs, research, and “partnerships with leading organizations in the U.S. and around the world.” Hamm told the *Chicago Tribune* that Medill had been accredited continuously since 1987, and “off and on” since 1948, when it was among the first 35 journalism schools and departments to be accredited by the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism (ACEJ).⁷

⁴ Mariana Alfaro, "Medill to Not Reapply for Accreditation from National Journalism Council," *The Daily Northwestern*, May 1, 2017, <https://dailynorthwestern.com/2017/05/01/campus/medill-to-not-reapply-for-accreditation-from-national-journalism-council/>.

⁵ Brad Hamm stepped down as Dean less than one year after his decision to opt out ACEJMC accreditation. *Chicago Tribune*, "Medill Dean Bradley Hamm to step down," *Chicago Tribune*, April 11, 2018, accessed March 20, 2020, at <https://www.chicagotribune.com/news/ct-met-medill-dean-resigns-20180411-story.html>

⁶ Brad Hamm, "Note from Dean Brad Hamm," Northwestern University Office of Alumni Engagement, May 1, 2017.

⁷ Dawn Rhodes, "Northwestern Journalism School Lets Accreditation Lapse," *Chicago Tribune*, May 2, 2017, <http://www.chicagotribune.com/news/local/breaking/ct-met-northwestern-university-medill-accreditation-20170501-story.html>. ; Association of Education in Journalism, "First List of Accredited Schools of Journalism Issued by ACEJ," *Journalism Quarterly* 25, no. 3 (1948 Sep 01): 317.

Days before Hamm's announcement at Northwestern, ACEJMC accredited a new bachelor of science degree in communication at the University of North Florida (UNF).⁸ The department of communication's effort to gain accreditation began in 2013 with a self-study submitted to ACEJMC. In their report, they point to a new performance based funding model within the state and a desire to "become a regional model for undergraduate communication education at a public university" as reasons for pursuing accreditation.⁹ They celebrated ACEJMC's recognition in a letter to alumni. The new degree program—one of just five accredited communication programs in the state – "will provide the Jacksonville metropolitan region with high quality graduates," they wrote, who are well equipped to serve in public, private, nonprofit, and governmental sectors.¹⁰

Some schools and departments of journalism, like the one at UNF find value in accreditation by ACEJMC and view it as a mark of distinction. For UNF, whose present day communication department was created in 2004, specialized accreditation is a vehicle for better relations with local media and a competitive edge in state funding. Medill, on the other hand, believes its signature programs and partnerships with prominent organizations are its best chance to navigate the evolving field of journalism.

⁸ Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications, "Decisions – ACEJMC," <http://www.acejmc.org/accreditation-reviews/2016-17-site-visits/2016-17-site-visits/>.

⁹ University of North Florida Department of Communication, "Self-Study Report for Accreditation in Journalism and Mass Communications," February 22, 2013, [http://www.unf.edu/uploadedFiles/aa/coas/communication/UNF Communication Self Study.pdf](http://www.unf.edu/uploadedFiles/aa/coas/communication/UNF%20Communication%20Self%20Study.pdf) p.29.

¹⁰ University of North Florida Department of Communication, "UNF - Fall 2017 Department of Communication Alumni Newsletter," http://www.unf.edu/eCommunications/display.aspx?id=75162011955#Accreditation_story.

In the face of twenty-first century challenges, its cultural and economic power secure, Medill views accreditation through ACEJMC as more trouble than it is worth. Medill matured amidst the struggle over specialized accreditation in the middle of the twentieth century, cooperating with schools and departments at other major institutions to raise standards in journalism education. Dedicated in 1921, it was originally situated in Northwestern's School of Commerce, but now operates as an independent, free-standing school within the Northwestern University system.¹¹ Specialized accreditation was critical to its journey from the School of Commerce to one of the most prestigious journalism schools in the United States. Indeed, specialized accreditation was an organizing principal for both journalism educators and the industry as both sought to raise their status and prestige in the twentieth century. Schools large and small, from Northwestern University to West Virginia University, saw specialized accreditation as critical to their success.

As the modern journalism industry faces its triple crisis of declining cultural authority, and economic and technical disruption, journalism educators face problems of their own.¹² Performance-based funding models, budget cuts, and subsequent corporate-commercial partnerships are on the rise on college campuses.¹³ With confidence in higher education on the decline and the economic value of a college degree in question, journalism educators seek new

¹¹ Medill School of Journalism, Media, and Integrated Marketing Communications, "Our History - Medill - Northwestern University," <http://www.medill.northwestern.edu/about-us/our-history.html>.

¹² Christopher W. Anderson, "The Sociology of the Professions and the Problem of Journalism Education," *Radical Teacher*, no. 99 (2014): 65.

¹³ Paul Basken, "How to Protect Your College's Research From Undue Corporate Influence," *The Chronicle of Higher Education*, February 25, 2018, <https://www-chronicle-com.proxyiub.uits.iu.edu/article/How-to-Protect-Your/242616>.

ways to differentiate themselves in a crowded field.¹⁴ Budget cuts always on the horizon, university administrators pressure journalism educators to seek financial support from media foundations and commercial interests.¹⁵ Close ties to the industry, they hope, will provide the internships and jobs their students will need.¹⁶ As media and education stakeholders struggle to control the production of knowledge in higher education, the development of specialized accreditation in journalism education is critical to our understanding of the way in which outside constituencies shape the field.¹⁷ Why do we have specialized accreditation and is it an investment with diminishing returns?

I combine historical methods and a theoretical framework to uncover a new perspective on the development of journalism education. In attempting to unpack the interrelationships and power dynamics that structured the development of journalism education, I deploy traditional historical methods. I rely on primary documents generated by journalism education stakeholders in both the industry and the academy. I use annual reports from journalism educator groups including the American Association of Teachers of Journalism (AATJ), established in 1912, and the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ), established in 1917. Both organizations published the minutes of their annual meetings in *Journalism Bulletin*. Professional organizations including the American Society of

¹⁴ Peter Salovey, "How to Sway Higher Ed's Skeptics," *The Chronicle of Higher Education*, February 27, 2018.

¹⁵ Robert McChesney, *Communication Revolution: Critical Junctures and the Future of Media* (New York: New Press, 2007); Basken, *The Chronicle of Higher Education*.

¹⁶ McChesney, *Communication Revolution*.

¹⁷ Linda Wedlin, *Ranking Business Schools: Forming Fields, Identities and Boundaries in International Management Education* (Cheltenham, UK: Edward Elgar, 2006).

Newspaper Editors (ASNE), established in 1923, published transcripts of its annual convention proceedings. Oral histories, correspondence, and contemporaneous press accounts, reveal even more details about the tension over the direction of journalism education. Secondary sources add context.

Theory in journalism history, writes Amber Roessner and her team, “should be understood as the systematic explanations of culturally determined social practices within a continuous historical process.”¹⁸ A more theoretically engaged journalism history, they suggest, would produce a deeper understanding of the past, present, and future. I filter the historical record through the lens of a theoretical framework—Thomas Gieryn’s boundary work.

The call for journalism historians to be bolder storytellers is not new. John Nerone lamented the lack of theoretical approaches among media scholars in a pair of essays published in 1993 and 2011.¹⁹ By rejecting theory, he argued, journalism historians were denying the significance of their own work. In *Culture as History*, originally published in 1973, Warren Susman criticizes journalism historians for failing to address interrelationships in their work.²⁰ Instead of “thinking ecologically, in terms of a total, interacting environment,” journalism historians were focused on particular parts, themes, or mediums.²¹ They had missed the

¹⁸ Amber Roessner, Rick Popp, Brian Creech, and Fred Blevens, “A Measure of Theory?: Considering the Role of Theory in Media History,” *American Journalism* 30, no. 2 (2013): 263.

¹⁹ John Nerone, “Theory and History,” *Communication Theory* 3, no. 2 (1993): 148-157; John Nerone, “Does Journalism History Matter?,” *American Journalism* 28, no. 4 (2011): 7-27.

²⁰ Warren Susman, *Culture as History: The Transformation of American Society in the Twentieth Century* (Pantheon Books, 1984).

²¹ Susman, *Culture as History*, 253.

interrelationships and power dynamics and the way the smaller parts were related to the larger story.

I present the development of journalism education with boundary work as the throughline, or connecting theme. In doing so I heed the call for journalism historians to engage with other disciplines and develop more theoretical approaches to understanding the past. Journalism education did not develop in a vacuum and privileging boundary work accentuates the power dynamics that shaped its maturation. University instructors and administrators from across the spectrum of higher education, and editors in both the rural and metropolitan press, struggled to impose their vision. The boundary work framework puts the interrelationships and power dynamics front and center by maintaining the focus on the total, interacting environment.

Thomas Gieryn's 1983 article, published by the *American Sociological Review*, is the organizing principle of my dissertation.²² In his article, "Boundary-Work and the Demarcation of Science from Non-Science," Gieryn offers a framework for understanding how occupational groups struggle to transform themselves into professions. In his case study of the Victorian science debates, Gieryn analyzes the rhetorical maneuvering done by a select group of scientists as they pursue power, prestige, and material advantages over their competitors. He refers to this rhetorical maneuvering as boundary work. We learn that as occupational groups position themselves as professions and begin to define themselves, they are deliberate about defending their boundaries and defining their competitors out of power, with material

²² Thomas F. Gieryn, "Boundary-Work and the Demarcation of Science from Non-Science: Strains and Interests in Professional Ideologies of Scientists," *American Sociological Review* (1983): 781-795.

outcomes on the line. Nearly forty years after the publication of Gieryn's article, boundary work still attracts a considerable amount of attention. Scholars, many of them working in the sociology of professions, use Gieryn's framework to explore the evolution of various professions and quasi-professions. More recently, the field of journalism and mass communication has taken note of Gieryn's work.

Inspired by Gieryn, Matt Carlson develops a typology for boundary work in his introduction to *Boundaries of Journalism*.²³ Like Gieryn, Carlson finds three genres of boundary work: expansion, expulsion, and autonomy. Here, individuals, institutions, professions, all use rhetoric to create and maintain a social boundary that demarcates a select few at the expense of many others. Expansion-based boundary work is concerned with incorporating new participants and practices. For example, they point to journalists incorporating the work of citizen journalists and professional reporters tweeting as a new media practice. The former expands the boundary to include new participants, the latter expands the boundary to include a new practice. Expulsion-based boundary work is concerned with expelling deviant actors and practices. Plagiarists and fabricators are expelled from the social boundaries of journalism, and paparazzi photographers are expelled for their deviant practices. Each of these forms of boundary work are closely related to issues of professionalism and the protection of autonomy.

Carlson's typology sees these genres at work at three different levels in journalism: participation, practices, and professionalism. For example, journalists sometimes expand the boundaries of journalism to include new participants, or new practices. At the same time,

²³ Matt Carlson, Introduction: The Many Boundaries of Journalism, in Matt Carlson and Seth C. Lewis, eds. *Boundaries of journalism: Professionalism, Practices and Participation* (New York: Routledge, 2015).

journalists also expel certain participants and certain practices from the boundaries of professional journalism. The rhetoric of boundary work is engineered to sideline challengers, and to bolster claims to authority and autonomy.

Carlson's co-editor, Seth Lewis, recommends researchers focus on the interplay between the social and material components within boundary work.²⁴ By social, they mean the rhetorical moves employed by participants. This they call "soft" power. It articulates social boundaries. By material, they mean the infrastructure that actualizes boundaries that were once only rhetorical, or social. Public debates can be seen as soft power, articulating social boundaries, and their acceptance and codification by political and social institutions can be seen as the "hard" power of boundary work, transforming the social into the material. With its focus on participation, practices, and professional control, boundary work is well suited to unpack the genealogy of journalism's complicated effort to raise itself to a professional status.

Inspired by Gieryn and guided by the work of Matt Carlson and Seth Lewis, I have resisted the temptation to organize this dissertation chronologically. Instead, each chapter focuses on a particular dimension of the journalism professionalism project through the boundary work lens. Chapter Three considers the crisis in Progressive era journalism and the way in which educators and editors attempted to regulate participation in journalism at both the educational and professional levels. Chapter Four uncovers the diverse educational practices among elite journalism programs and links those practices to the pressures and competing expectations placed upon educators. Chapter Five finds educators collaborating with

²⁴ Seth C. Lewis, "Epilogue: Studying the Boundaries of Journalism: Where Do We Go from Here?", in Matt Carlson and Seth C. Lewis, eds. *Boundaries of journalism: Professionalism, Practices and Participation* (New York: Routledge, 2015).

the industry to develop specialized accrediting for journalism education in the service of the industry's professionalism project. In the conclusion, I look back at the forces and power dynamics that produced specialized accrediting and explore contemporary boundary work in journalism education. In the following chapter I establish the context and background for this dissertation.

2. Literature Review

I. Introduction

I write about the theoretical orientations and relevant literature that informed my approach in this literature review. On the one hand, I try to account for the rhetoric of professionalism. I begin with the work of sociologist Thomas Gieryn and his boundary work thesis before zeroing in on the priority given to educational systems by scholars in the sociology of professions. On the other hand, I provide a brief historiography of the industrial and educational dimensions of journalism. I pay close attention to the way in which journalism is conceptualized by historians, and note the absence of any theoretical, critical examination of the development of journalism education.

In the chapters that follow this literature review, I use Gieryn's framework to better understand how elite journalism educators and newspaper editors tried in vain to establish an impenetrable boundary between journalists and non-journalists at both the educational and professional levels.

II. Boundary Work

From 1867 to 1887, John Tyndall led the Royal Institution of Great Britain (RIGB), a group of professional scientists who advocated for scientific education and research. Tyndall and the RIGB's efforts to raise the status, prestige, and authority of science are at the center of Thomas Gieryn's 1983 article, "Boundary-Work and the Demarcation of Science from Non-Science: Strains and Interests."

Through Tyndall's public addresses and popular writings, Gieryn explores what he calls boundary work. Gieryn's focus is on Tyndall's "attribution of selected characteristics to the

institution of science (i.e., to its practitioners, methods, stock of knowledge, values and work organization) for purposes of constructing a social boundary that distinguishes some intellectual activities as ‘non-science.’”²⁵ He analyzes boundary work as a “rhetorical style,” in which scientists, “sometimes hoping to enlarge the material and symbolic resources of scientists or to defend professional autonomy,” define science for the public. In describing science, they define their competitors out of power.

Science was expanding its boundaries to include outer space and natural history in the late nineteenth century. Tyndall told the British Association for the Advancement of Science that man would soon “wrest from theology, the entire domain of cosmological theory.”²⁶ To do so science would need to muscle out its competition. These domains had long been the exclusive territory of the church. Now, Tyndall would use religion as a foil. According to Tyndall, science was preferable to religion because science was practically useful, inspiring technological progress. It produced tangible, measurable results. It was empirical and methodical. Scientists were skeptical, experimental, respecting only facts. Religion, on the other hand, was too emotional, too irrational to explain the cosmos or natural history. Religion was theoretical; long on imagination and short on facts.

Yet Tyndall would invoke a very different set of characteristics to exclude mechanics and engineers from the boundaries of science. Mechanics and engineers, occupational groups competing with scientists for the same pool of resources, were too focused on practical

²⁵ Thomas F. Gieryn, "Boundary-Work and the Demarcation of Science from Non-Science: Strains and Interests in Professional Ideologies of Scientists," *American Sociological Review* (1983): 782.

²⁶ James Elwick, Bernard Lightman, Michael S. Reidy, Geoffrey Cantor, and Gowan Dawson, *The Correspondence of John Tyndall Volume 1* (London: Pickering & Chatto, 2014), xix.

outcomes, according to Tyndall. They were unimaginative. Their method, if they had one, was observation and lucky guesses. Trial and error were their technique. On the other hand, science was experimenting with nature. It was looking for causal principles and unseen processes. It was, in short, theoretical. Moreover, unlike mechanics and engineers, science was pure. There was no profit motive. In any case, the technological progress made in the industrial revolution was built on discoveries made by men of science.

In making these distinctions, or demarcations, Tyndall was also smoothing the inconsistencies inherent in the field of science. Of course science is at once empirical and theoretical. It is both basic and applied. But Tyndall could use those inconsistencies, those strains, to select whatever attribute would be most compelling and necessary to win the argument of the day. He wanted science in university curricula. To university administrators, he said science was pure, empirical, methodical, and for the betterment of mankind. It was a message he knew would resonate. To political authorities, he reminded them that it was scientific discoveries that powered innovation in society. The work of scientists created value and wealth.

For Gieryn, boundary work is a rhetorical style in pursuit of social control. It is “strategic political action,” to appeal to the interests of the public and political authorities.²⁷ Rivals try to secure their boundaries through legal or legislative means, turning social boundaries into resources, power, and prestige. The soft power of rhetoric evolves into the hard power of legal

²⁷ Thomas F. Gieryn, *Cultural Boundaries of Science: Credibility on the Line*, (University of Chicago Press, 1999).

authority.²⁸ Yet the social boundaries created “are only as durable as their immediate discursive utility in contests for power and control.”²⁹ When the audience is university administrators, science is basic, pure. When material resources are on the line, scientists remind policymakers and industry leaders that the application of scientific discoveries have uses well beyond the laboratory.

Gieryn finds three important genres of boundary work: expansion, expulsion, and the protection of autonomy.³⁰ When Tyndall suggested men of science would take from religion the authority to explain the cosmos he was expanding the boundaries of science, annexing a territory already occupied by the church. Mechanics, engineers, and phrenologists were expelled from the scientific community, too, each representing a threat to science in their own right. Having secured the support of the public and policymakers on key issues, scientists then moved to maintain control over their resources by maintaining their autonomy.³¹

The spoils of boundary work have real world consequences, and Gieryn would go on to document those consequences as part of his research agenda. He found that victors are free to teach their beliefs and influence the course of educational change. Journal editors publish some articles, but not others. Foundations, such as the National Science Foundation, fund some research projects, but not others. The authority of science is recognized by the force of law on

²⁸ Thomas F. Gieryn, “Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled,” in *Clashes of Knowledge: Orthodoxies and Heterodoxies in Science and Religion*, eds. Peter Meusburger, Michael Welker, and Edgar Wunder (New York: Springer, 2008); Matt Carlson, “Introduction: The Many Boundaries of Journalism,” in Matt Carlson and Seth C. Lewis, eds. *Boundaries of Journalism: Professionalism, Practices and Participation* (New York: Routledge, 2015).

²⁹ Gieryn, “Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled,” 95.

³⁰ Gieryn, *Cultural Boundaries of Science*.

³¹ Gieryn, “Boundary Work.”

questions of intelligent design and creationism in public school curricula.³² Converting the rhetorical, soft-power of boundary work into material gains at the expense of competitors is the ultimate achievement for defenders of the boundary.

III. Sociology of Professions

Gieryn's focus on boundaries fit within a larger conversation on social boundaries and the sociology of the professions. Lamont and Molnar provide a systematic review of literature on the study of boundaries in the social sciences.³³ They distinguish between two closely related boundary types: symbolic and social. Symbolic boundaries are conceptual distinctions that categorize objects, people, practices, time and space.³⁴ Social boundaries, on the other hand, "are objectified forms of social difference manifested in unequal access to and unequal distribution of resources (material and nonmaterial) and social opportunities."³⁵ Symbolic boundaries are necessary to the formation of social boundaries, but insufficient to explain their existence. The relationship between social and symbolic boundaries receives a great deal of attention in work on boundaries in the social sciences.

Symbolic boundaries are analyzed at the micro level. Lamont and Molnar explain that symbolic boundaries take center stage in studies of social and collective identity. Here, class, ethnic, racial, gender, and sexual inequality are explored by scholars. Shirley uncovers the

³² Gieryn, "Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled."

³³ Michèle Lamont and Virág Molnár, "The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences," *Annual Review of Sociology* 28, no. 1 (2002): 167-195.

³⁴ Lamont and Molnár, "The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences," 168.

³⁵ Lamont and Molnár, "The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences," 168.

boundaries of rural, southern whiteness.³⁶ Pauley and Bryson focus on communities built around musical likes and dislikes.³⁷ Bourdieu finds the influence of class boundaries in education, when he writes that the capacity to navigate the culture of the dominant class predicts educational success, not intellectual ability.³⁸ Hansen uses symbolic boundaries to understand the relationship between native people and newcomers, in their study of Dakota Indians and white immigrant settlers.³⁹ Symbolic boundaries separate people into groups, generating feelings of group membership at the intersubjective level.”⁴⁰

Social boundaries on the other hand are viewed at the macro level. They are social groupings of people: experts versus laymen, scientists versus non-scientists, journalists versus non-journalists. They are shown in unequal access to material and nonmaterial resources and social opportunities.⁴¹ Tyndall used boundary work to construct a social boundary between science and non-science, hoping to monopolize material and symbolic resources while defending professional autonomy.⁴² The spoils of boundary work are real, and contingent on

³⁶ Carla D. Shirley, “‘You might be a redneck if...’ Boundary Work Among Rural, Southern Whites,” *Social Forces* 89, no. 1 (2010): 35-61.

³⁷ John Pauley II, “Jesus in a Chevy? The Rhetoric of Boundary-Work in Contemporary Christian Music,” *Journal of Communication & Religion* 28, no. 1 (2005); Bethany Bryson, “‘Anything but Heavy Metal’: Symbolic exclusion and Musical Dislikes,” *American Sociological Review* (1996): 884-899.

³⁸ Lamont and Molnár, *The Study of Boundaries*; Pierre Bourdieu, *Homo Academicus* (Stanford University Press, 1988).

³⁹ Karen V. Hansen, Ken Chih-Yan Sun, and Debra Osnowitz, “Immigrants as Settler Colonists: Boundary Work Between Dakota Indians and White Immigrant Settlers,” *Ethnic and Racial Studies* 40, no. 11 (2017): 1919-1938.

⁴⁰ Lamont and Molnár, “The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences.”

⁴¹ Lamont and Molnár, “The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences.”

⁴² Gieryn, “Boundary Work.”

the erection of a social boundary that awards cultural and epistemic authority to one group over another.

Boundaries are also a critical question in the sociology of professions. What are the defining characteristics of a profession? When does an occupation become a profession? Lamont and Molnar highlight two important models in the sociological study of professions that go beyond essentialist, or trait-based definitions.⁴³ First, the monopoly, or closure model, focusing on professionals struggling against “outsiders.” Here, professionals pursue a “particular type of institutional organization giving practitioners control over access, training, credentialing, and evaluation of performance.”⁴⁴ The second model takes an ecological, open approach focusing on the drawing and redrawing of social boundaries. Here, professionals struggle for jurisdictional monopolies, and the legitimacy of their expertise at the expense of others.

Magali Sarfatti Larson, Randall Collins, and Andrew Abbott, are some of the most highly cited scholars in the sociology of professionalism, and their work illustrates the evolution of scholarship in that field. Larson and Collins focus on monopoly and closure, and conflict between professionals and outsiders. Abbott’s focus is on jurisdictional disputes within professions. Taken together, the works discussed in the following paragraphs have been cited by others scholars over 20,000 times. All three scholars, despite their differences, put education at the center of professionalism.

⁴³ Lamont and Molnár, “The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences.”

⁴⁴ Lamont and Molnár, “The Study of Boundaries in the Social Sciences,” 177.

In *The Rise of Professionalism*, Magali Sarfatti Larson frames the professional project as an effort to attain market control.⁴⁵ Key to this market control on the part of the profession is the protection and endorsement of elites. Larson tries to move away from the ideal-type essentialism of trait-based analyses of professionalism. Larson's focus is on professionalism as an ideology that justifies "inequality of status and closure of access in the occupational order."⁴⁶ She finds that the "core of the professional project is production of producers in modern university," an institution embedded in a state-controlled monopolistic education system.⁴⁷ Larson argues that "the central principle of legitimacy is founded on the achievement of socially recognized expertise, or, more simply, on a system of education and credentialing."⁴⁸ Larson finds that professional schools superseded professional associations as the most effective mechanism for control.

Randall Collins takes the relationship between the professional project and education a step further in *The Credential Society*.⁴⁹ Published in 1979, Collins charts the growth of the educational credentialing system through case studies of medicine, law, and engineering. Like Larson, Collins builds on the closure, or monopoly model of professionalism. Collins shows how social boundaries were drawn in order to close off the high-status professions to diverse

⁴⁵ Magali S. Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism: A Sociological Analysis* (University of California Press, 1979).

⁴⁶ Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism*, xviii.

⁴⁷ Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism*, 50.

⁴⁸ Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism*, xvii.

⁴⁹ Randall Collins, *The Credential Society: An Historical Sociology of Education and Stratification* (Academic Press, 1979).

populations, thus legitimating and reproducing inequality. Collins argues that “the rise of a competitive system for producing an abstract cultural currency in the form of educational credentials” was “a major new force shaping stratification in twentieth century America.”⁵⁰ Advanced degrees gained occupational importance as high school diplomas became ubiquitous and devalued. “The status of universities,” Collins writes, “was a handy weapon for professional elites, defending their holds against ethnic and lower-class intruders.”⁵¹

Andrew Abbott’s *The System of Professions* was published in 1988.⁵² Abbott argues too much focus on conflict with outsiders in the sociology of professions misses the point. Too much attention paid to licensure and codes of ethics obscures the contents of professional life, and conflict within the professions. Abbott finds the professions in a state of interdependency, where their activities are divided under various jurisdictions. Further, the boundaries of these jurisdictions are in perpetual dispute. “The history of jurisdictional disputes,” he writes, “is the real, determining history of the professions.”⁵³

Key to the boundaries of these jurisdictional disputes is the occupation’s ability to produce and market an “abstract knowledge system.” For Abbott, the quality of abstractions best defines a profession and sets it apart from an occupation. After all, Abbott writes, beauticians have licensing programs, and real estate agents have codes of ethics. But only an

⁵⁰ Collins, *Credential Society*, 94.

⁵¹ Collins, *Credential Society*, 127.

⁵² Andrew Abbott, *The System of Professions: An Essay On the Division of Expert Labor* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1988), 154.

⁵³ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 26-27.

abstract knowledge system can respond to historical and social change, drawing and redrawing its boundaries, defending its turf from interlopers, and seizing new problems by expanding professional boundaries. A knowledge system and its degree of abstraction are the “ultimate currency in competition between professions.”⁵⁴

Abbott pays considerable attention to the role of the modern university in the professional project, because universities are the “seat of knowledge in modern societies.”⁵⁵ Academic knowledge legitimizes professional authority by tracing its discipline’s foundations to important cultural values. Further, it provides research and instruction, shaping “the vulnerability of professional jurisdiction to outside interference.”⁵⁶ Jurisdictional assaults are often directed at the academic level, writes Abbott, because academic abstract knowledge is so valuable in boundary disputes. Abbott comments that journalism is a very permeable occupation, with great mobility between it and public relations, and “no exclusion to those who lack” credentials.⁵⁷ Professions seek allies in the university, turning higher education into an arena of professional conflict. Working lawyers debate working accountants over who is best qualified to handle issues related to taxes, estates, and other financial matters. Professional boundaries between advertising and marketing materialize on campus when, for example, business and journalism schools squabble over advertising and marketing curriculum on campus.

⁵⁴ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 45.

⁵⁵ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 507.

⁵⁶ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 167.

⁵⁷ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 225.

As Seth Lewis explains in his review of professionalism, Larson and Abbott's contribution to the sociology of professions is to move the field from trait-based definitions of professionalism to a focus on the struggle for status: social mobility, exclusion, power, material advantages. That struggle centers on translating special knowledge and skills into social and economic rewards.⁵⁸

Boundary work accounts for the kinds of conflict between professionals and outsiders as described by Larson and Collins, and the inter-professional conflict chronicled by Abbott. It further accounts for social boundaries and attempts by professionals, however successful, to achieve a market monopoly. Gieryn, like Abbott, believes whether or not a profession achieves all the markers of the essential definition of "professional" is far less interesting than the question of how professions gain enough power to play such an important role in society.⁵⁹

IV. The Industry

Is journalism an occupation, a vocation, a profession, or something altogether different? Media historians conceptualize "journalism" in a number of ways. Some view journalism as an institution, or fourth branch of government.⁶⁰ Others have looked at journalism and seen organizations, fields, and interpretive communities.⁶¹ Some focus on boundary work, or how

⁵⁸ Seth C. Lewis, "The Sociology of Professions, Boundary Work, and Participation in Journalism: A Review of the Literature," In 2011 International Communication Association Conference, 2011: 26-30.

⁵⁹ Thomas F. Gieryn, "Boundaries of Science," in Sheila Jasanoff, Gerald E. Markle, James C. Petersen, Trevor Pinch, eds., *Handbook of Science and Technology Studies* (Thousand Oaks: Sage Publications, 1995).

⁶⁰ Timothy E. Cook, *Governing with the News: The News Media as a Political Institution* (University of Chicago Press, 1998); Bartholomew H. Sparrow, *Uncertain Guardians: The News Media as a Political Institution* (JHU Press, 1999).

⁶¹ Randal A. Beam, "Journalism Professionalism as an Organizational-level Concept," *Journalism and Communication Monographs* 121 (1990); Pierre Bourdieu, *The Field of Cultural Production: Essays on Art and*

journalists lay claim to a certain space and impose their vision on it.⁶² Still others consider the tension between professional control of journalism and the open-participation guaranteed by the United States constitution.⁶³

Timothy Cook and Bartholomew H. Sparrow were interested in macro-level phenomenon in their notable studies of journalism as an institution. They focus on the relationship between the media and the government. Cook argued that the deep-seated structures and practices across media organizations made it safe to conceptualize all media as a single institution. That the government would spend so much energy trying to manage the media was evidence enough that the media could be considered a fourth branch of government.⁶⁴

Randall Beam's organizational approach accounts for differing degrees of autonomy. As Beam argues, the more control one has over their work routine and product, the more "professional" they are likely to be. He notes that journalists' autonomy is different depending on the organization for which they work. Doctors on the other hand, an ideal-type profession, generally have the same degree of autonomy across organizations. Beam found journalists working in profit-oriented organizations were less satisfied with their jobs. As an organization is more profit-oriented, it becomes less autonomous, he wrote.⁶⁵

Literature (Columbia University Press, 1993); Barbie Zelizer, "Journalists as Interpretive Communities," *Critical Studies in Media Communication* 10, no. 3 (1993): 219-237.

⁶² Matt Carlson, "The Many Boundaries."

⁶³ Seth C. Lewis, "The Sociology of Professions."

⁶⁴ Cook, *Governing with the News*; Sparrow, *Uncertain Guardians*.

⁶⁵ Beam, "Organizational-level Concept."

Pierre Bourdieu developed field theory. He saw journalism as a field embedded in larger fields of historical and current relations. In this field of journalism, agents (individuals or organizations) tried to impose their own vision, or rules of the game, on the rest of the field. These rules of the game, or doxa, are historical and path dependent. That is, the way conflicts have been resolved in the past might influence how conflicts are resolved in the present. Each individual or organization makes sense of the rules of the game through their “habitus,” or feel for the game. Bourdieu calls habitus a structuring structure.⁶⁶

Bourdieu writes that two poles characterize the field of journalism.⁶⁷ On the one hand, there is an autonomous pole, where organizations are marked by their prestige and cultural capital. Bourdieu puts print journalism in this category. On the other hand, there is the heteronomous pole, marked by client control. That is, it is dependent upon the state and/or the market to maintain its position in the field. Bourdieu puts broadcast journalism in this category. As new agents try to enter the field, they try to differentiate themselves, and impose new rules that work to their advantage.

V. The Academy

Discussions of journalism education abound in the literature. They include general, institutional, and organizational histories, and biographies of journalism educators. General histories focus on the rivalry between journalism educators and working journalists. Institutional and organizational histories, and biographies, are written as commemorations and

⁶⁶ Pierre Bourdieu, *Field of Cultural Production*.

⁶⁷ Pierre Bourdieu, "The Political Field, the Social Science Field, and the Journalistic Field," in Rodney Benson and Erik Neveu, eds. *Bourdieu and the Journalistic Field* (Polity, 2005).

memorials, with very little in the way of criticism. From stakeholders, we get a running commentary on curriculum and journalism education's place in higher education. Very little attention is paid to credentialing and effects of professionalism.

Jean Folkerts offers the most comprehensive look at the history of journalism education.⁶⁸ She locates the origins of journalism education in the print trades and "the world of intellectuals who recognized the value of newspapers in shaping public opinion."⁶⁹ Conflicts between news professionals and university educators over the role of professionals schools in higher education, the rise of new sequences in journalism education (e.g. broadcasting, public relations, visual communication), and the rise of social science, take center stage in her telling.

Where Folkerts uses conflict between the profession and the academy to frame journalism education, Brad Asher finds conflict between four-year universities and trade schools, and cooperation between the industry and the academy with respect to accreditation.⁷⁰ Journalism schools sidelined trade schools by joining forces with the profession, but they were no match for the rise of social science, he writes. Asher's framework is conflict, but there is no attempt at a theoretical understanding.

Studies of journalism education are replete with biographies and institutional and organizational histories, often published as commemorative celebrations. *Makers of the Media Mind*, edited by William David Sloan, is a collection of essays and profiles of journalism

⁶⁸ Jean Folkerts, "History of Journalism Education," *Journalism & Communication Monographs* 16, no. 4 (2014): 227-99.

⁶⁹ Folkerts, *Journalism & Communication Monographs*, 227.

⁷⁰ Brad Asher, "The Professional Vision: Conflicts over Journalism Education, 1900-1955," *American Journalism* 11, no. 4 (1994): 304-20; Mary M. Cronin, "Trade Press Roles in Promoting Journalistic Professionalism, 1884-1917," *Journal of Mass Media Ethics* 8, no. 4 (1993): 227-38.

educators who made significant contributions to the field of mass communication.⁷¹ Other important figures, like William Bleyer of Wisconsin, Walter Williams of Missouri, and Curtis MacDougall of Northwestern, receive a great deal of attention, too.⁷² Journalism programs at Missouri, Columbia, LSU, Michigan State, and Indiana, are chronicled, usually by alumni. Institutional histories are quite useful in understanding how individual programs grew, with an emphasis on the local personalities and issues that drove their development.⁷³ The organizational history of the Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication (AEJMC), by Edwin Emery and Joseph McKerns, released as part of AEJMC's 75th anniversary, provides no citations but is highly cited itself.⁷⁴ Nevertheless, it is helpful in establishing timelines and identifying important personalities.

In depth, historical explorations of journalism accreditation are limited to just three dissertations, all written by students pursuing PhDs in schools of education. Earl Conn

⁷¹ William David Sloan, *Makers of the Media Mind: Journalism Educators and Their Ideas* (Hillsdale, N.J.: L. Erlbaum Associates, 1990).

⁷² Carolyn Bronstein and Stephen Vaughn, "Willard G. Bleyer and the Relevance of Journalism Education," *Journalism & Mass Communication Monographs*, no. 166 (1998); Ronald T. Farrar, *A Creed for My Profession: Walter Williams, Journalist to the World* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1998); Daniel Eston Thornburgh, "Contributions of Curtis D. MacDougall to Journalism Education," *Educator*, Indiana University, 1980. ProQuest Dissertations & Theses Global.

⁷³ Earl English, *Journalism Education at the University of Missouri-Columbia* (Marceline, Mo: Walsworth, 1988); *Journalism 1908 Birth of a Profession*, Edited by Betty Houchin Winfield (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2008); James R. Boylan, *Pulitzer's School: Columbia University's School of Journalism, 1903-2003* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2003); Ronald Garay, *The Manship School: A History of Journalism Education at LSU* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2009); Jerry Lee Morton, "The History of the Journalism Program at Michigan State University," Ph.D., Michigan State University, 1991. ProQuest Dissertations & Theses Global; *100 Years of Journalism at Indiana University*, Edited by Valerie C. Aquila (Bloomington, IN: Indiana University School of Journalism, 2011).

⁷⁴ Edwin Emery, *AEJMC : 75 Years in the Making*, Edited by Joseph P. McKerns (Columbia, SC: Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, 1987).

chronicles the American Council On Education for Journalism (ACEJ), from its inception to 1970, Gale Workman covers 1970 to 1985, and Evonne Whitmore focuses on the years 1986 to 2003.⁷⁵ In Conn's study, the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ), established in 1917, and the American Society of Journalism School Administrators (ASJSA), established in 1945, receive a good deal of attention, as does the fight over accreditation. Yet it's clear that Conn's aims are modest when he writes that there are "no specific questions or hypotheses," associated with his dissertation, "but simply a desire to determine what happened."⁷⁶

Journalism education's place in higher education remains the focus of long running commentary among stakeholders. There is James Carey's "Plea for the University Tradition," given in his presidential address to AEJMC in 1978, and Folkerts and company's "new" plea for the university tradition, released by the Columbia Journalism School in 2014, and Jefferson Pooley's "another" plea for the university tradition made in a 2009 article.⁷⁷ The University of Oregon's "Planning for Curricular Change in Journalism Education," released in 1987, and the

⁷⁵ Earl Lewis Conn, "The American Council on Education for Journalism: An Accrediting History," *Educational Dissertation*, Indiana University, 1970. ProQuest Dissertations & Theses Global; Gale A. Workman, "The Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications: A History, 1970-1985," Ph.D., The Florida State University, 1988; Evonne H. Whitmore, "An Historical Perspective on the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications from 1986-2003: Examination of the Impact on Curriculum," Ph.D., Kent State University, 2004.

⁷⁶ Conn, "The American Council on Education for Journalism: An Accrediting History," 6.

⁷⁷ James W. Carey, "A Plea for the University Tradition," *Journalism Quarterly* 55, no. 4 (1978): 846-55; Jefferson D. Pooley, "Another Plea for the University Tradition: The Institutional Roots of Intellectual Compromise," *International Journal of Communication* 5 (2011): 1442-57; Jean Folkerts, John Maxwell Hamilton, and Nicholas Lemann, *Educating Journalists: A New Plea for the University Tradition*, (Columbia Journalism School, 2014).

Freedom Forum's *Winds of Change*, released in 1996, offer competing views on journalism education.⁷⁸

Foundations also have their say. In 2015, Amy Webb, a Knight Visiting Fellow at Harvard's Nieman journalism lab, lists six challenges facing journalism education in her diagnosis of journalism education.⁷⁹ She notes the long-standing tension between universities and their journalism departments or schools, a lack of academic leadership within journalism education, and the fundraising failures of journalism educators. She suggests that curriculum development has been unable to keep up with ever evolving modern newsrooms, and that journalism departments and schools should cultivate a symbiotic relationship with the industry. Accreditation, in her view, was a paradox, making things better and worse at the same time.

Across all genres of journalism education literature, much is made of the tension between the profession and the academy, but this framework misses something. It is certainly true that elites in the profession and the academy have differed on the details of curriculum and the value of mass communication research over the years. But, by the 1930s leading journalism programs and professional organizations agreed that background courses, in traditional academic disciplines, would comprise the majority of coursework necessary for a degree in journalism. Elites in the profession and the academy also agreed that smaller schools

⁷⁸ Arnold H. Ismach, "Planning for Curricular Change in Journalism Education," University of Oregon School of Journalism, 1987; Betty Medsger, *Winds of Change: Challenges Confronting Journalism Education* (Arlington, VA: Freedom Forum, 1996).

⁷⁹ Amy Webb, "How to Make J-School Matter (Again)" Nieman Foundation. 2015. <http://nieman.harvard.edu/books/how-to-make-j-school-matter-again/>.

should be discouraged from offering journalism instruction. The industry and the academy agreed on many points.

Privileging the professional-academic rivalry in journalism history misses perhaps a more interesting story; conflict between journalism educators at big and small schools, and strategic cooperation between elite faculties and professionals in developing the standards and principles of journalism education. Further, the rivalry lens obscures more useful questions of how elite journalism educators and working professionals came to a consensus about what constituted a proper journalism education, and further, it does not account for how a select few convinced government agencies and higher education organizations to deputize them as the singular cultural authority on the subject of journalism education. Specialized accreditation was a vehicle for advancing their interest, and their actions led to material, real-world outcomes.

Moreover, the professional-academic tension was crucial to securing the authority sought by elite journalism programs. Just as role strain and self-interest combined to enable scientists to develop their rhetorical style, so too did the contradictions in journalism education allow elite institutions to make their mark. It is clear that some leading journalism schools, like Missouri, were more oriented to the profession, and others, like Wisconsin, to the university tradition of liberal arts. Less clear is how these self-selected organizations were able to smooth inconsistencies in their organizations and ideologies when choosing to expand or expel participants and/or practices related to journalism education. When top tier journalism programs wanted to exclude trade schools and community colleges, they invoked their own academic affiliations and liberal arts curriculum, something trade schools couldn't possibly

provide. When they wanted to exclude smaller universities who shared their liberal arts credentials, they invoked their own close ties to industry elites, something faculty at small universities could not offer students.

VI. Conclusion

Monopoly, market power, autonomy, and jurisdictional disputes, are common themes in the sociology of professions. For Gieryn, the goal of professionalization is occupational control. Control is achieved by restricting the supply of practitioners with training and licensing programs that aim to standardize practice. Larson too argues that professions organize themselves to attain market power, and that in the end, professionalism serves an ideological function that justifies “inequality of status and closure of access in the occupational order.”⁸⁰ Of course boundaries are essential to market power and the closure of access because they create demand for a specific commodity and they exclude competitors. Abbott, echoing Gieryn, argues that the history of jurisdictional disputes is essential to any sociological exploration of the professions.⁸¹ The fault lines of professionalism, it seems, are located at the boundaries, and boundary work is the mechanism through which the goals of professionalism are pursued.

Contested credibility serves as a stimulus for boundary work.⁸² It is a problem of demarcation between one group claiming authority over another that creates contested credibility. The contest is a dispute over the power to describe and explain reality, and the goal

⁸⁰ Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism*, xviii.

⁸¹ Abbott, *The System of Professions*.

⁸² Gieryn, “Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled.”

is to have one's explanation endorsed by the public and political authorities.⁸³ For example, when scientists wanted to demarcate science from religion and engineering in the Victorian era, their problem of demarcation led to contested credibility, and that produced conditions necessary for boundary work. Distinctions, or demarcations as Gieryn calls them, are central to understanding boundary work. He notes that even as scientists sought to construct a social boundary to distinguish between science from non-science, demarcation was routinely established in every day settings. For example, he writes, "education administrators set up curricula that include chemistry but exclude alchemy."⁸⁴

At the same time, Larson, Collins, and Abbott, leading voices in the sociology of professions, place a great deal of importance on credentialing and education in the professionalization process. Larson is explicit about this when she argues that the "production of producers in the modern university," is at the center of any professionalization project.⁸⁵ Abbott also puts academic knowledge at the heart of professionalism. For Abbott, academic knowledge "legitimizes professional work by clarifying its foundations and tracing them to major cultural values."⁸⁶ That attacks on professionalism are often aimed at the university level is further proof for Abbott of the importance of the connection between professionalism and academic knowledge. He goes one step further when he writes that the academic knowledge

⁸³ Gieryn, *Cultural Boundaries of Science*.

⁸⁴ Gieryn, "Boundary Work," 781.

⁸⁵ Larson, *The Rise of Professionalism*, 50.

⁸⁶ Abbott, *The System of Professions*, 154.

system shapes the vulnerability of professional jurisdiction to outside interference.⁸⁷ For Collins, the rise of the educational credentialing system is further evidence of the importance of education in professionalism.⁸⁸

Finally, boundary work is the lens best suited to capture jurisdictional disputes. Journalism educators were battling each other for the same intellectual turf. Through boundary work, they would try to differentiate themselves from their competitors through promoting their goals, methods, and capabilities, as superior. Yet jurisdictional control was always on the line, the boundaries “only as durable as their immediate discursive utility in contests for power and control.”⁸⁹ They would take what Gieryn calls strategic political action, “to appeal to the goals and interests of audiences and stakeholders.”⁹⁰

In the following chapters I foreground boundary work and use the sociology of professions to explain the actions of journalism educators and newspaper editors. First, I explore the ways in which journalism educators and newspaper editors regulated participation in the training of would be journalists. Then, I show how educators coalesced around particular educational practices. Finally, I dig into the ideology of professional control and how credibility contests produced specialized accreditation.

⁸⁷ Abbott, *The System of Professions*.

⁸⁸ Collins, *The Credential Society*.

⁸⁹ Gieryn, “Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled,” 95.

⁹⁰ Gieryn, *Cultural Boundaries of Science*, 23

3. Participants

I. Introduction

In this chapter, I argue problems of demarcation in Progressive era journalism, at individual and institutional levels, in both the academy and the industry, led a self-selected group of educators and journalists to deputize themselves as the lone authority on training for journalism. Journalism educators would use boundary work to regulate organizational membership. Newspaper editors would make journalism education a key feature of their attempt to raise the status and prestige of newspaper work. These select groups conspired to weaponize specialized accrediting, and, further, to use graduation from an accredited journalism program as an official credential for metropolitan newspaper work. Journalism educators at elite institutions made membership in their professional organizations tantamount to accreditation, and metropolitan newspaper editors agreed to seek graduates from accredited journalism programs. Participation in journalism education and professional newspaper work would be connected, and specialized accrediting would be the link.

Participation is fundamental to boundary work in journalism. Through boundary work, journalism educators in the academy and newspaper editors in the industry tried to navigate one of professional journalism's trickiest issues –the tension between open participation and professional control. Seth Lewis has discussed the built-in tension between professional control on the one hand, and the open participation guaranteed by the First Amendment.⁹¹ That journalism professionals in the academy and the industry would fret about their competition

⁹¹ Seth C. Lewis, "The Sociology of Professions, Boundary Work, and Participation in Journalism: A Review of the Literature," In 2011 International Communication Association Conference, 2011: 26-30.

and pursue their interests by forming professional organizations is to be expected. All professions try to establish boundaries. Yet professional control in journalism becomes problematic when the same group of professionals who profit from the First Amendment set out to carefully control access to the newsroom. Who can be a journalist? A journalism educator? A journalism student? And who gets to decide?

In the pages that follow, I consider the context in which journalism educators and metropolitan journalists created social boundaries aimed at regulating participation. I document the creation of their professional organizations, their evolving membership criteria, and the material outcomes that followed.

II. Problems of demarcation in the academy

Problems of demarcation often serve as a catalyst for boundary work. One group claims authority over an intellectual domain, or profession, at the expense of some other group. A credibility contest develops, and rhetorical maneuvering follows. In Gieryn's case study, scientists were suffering from a problem of demarcation. They were competing with religious authority, mechanics, and engineers, for status, prestige, and power. The public, and perhaps more importantly, political authorities, would ultimately choose sides and reward the victors with material resources.

In the early part of the twentieth century, journalism educators were looking for ways to distinguish themselves amid a problem of demarcation of their own. Prior to 1908 there were no journalism schools or departments in the United States, but by 1920 journalism programs –

in a variety of settings, with varying degrees of quality –were developing at a rapid pace.⁹² The boom in journalism instruction meant increased competition for students, and journalism educators at elite institutions were caught flat footed. How could they show university administrators that a school of journalism was a wise investment? How could they help their graduates find work in the industry when most newspaper editors were more comfortable training reporters in the newsroom? They would have to distinguish themselves by building boundaries.

Journalism Education Beginnings

Correspondence schools and trade schools exploited fields with short labor supplies and low status.⁹³ Journalism instructors in the academy and editors and reporters in the industry were particularly vulnerable. Correspondence schools offered training via postal service. In some ways, they were a forerunner to distance learning models so common in higher education today. Because of their reach, they were more of a threat to journalism educators than trade schools. They were a nuisance for the newspaper industry because correspondence school graduates bombarded newspaper offices with unsolicited columns, invoices, and employment letters.

The Home Correspondence School's advertisement for Dr. J. Berg Esenwein's Training for Authorship course ran in mainstream magazines, like *Outlook* and *Life*, and smaller, niche

⁹² Robert McChesney, *Communication Revolution: Critical Junctures and the Future of Media* (New York: New Press, 2007), 27.

⁹³ Randall Collins, *The Credential Society: An Historical Sociology of Education and Stratification* (Academic Press, 1979).

magazines like *The Louisiana Planter and Sugar Manufacturer*.⁹⁴ Esenwien, an editor for *Lippincott's Monthly Magazine*, had published a series of books encouraging amateur writers to take up the pen.⁹⁵ Students could enroll in courses for "short-story writing, versification, journalism, play writing, and photoplay writing." After paying their fees, students would complete their coursework via mail. The ad claimed "one pupil has received over \$5000.00 for stories and articles written mostly in spare time."

Correspondence schools "became a metaphor for seediness, marginality, and incompetence."⁹⁶ Humorist Ellis Parker Butler's column, "Philo Gubb, Correspondence-School Detective" was a hit with readers. In 1918, Butler's columns were compiled and published as a book. Gubb, a slow-witted paper-hanger, learns the detective trade one letter at a time. When an attorney questions Gubb about his credentials, he explains that "Deteckative work is a science, as operated by them that has studied in the Rising Sun Deteckative Agency's Correspondence School of Deteckating."⁹⁷ The attorney is unimpressed. Gubb is in over his head, and the audience knows why. Yet correspondence schools maintained enough students to be a nuisance to both educators and newspaper editors.

If journalism educators at elite institutions wondered how to bring order to the field,

⁹⁴ The Home Correspondence School, Advertisement, *Life*, April 15, 1920, 725.; The Home Correspondence School, Advertisement, *Outlook*, July 16, 1919, 450.; The Home Correspondence School, Advertisement, *Louisiana Planter and Sugar Manufacturer*, November 10, 1923, 296.

⁹⁵ J. Berg Esenwein and M. Eleanor Roberts, *The Art of Versification*, (Springfield, MA: The Home Correspondence School, 1920; J. Berg Esenwein, *Writing for the Magazines* (Springfield, MA: The Home Correspondence School, 1918).

⁹⁶ Von V. Pittman, "Amateurs, Tough Guys, and a Dubious Pursuit: Crime and Correspondence Study in Popular Culture," *American Journal of Distance Education* 6, no. 1, 1992: 40.

⁹⁷ Ellis Parker Butler, *Philo Gubb, Correspondence-School Detective* (Boston; New York: Houghton Mifflin, 1918), 133.

they need not look any further than their own administrators.⁹⁸ In the 1890s, amidst a surge in enrollment, university administrators focused on the broader field of education. Faced with disorder and more and more competition, leading universities organized the American Association of Universities (AAU) in 1900. The AAU schools were concentrated in the northeast and Midwest.⁹⁹ They began to exert control over secondary schools, which were in disarray, by establishing collegiate standards of admission, requiring 12 years of education to precede college. The policy change was felt up and down the educational food chain.¹⁰⁰ The high school diploma became the first formal requirement for college admission. More and more primary schools instituted a 12-year curriculum.

Professional schools though, remained a threat to institutions of higher education across the board. Medical schools and law schools were seen as potential rivals because both led to high status jobs and neither required a bachelor's degree for admission. Universities responded by starting their own professional schools. They called them graduate schools, and a bachelor's degree was the prerequisite.¹⁰¹ By first linking themselves with primary education and later starting their own graduate schools, colleges and universities brought standards to the educational order and raised their own status, prestige, and authority at the same time.

⁹⁸ Roger L. Geiger, *The History of American Higher Education: Learning and Culture from the Founding to World War II* (Princeton University Press, 2015).

⁹⁹ AAU founding members included Johns Hopkins University, University of Chicago, Columbia University, Harvard University, University of California, Berkeley, University of Michigan, Cornell University, Stanford University, Princeton University, University of Pennsylvania, University of Wisconsin–Madison, Yale University, Catholic University of America, Clark University; *Chicago Daily Tribune*, "Universities in a Pact," *Chicago Daily Tribune*, March 1, 1900, 3.

¹⁰⁰ Collins, *Credential Society*.

¹⁰¹ Collins, *Credential Society*.

Still, in 1915, just as journalism programs were beginning to appear across the country, the scale of higher education was small by modern standards. In 1915 about six percent of 18-to-21 year-olds attended college, and only 1.7 percent of 21-year-olds had been awarded degrees by a college or university.¹⁰² But enrollment doubled by 1924, much of that owing to the increase in high school graduates. By 1940, 15.5 percent of college aged adults had attended college and close to eight percent had received a degree by the age of 21. An inadvertent consequence of setting up standards for college admission was it encouraged too many applications.¹⁰³ Those who qualified did apply, but administrators were not always pleased with the lower class applicants.

Noted journalism historian James Carey writes that working journalists were mostly itinerant scribblers, underachievers, and “upwardly mobile children of immigrants” when schools of journalism began to appear.¹⁰⁴ Socialism and trade unions were rather attractive to many newspaper workers in this era. Elites, including Joseph Pulitzer, whose efforts to start a journalism school at Harvard were rebuffed and then accepted by Columbia, hoped university education would domesticate a rising working class.¹⁰⁵ Rebellious students populated newspaper staffs, debate societies, and theatre groups. College presidents responded by appointing faculty advisers to manage these “unruly” students. However unruly journalism students may have been, at least some were ahead of their instructors where

¹⁰² Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

¹⁰³ Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

¹⁰⁴ James W. Carey, “Some personal notes on US journalism education” *Journalism* 1, (1), 2000, 16.

¹⁰⁵ Carey, “Some Personal Notes”; James R. Boylan, *Pulitzer's School: Columbia University's School of Journalism, 1903-2003* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2003).

professionalization was concerned. Students at DePauw University founded a college fraternity, Sigma Delta Chi, in 1909, “to advance the standards of the press by fostering a higher ethical code.”¹⁰⁶ Known today as the Society of Professional Journalists, the organization has been an advocate for journalism for more than century.

The development of mass higher education in the first half of the twentieth century brought social boundaries into sharp relief.¹⁰⁷ The enrollment surge included students from social groups new to the college campus. Elite schools, like Harvard, Princeton, and Yale, developed more selective admission processes to preserve their reputations. The new admission procedures were driven in part by their fear of immigrants from Eastern Europe.¹⁰⁸ Columbia was first to establish an Office of Admission in 1919. The entering class was capped at 550. Applicants provided information on family background and an admissions board member administered an interview. The status of the university would help elites maintain their position over ethnic and lower class groups.¹⁰⁹

University administrators, particularly those in the AAU, provided an excellent example to frustrated journalism educators of how to eliminate the competition and change the educational order to their benefit.¹¹⁰ First, administrators organized professional organizations and associations. Then, they set up college admission requirements, forcing secondary schools

¹⁰⁶ Paul Fletcher, “The SPJ Code of Ethics at 110,” *Quill* 107 (3), 2019: 24.

¹⁰⁷ Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

¹⁰⁸ Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

¹⁰⁹ Collins, *Credential Society*.

¹¹⁰ Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

to standardize their curriculums. Later, they set up professional schools, and made the bachelor's degrees a prerequisite for admission. When their admission requirements were too easily satisfied by the children of immigrants, they imposed new rules to make certain only the "right" kind of students would be admitted.¹¹¹

Journalism educators responded to their demarcation problem in much the same way. They launched two professional organizations. First, they created the American Association of Teachers of Journalism (AATJ), in 1912. Membership was bestowed on an individual basis and was open to nearly anyone involved in training for journalism. In 1917, Walter Williams, from the University of Missouri, founded the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ). Membership was awarded at the institutional level, and it was far more selective than the AATJ. It would take as its mission the goal of recognizing only well established, well-run schools and departments of journalism. Anyone involved in journalism education could participate in AATJ. But participation in AASDJ was contingent on where, and for whom, one taught journalism.

American Association of Teachers of Journalism, 1912

The Sherman Hotel operated at the intersection of Clark and Randolph Streets in downtown Chicago. Adjacent to City Hall, the hotel attracted an eclectic mix of dealmakers, minor celebrities, and gangsters. Politicians courted and counted votes and musicians mingled in the hotel bar. Buffalo Bill Cody celebrated his birthday in the Sherman's extravagant ballroom

¹¹¹ Gieger, *American Higher Education*.

in 1914.¹¹² During prohibition, bootleggers met in the Sherman's Rose Room to settle boundary disputes between the north and south side gangs.¹¹³ It was a place to see and be seen, and it was the perfect backdrop for a group of academics who took themselves seriously and wanted others to do the same. On November 30, 1912, the American Association of Teachers of Journalism (AATJ) met at the Sherman Hotel.¹¹⁴ They had boundary disputes of their own.

About twenty-five journalism instructors from across the United States gathered in the Sherman's Rose Room to discuss journalism education. This was the third such meeting of journalism instructors, but this time they adopted a constitution and elected Willard G. Bleyer of the University of Wisconsin as their president.¹¹⁵ Article Two of the constitution laid out the AATJ agenda. They would hear lectures, discuss papers, and collect statistics on schools and courses taught in journalism. There were three committees at the 1912 Chicago meeting: The committee on permanent organization, the nominating committee, and the committee on time and place of next meeting.¹¹⁶

Members offered competing visions for journalism education in the sessions and ensuing discussions. While AATJ was organized around individual instructors, the views expressed by its members often reflected the priorities of an instructor's home institution. It

¹¹² Alvin Nagelberg, "Sherman House Closing to Mark Hotel Era," *Chicago Tribune*, January 15, 1973, C9; Pam Sebastian, "Sherman House Dies Hard," *Chicago Tribune*, April 20, 1980, W B1; June Sawyer, *Chicago Tribune*, "The Grand Old Days of Chicago's Luxury Hotels," *Chicago Tribune*, November 30, 1986.

¹¹³ "Gangland Lays its Guns Aside," *Chicago Daily Tribune*, October 21, 1926, 3.

¹¹⁴ "News Teachers Meet Here," *Chicago Daily Tribune*, November 30, 1912, 3; Associated Press, "If Not Science, Then Surely Art," *Los Angeles Times*, December 1, 1912, 15.

¹¹⁵ *Tribune*, "News Teachers"; Associated Press, "If Not Science"

¹¹⁶ Edwin Emery and Joseph P. McKerns, *AEJMC: 75 Years in the Making* (Columbia, SC: Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, 1987), 10.

was the individual's institutional affiliation and professional background that best predicted their approach to training for journalism. Their rhetoric, or boundary work, was intended to present a vision of journalism education that would benefit themselves and their home institutions. Personalities mattered, but it was the context in which they operated, the pressures and expectations to which they were responding, that shaped their actions.

Career journalist and dean of the new Columbia School of Journalism, Talcott Williams, read his paper, "Technical Instruction in Journalism."¹¹⁷ Williams had met with AdCrafters, an advertising club in Detroit, to promote journalism education on his way to the AATJ meeting.¹¹⁸ Now in the Sherman Rose Room, he offered his definition of journalism. It was not an exact science. Journalism was "applied literature," he explained. The basis of good academic writing was writing how others had written, but the essence of good journalism was to write something original. Freshness was the key to good journalism, he said. That freshness, as he called it, came from a journalist's reservoir of knowledge and experience, and the "electric touch of the actual." The "actual" was to be found through practical training in local newsrooms and on a college newspaper.¹¹⁹

Fred Scott, from the University of Michigan, organized the 1912 conference. He offered a different view of journalism education in a pre-conference interview with the *Chicago Daily Tribune*. Scott suggested that technical instruction should be secondary to theoretical concerns. Technical skills could be learned in the newsroom in a few months, but there would be no time

¹¹⁷ *Tribune*, "News Teachers."

¹¹⁸ *Detroit Free Press*, "Newspaper Dean Speaks in Detroit," *Detroit Free Press*, November 30, 1912, 5.

¹¹⁹ *Chicago Daily Tribune*, "Expert Defines Real Journalism," *Chicago Daily Tribune*, December 1, 1912, 7.

for learning the history, psychology, and philosophy of journalism, once on the job. He believed instruction should focus on understanding public opinion, ethics, and the status of journalism as a profession. Scott was first to challenge Williams's view, but he would not be the last.¹²⁰ In the discussion following Williams's speech, instructors from various institutions presented their views on journalism education. Practice, or what was appropriate in the classroom, was their focus.

Merle Thorpe began teaching journalism courses at the University of Washington in 1907, before moving to the University of Kansas. He was head of AATJ's nominating committee. Thorpe agreed with Williams that technical instruction should be the priority, but he and Williams clashed on the specifics. Thorpe argued that business management and the costs of publication should be an important component of any journalism curriculum.¹²¹ He noted there were nearly 700 newspapers (dailies and weeklies) in his state and not a single one understood the value of maximizing space, or balancing the proportion of news reports and advertising. The newspaper crisis in his state was due to poor business management.¹²² Williams countered that journalism schools should be confined strictly to the teaching of journalism, as an institution separate from business management. Williams said those skills should be taught in other university departments.¹²³

¹²⁰ *Tribune*, "News Teachers."

¹²¹ *The Inland Printer*, "Teaching Journalism," *The Inland Printer*, January 1, 1913, 531.

¹²² *The Inland Printer*, "Teaching Journalism."

¹²³ *The Inland Printer*, "Third Conference of Teachers of Journalism," *The Inland Printer*, January 1, 1913, 571.

The Inland Printer took Thorpe's side in an editorial published in their first issue of 1913. The editorial argued that journalism education should include business management. The majority of editors in the US had an ownership stake in their journals or newspapers, and they needed business training. If the goals of journalism education were to train all students to work in metropolitan dailies, then business management in journalism curriculum would make little sense. After all, New York City, with close to five million residents, was not suffering from a labor shortage. But that was New York City. "We believe the universities will miss their greatest opportunity," the editorial read, "if they shall leave out of the consideration the importance of the country press and the most pressing needs of the country editor."¹²⁴

Frank Blanchard was managing editor for *Editor and Publisher* and present at the Chicago meeting. He taught an advertising class at the 23rd Street YMCA in Manhattan.¹²⁵ Blanchard argued that too many newspaper men were "not fitted temperamentally or intellectually for the work."¹²⁶ In his view, eliminating the unfit was to be within the purview of journalism educators.

James Keeley was general manager of the *Chicago Daily Tribune* and dean of the school of journalism at Notre Dame.¹²⁷ Keeley took issue with Williams's description of journalism as applied literature. Keeley responded by saying there was no place for Charles Dickens in the newspaper. There was no appetite, he argued, for long newspaper stories. "Accuracy and

¹²⁴ *Inland Printer*, "Teaching Journalism," 531.

¹²⁵ Kate E. Griswold, *Profitable Advertising*, volume 18, 1908, 351.

¹²⁶ *New York Times*, "Talks on Journalism," *New York Times*, December 1, 1912, 13.

¹²⁷ *New York Times*, "Talks on Journalism," 13.; Emery and McKerns, *75 Years*.

terseness are two things to be aimed at, accuracy first of all,” said Keeley. “A mistake in a man’s name,” he continued, “is an insult in his eyes.”¹²⁸ The Associated Press spelled Keeley’s name wrong (“Kelley”) in their wire report on the AATJ proceedings.¹²⁹

The *Detroit Free Press* printed a two-month old *Yale Daily News* editorial the day after AATJ’s meeting. “No Journalism in Yale,” the headline read.¹³⁰ In the wake of the new journalism school at Columbia, now lead by Williams, the editorial staff at the *Daily News* wrote to discourage the establishment of a journalism school at Yale. “It makes the modern university savor of the business college,” they wrote. Though it might be useful and maybe even necessary, a journalism school would be “socially lamentable.” Only after the medical school had an adequate endowment, and after the college had a new recitation building, then, and only then, would the editorial staff of the *Yale Daily News* “bow down before the golden calf of things practical –and pray for a school of journalism.”

American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism, 1917

The first school of journalism in the United States was established at the University of Missouri in 1908. Walter Williams, a lifelong journalist, lacked any educational credential. No bachelor’s degree. Not even a high school diploma. Yet Williams, like many in his generation, made a career of newspaper work. At 23, he was editor and part owner of a small newspaper.¹³¹ In 1907, at the age of 44, Williams was well known throughout the state as a

¹²⁸ *New York Times*, “Talks on Journalism,” 13.

¹²⁹ Associated Press, “If Not Science,” 15.

¹³⁰ *Detroit Free Press*, “No Journalism in Yale,” *Detroit Free Press*, December 1, 1912, 9.; *Yale Daily News* editorial staff, “Schools of Journalism,” *Yale Daily News*, October 25, 1912.

successful newspaper publisher and as a member of Missouri's board of curators.¹³² When the university appropriated funds to open a school of journalism, the Missouri Press Association urged him to resign from his position on Missouri's board of curators and serve as the new dean. He agreed.¹³³

In an address given before the Missouri Press Association in May, 1908, Williams explained that the new journalism school would seek to do for journalism "what schools of law, medicine, agriculture, engineering and normal schools have done for these vocations." Other universities, according to Williams, had given instruction in journalism by lecture alone. At Missouri, they would add the laboratory to the lecture method. "It trains to do by doing," he said.¹³⁴ Practical skills and technical instruction would comprise the greater part of journalism education at Missouri.

In 1917, Williams founded the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ) for leading journalism institutions. Unlike AATJ, whose membership was offered to individual instructors with little concern for membership criteria, AASDJ operated like other still-evolving accrediting agencies of the interwar period.¹³⁵ They would recognize "well established" schools and departments, collect data on member and nonmember journalism

¹³¹ Betty Houchin Winfield, *Journalism, 1908: Birth of a Profession* (Columbia MO: University of Missouri Press, 2008).

¹³² Billy I. Rose, *Seventy-Five Years of Journalism and Mass Communication Leadership: The History of the Association of Schools of Journalism and Mass Communication* (Columbia, SC: The Association, 1993).

¹³³ *New York Times*, "Walter Williams, Journalist, Dead," *New York Times*, July 30, 1935, 19.

¹³⁴ Sara Lockwood Williams, *Twenty Years of Education for Journalism*, (Columbia, MO: The E.W. Stephens Publishing Company, 1929), 411.

¹³⁵ Earl Lewis Conn, "The American Council On Education for Journalism: An Accrediting History," PhD diss., Indiana University, 1970.

programs, and offer membership to deserving institutions. Where AATJ was concerned with the practices of journalism education (curriculum, sequences, etc.), AASDJ was focused on participation (membership), or who was best suited to offer journalism education. They were selective. They were self-selective. They met formally for the first time on April 5, 1917, at the Hotel La Salle, in Chicago. Members included schools and departments of journalism from Columbia, Indiana, Kansas, Missouri, Montana, Ohio State, Oregon, Texas, Washington, and Wisconsin.¹³⁶

III. Problems of demarcation in the industry

By the 1830s newspaper printers and editors began to create a community around American journalism.¹³⁷ As some political newspapers waged war on each other in full view of the public at least a handful of editors began to worry that the vitriol and accusations of impropriety would damage the reputation of newspapers in the long run. They responded by coming together for annual meetings, sometimes called Printers' Festivals or Franklin Dinners, where they celebrated each other and toasted those who conducted themselves with dignity. Their meetings linked mid-century American journalism to Benjamin Franklin, an early American publisher turned national folk hero. Frank E. Fee Jr. notes that such celebrations were quite popular in the early and middle part of the nineteenth century. Fee demonstrates that the

¹³⁶ Emery and McKerns, *75 Years*.

¹³⁷ Frank E. Fee Jr., "Breaking Bread, Not Bones: Printers' Festivals and Professionalism in Antebellum America," *American Journalism* 30, no. 3 (2013): 308–335.

dinners were “a bridge between the artisanal print shops and political press of the early nineteenth century and formal associations that began emerging by mid-century.”¹³⁸

Just as a community began to form around journalism, advertisers slowly replaced political parties as the main supporters of newspapers and newspaper editors began to think more and more about circulation and finances.¹³⁹ Journalism in the United States began to turn away from explicit political persuasion as its *raison d'être* in the nineteenth century, and turn toward commercialization. Political parties saw potential votes in a newspaper's readership, but advertisers saw only consumers and that affected newspaper content. Newspapers began to push political news to the margins because they feared offending their audiences and advertisers. As editors and publishers pondered these and other changes they began to form regional alliances. State press associations began to appear in Ohio, Wisconsin, and New York, by the middle of the nineteenth century. Gerald J. Baldasty, author of *The Commercialization of News in the Nineteenth Century*, notes that their main concerns were circulation, accounting, labor, and cooperating to fix advertising rates and prices.

Between 1870 and 1900 the population doubled in the United States.¹⁴⁰ As Americans crowded into cities newspaper audiences grew, too. As newspapers grew they sought more efficient ways of doing business. Publishers invested in type-setting machines, bigger presses,

¹³⁸ Fee Jr., “Breaking Bread,” 334-335.

¹³⁹ Gerald J. Baldasty, *The Commercialization of News in the Nineteenth Century* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1992).

¹⁴⁰ Edwin Emery, *History of the American Newspaper Publishers Association* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1950); United States Census Bureau, “Pop Culture 1870,” December 17, 2019, *Fast Facts*, https://www.census.gov/history/www/through_the_decades/fast_facts/1870_fast_facts.html; United States Census Bureau, “Pop Culture 1900,” December 17, 2019, *Fast Facts*, https://www.census.gov/history/www/through_the_decades/fast_facts/1870_fast_facts.html.

and advanced stereo-typing equipment. The cost of producing a newspaper on an industrial scale meant publishers needed to grow their revenue.¹⁴¹ They needed more advertisers and more readers. Historian Randall S. Sumpter argues that many publishers responded to these challenges by trying to control the cost of labor.¹⁴² They hired poorly trained reporters and demanded they produce copy at an unrealistic pace. They hired young men, young women, and by the end of the century, publishers in the United States employed over 6,000 children. Publishers who hoped to meet these challenges, and who had the means to invest in their businesses, formed the American Newspaper Publishers Association (ANPA). The executive committee for ANPA met for the first time on February 18, 1887.¹⁴³

As Michael Schudson reports in *Discovering the News: A Social History of American Newspapers*, at the turn of the century newspaper editors and reporters were more interested in good stories than complex facts. They prioritized the story over the information.¹⁴⁴ Yet in the 1920s and 1930s something would change. Newspapers began to reorient their news values and create rules and procedures for reporting facts that they hoped would inspire confidence in their audiences.

Journalism education and professional journalism built to its crescendo in the Progressive Era.¹⁴⁵ Like educators, editors and journalists suffered from a problem of

¹⁴¹ Randall S. Sumpter, *Before Journalism Schools: How Gilded Age Reporters Learned the Rules* (Columbia, Missouri: University of Missouri Press, 2018).

¹⁴² Sumpter, *Before Journalism Schools*.

¹⁴³ "Telegraphic Summary, Etc.," *The Baltimore Sun*, February 19, 1887.

¹⁴⁴ Michael Schudson, *Discovering the News: A Social History of American Newspapers* (New York: Basic Books, 1978).

¹⁴⁵ McChesney, *Communication Revolution*.

demarcation, too. In the early twentieth century social critics and muckrakers zeroed in on newspaper ownership, the role of advertising revenue, publicity agents, and general journalistic misconduct. Upton Sinclair, known for his exposé of the meat packing industry, which led to federal regulations, had since turned his attention to the news industry.¹⁴⁶ His indictment of the newspaper business, *The Brass Check*, showed an occupation in crisis. Sinclair accused those “who write and print and distribute our newspapers and magazines,” of selling truth in the marketplace, and betraying “the virgin hopes of mankind in the brothel of Big Business.”¹⁴⁷ Many editors and publishers were stung by the criticism. They felt critics painted journalism too broadly and failed to differentiate between good and bad actors.

Editors and publishers faced additional, material problems beyond social criticism and muckraking exposés. Tabloid journalism was on the rise. Advertisers and publicity agents demanded VIP treatment, and sports news was getting more and more space in the newspaper. The editors felt under siege. Tabloid journalism attracted big audiences even as they were criticized for sensationalism, over-simplification, and for “catering to the lowest common denominator and sometimes for outright lies.”¹⁴⁸ At the same time, editors and publishers were, in some cases, resisting advertisers who demanded their ads look like news copy, and press agents, or so called spacegrabbers, who expected free publicity from newspapers.¹⁴⁹ In, “The

¹⁴⁶ “Sinclair, Upton Beall,” Funk & Wagnalls New World Encyclopedia, January 1, 2018.

¹⁴⁷ Upton Sinclair, *The Brass Check* (The author, 1919), 436.

¹⁴⁸ Henrik Örnebring and Anna Maria Jönsson, “Tabloid Journalism and the Public Sphere: A Historical Perspective on Tabloid Journalism,” *Journalism Studies* 5 (3), 2004, 287.

¹⁴⁹ Linda Lawson, “Advertisements Masquerading as News in Turn-of-the-Century American Periodicals,” *American Journalism* 5 (1988), 81-96.

newspaper industry's campaign against spacegrabbers, 1917–1921,” Susan Lucarelli argues newsprint scarcity and post-World War I advertising volume combined to turn press agency and public relations into an enemy. When it seemed as if the federal government would create a new Bureau of Publicity, *Editor & Publisher* suggested that “Department of Advertising” would be a more suitable name. Trade journals drew a sharp distinction to differentiate between publicity and advertising. Publicity was free and took up space that otherwise might be sold to advertisers. This was a useful, profitable distinction to make.¹⁵⁰ Sports news was taking up more space in the pages of the newspapers, too. Boxing promoters spent thousands of dollars per year paying writers to promote their fights, going as far as making writers silent partners in their fights. Many sports editors were able to bypass copy editors by sending their copy directly to their composing rooms. Readership surged in the days leading up to major fights. The temptations to make extra money were so great that some editors made sure to assign only the most honest, veteran reporters to the sports beat.¹⁵¹

American Society of Newspaper Editors, 1923

The *Atlantic Monthly* published Frederick L. Allen’s critique of the newspaper business in January 1922.¹⁵² Allen, publicity manager for Harvard University and future editor-in-chief at *Harper’s*, had previously worked for the *Atlantic Monthly*.¹⁵³ According to Allen, the public had

¹⁵⁰ Susan Lucarelli, “The Newspaper Industry's Campaign Against Spacegrabbers, 1917–1921,” *Journalism Quarterly* 70, 4, (1993): 883-892.

¹⁵¹ Bruce J. Evensen, *When Dempsey Fought Tunney: Heroes, Hokum, and Storytelling in the Jazz Age* (University of Tennessee Press, 1996).

¹⁵² Frederick L. Allen, “Newspapers and the Truth,” *The Atlantic Monthly*, January, 1922, 44.

¹⁵³ Jonathan Yardley, “A History That Stands the Test of Time,” *Washington Post*, November 28, 2007; Frederick L. Allen, “The Contributors’ Column,” *The Atlantic Monthly*, January, 1922, 122.

never been more interested in newspaper ethics and the conduct of the press. The newspapers exploited divorce scandals and were preoccupied with men's misdeeds, he wrote. There was real concern, he continued, that advertisers, and department stores in particular, might be able to suppress or distort the news. None of that was especially new in 1922, he allowed. Yet the recent past –the war, its propaganda, censorship, and improved methods for swaying public opinion by managing the news –had shown the crisis in the newspaper business was far more serious than previously believed.¹⁵⁴

The public was more reliant on the press than ever before despite serious problems in the newspaper business. For Allen, there was bias in both the selection and presentation of the news. Worse than bias in the newspapers was the intentional misrepresentation done for economic gain. As Upton Sinclair's popular book *The Brass Check* had shown, he noted, reporters and publishers could be expected to prioritize their own financial interest over the public good.¹⁵⁵ Further, even the most well-intentioned newspaper reporter knew too little about the events they covered. They were so uneducated, he went on, that they could not understand how their ignorance handicapped their efforts.

Allen offered some suggestions for how to improve the newspaper business. First and foremost, newspapers could make a deliberate effort to hire men of education. "Schools of journalism are valuable to this end," he wrote, "both on the account of the preparation they give and of the added prestige they lend to the profession."¹⁵⁶ To attract better talent,

¹⁵⁴ Allen, "Newspapers."

¹⁵⁵ Sinclair, *Brass Check*.

¹⁵⁶ Allen, "Newspapers," 53.

newspaper proprietors should do whatever necessary to enhance the dignity and prestige of the reporting occupation. At the same time, reporters should resist the temptation to unionize. In some cities unions had secured better pay for reporters, but Allen argued that a reporter “should regard himself not as a laborer, but as a professional man.”¹⁵⁷ Editors and publishers should formulate ethics codes and prizes for accuracy to stimulate better reporting. Finally, perhaps independent news agencies could be established as a check on newspapers, and perhaps better efforts should be made to educate the public on how the newspaper business operates.

Allen was right that interest in newspaper conduct was reaching a crescendo. There had been no shortage of press criticism in the Progressive era.¹⁵⁸ Both Upton Sinclair and Walter Lippmann, writers with huge audiences cited by Allen, had already offered their own rebukes of contemporary journalism by 1922.¹⁵⁹ Sinclair’s *Brass Check* –which sold more than 150,000 copies –argued that “Politics, Journalism, and Big Business work hand in hand for the hoodwinking of the public and the plundering of labor.”¹⁶⁰ Walter Lippmann, who the *New York Times* would later call “the dean of American political journalism,” had offered his own thoughtful critique of newspapers in *Liberty & News*.¹⁶¹

¹⁵⁷ Allen, “Newspapers,” 53.

¹⁵⁸ McChesney, *Communication Revolution*.

¹⁵⁹ Walter Lippmann, *Liberty and the News* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Howe, 1920).

¹⁶⁰ Sinclair, *Brass Check*, 153; Ben Scott and Robert McChesney, “Upton Sinclair and the Contradictions of Capitalist Journalism,” *Monthly Review*, May 1, 2002.

¹⁶¹ Alden Whitman, “Walter Lippmann, Political Analyst, Dead at 85,” *New York Times*, December 15, 1974, 1.

Yet Allen's article in the *Atlantic* struck a nerve with Casper Yost, editor of the editorial page at the *St. Louis Globe-Democrat*.¹⁶² "The article attacked the newspaper profession very viciously and I thought unjustly," he would later say.¹⁶³ Yost, who learned to set type in 1872 at the age of 8, took it upon himself to provide a reply on behalf of his profession.¹⁶⁴

One month after Allen's article appeared in the *Atlantic*, Yost and four other editors met at the Blackstone Hotel in Chicago to discuss the formation of an organization for metropolitan newspaper editors. A few months later, in April of 1922, they were together again in New York City planning the first annual meeting of the newly organized American Society of Newspaper Editors (ASNE).¹⁶⁵ Yost wrote to his wife, Anna Yost, that he hoped ASNE would restore dignity to the profession. "It could be the greatest thing ever done for journalism," he wrote to her.¹⁶⁶ The ASNE meeting was well publicized. The announcement was printed in several newspapers. "Ours is a great and honorable profession," read the invitation. "Yet, curiously," it continued, "it is the only important profession not nationally organized."¹⁶⁷ Editors of metropolitan newspapers formally met as ASNE for the first time in Washington DC in April of 1923.

ASNE's first annual meeting began on Friday, April 27, 1923. Yost presented his vision

¹⁶² Alice Fox Pitts, *Read All About It! 50 Years of ASNE* (Easton, PA: American Society of Newspaper Editors, 1974).

¹⁶³ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Tenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1932), 108.

¹⁶⁴ *New York Times*, "Casper S. Yost, 77, St. Louis Editor," *New York Times*, May 31, 1941, 11.

¹⁶⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the First Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1923).

¹⁶⁶ Evensen, *Dempsey Fought Tunney*, 129, footnote 19.

¹⁶⁷ *Indianapolis Star*, "Explains New Editor Society," *Indianapolis Star*, June 4, 1922, 34.

for ASNE in the presidential remarks during the morning session. “We are, for the greater part,” he said, “anonymous beings constrained by the circumstances of journalism to subordinate our identities to the institutions we serve.”¹⁶⁸ Through ASNE, editors might create an identity for themselves. Through collective action they could articulate what he called a professional voice. “We enter a field whose boundaries are beyond the horizon,” he said. Journalism’s destiny was manifest. Yet, there were boundaries, he cautioned, and those boundaries “should confine us to the field of our profession.”¹⁶⁹

To articulate a professional voice, ASNE would counter the attacks being made upon the press. Boundaries would be defended. ASNE would speak with one voice “to defend the profession from unfair aspersions made upon its integrity.”¹⁷⁰ Further, establishing definite standards, or code of ethics, would reduce common mistakes. Another area of activity for ASNE would be defending the profession from legislative and administrative powers.

Finally, ASNE should look inward, to address the common problems within the profession. Yost listed what he considered the field’s most vexing problems: “The problem of the syndicates, the problem of the publicity agents, the problem of organized propaganda, the problem of the supply of competent newspaper workers, are but few of the questions that merit study and perhaps action by our Society.”¹⁷¹

Both the morning and afternoon sessions on Friday featured reports from each of the

¹⁶⁸ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 20.

¹⁶⁹ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 20.

¹⁷⁰ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 17.

¹⁷¹ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 20.

ASNE committees: the Committees on Program, Membership, Legislation, Syndicates and Press Service, and Ethical Standards. Arthur Howe, editor of the *Brooklyn Eagle* and chair of the Special Committee on Schools of Journalism, gave the final report.

Howe reported there were more than 200 colleges and universities offering courses in journalism, and that a “classification of the more important of these schools and courses is now being made by men who are qualified to estimate the value of the instruction given.”¹⁷² Howe was referring to a study being conducted by AATJ and AASDJ. Howe’s committee had been given access to the in-progress report with the understanding that it was incomplete and should not be published. Nevertheless, Howe told the ASNE audience that an A rating had been tentatively given to eight schools and that out of 43 courses under consideration a tentative A rating had been given to 19. “The absence of a trustworthy classification of these schools and courses,” he said, “is the most formidable barrier to any intelligent survey of their work.”¹⁷³ ASNE wanted to work with the schools, but not all of them.

Howe’s committee began their work with a survey of its own. The survey included a select number of schools and asked respondents about “the scope of their teaching and the personnel of their staffs, especially in regard to practical newspaper training.”¹⁷⁴ They also questioned editorial executives about their experience working with graduates from the schools of journalism. The schools were responsive, answering promptly and fully, and sending annual reports and other literature. On the other hand, Howe was disappointed that several

¹⁷² Problems of Journalism, 1923, 53.

¹⁷³ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 53.

¹⁷⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 53.

editors at important newspaper failed to respond.

The schools surveyed by Howe's committee all valued practical experience, either on a school newspaper or in the offices of a city newspaper. Nearly all the schools surveyed had teaching staff with practical newspaper experience. A minority of directors suggested too much emphasis was placed upon the practical, and too little emphasis placed upon the ideals of the profession.

Among the editors who responded to the survey, a few themes emerged. According to Howe, many believed that journalism schools were not doing enough to weed out the unfit. Further, editors were "strongly in favor of a broad measure of technical training given under teachers of practical newspaper experience."¹⁷⁵ There were two more abuses to mention. Many felt that journalism schools were essentially press offices for their universities, and others were quite concerned with correspondence schools.

According to Howe, the value of the schools of journalism would be in their ability to discourage the entry of the unfit, to relieve the newspapers of technical training, and the supporting courses would build up a student's background knowledge. Howe recommended ASNE assist schools with high standards of teaching and adequate equipment and discourage resource-poor institutions from offering journalism. He assured the ASNE audience that standards and classification were the top priority for AATJ and AASDJ, and that their survey was in progress. All involved believed that classification would produce better instruction and inspire institutions to improve their programs. "It is not sufficient that the newspaper aspirant

¹⁷⁵ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 57.

shall say that he has studied journalism,” said Howe. “Where and when he studied it,” he continued, “is the vital point.”¹⁷⁶

Following Howe’s report, discussion shifted to correspondence schools. Howe had mentioned correspondence schools in his report. He noted that correspondence schools were issuing “press writer” credential cards. These “press writers” were bothering newspaper sources and taking up their time. Marvin Creager, editor of the *Milwaukee Journal*, offered his perspective. Correspondence schools were a swindle, he said. Creager had received several news articles from small towns, carefully written out on ruled paper, from individuals who “informed me that they belonged to some association and that they were authorized to act as correspondents for newspapers, and that they have paid their money for it and expect to receive remuneration and see their things printed.”¹⁷⁷ Howe’s committee agreed to look into the matter in greater detail.

Like so many other occupational groups in the interwar period, including journalism educators, the metropolitan editors had formed a professional organization to advance their interests. Their alliance amounted to a mutual defense pact. They would define journalism for the public and defend each other from what they felt were unfair attacks—whether from the public or from political and legal authorities. Their Canons of Journalism, adopted at their first meeting, would be their opening statement.

IV. Canons and codes

Newspaper editors in ASNE and journalism educators in the AATJ and AASDJ adopted

¹⁷⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 58.

¹⁷⁷ Problems of Journalism, 1923, 65.

codes of conduct in 1923 and 1924. Solving the problems of demarcation in journalism and journalism education were shared priorities and the editors and educators believed their canons, codes, principles and standards would be a mark of distinction.

The Kansas Editorial Association was one of the first newspaper organizations to adopt a code of ethics in 1910.¹⁷⁸ Other organizations followed. The Missouri Press Association in 1921. The South Dakota Press Association and the Oregon State Editorial Association in 1922. The Oregon Code of Ethics for Journalism was written by the dean of the school of journalism at the University of Oregon. Many newspapers and magazines, even if they lacked an official code, provided rules and guidance to their reporters.¹⁷⁹ Canons and codes were a way for editors to set their newspapers apart. They were a next step toward solving the problem of demarcation.

ASNE adopted its code of ethics, or Canons of Journalism, at their first meeting in 1923. The code was drawn up by ASNE's committee on ethical standards.¹⁸⁰ There were seven principles. First, newspapers were responsible for the public welfare, and should be faithful to that trust. The next two sections covered freedom of the press and independence. Journalist should be sincere, truthful, and accurate. The next two sections pledged impartiality and fair play. News reports would be free of bias and accountable for mistakes made. Finally, newspapers should act with decency, avoiding the details of vice and crime. The foundation of good journalism was acting in good faith with readers, and ASNE hoped the code of ethics

¹⁷⁸ Alfred G. Hill, "The Practice of the Kansas Code of Ethics for Newspapers," *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 101 (1922): 179-87.

¹⁷⁹ Nelson Crawford, *The Ethics of Journalism* (New York: A.A. Knopf, 1924).

¹⁸⁰ *New York Tribune*, "Harding Helps Editors United and Draft Code," *New York Tribune*, April 29, 1923, 3; *Problems of Journalism*, 1923, 65.

would reassure their audiences. Lacking any real authority, and with no enforcement mechanism, the canons closed with the hope that either public disapproval or professional condemnation would be enough to improve the standing of the newspaper business.¹⁸¹

News of ASNE's organization and code of ethics appeared in newspapers across the country. Time magazine hoped ASNE would "be to journalism what the American Bar Association is to the legal fraternity."¹⁸² Bruce Bliven's *New Republic* had a small, but powerful audience of intellectuals and government officials in 1923.¹⁸³ Bliven was concerned that ASNE's code would do little to improve the newspaper business. The real problems were vulgarity, stupidity, and cowardice, and those trends were on the rise, he wrote. That is why "metropolitan journalism does not, with the exception of a few papers in a few cities, offer its practitioners either spiritual or financial rewards comparable to those obtained in law, medicine or engineering."¹⁸⁴ It is why, he continued, an increasing proportion of graduates of the journalism schools become press agents or choose careers unrelated to journalism.

Following the first ASNE meeting and the publicity surrounding the code of ethics, Yost published *The Principles of Journalism* in 1924. In it, he expounded on the code of ethics by formulating the fundamental principles of journalism, and the scope of ASNE's professionalism project.¹⁸⁵ On more than one occasion Yost had claimed Frederick Allen's article attacking the

¹⁸¹ Atlanta Constitution, "Journalism Code of Ethics Formed by Newspapermen," *Atlanta Constitution*, April 29, 1923, 5d.

¹⁸² Time Magazine, "Decency," *Time*, May 5, 1923, 25.

¹⁸³ Alden Whitman, "Bruce Bliven, 87, Former Editor of New Republic, Dies at Stanford," *New York Times*, May 29, 1977, 28.

¹⁸⁴ Bruce Bliven, "Newspaper Morals," *New Republic*, May 30, 1923, 18.

¹⁸⁵ Casper S. Yost, *The Principles of Journalism* (New York: D. Appleton and Company, 1924).

newspaper business, published in the *Atlantic Monthly* in January 1922, was the impetus for the founding of ASNE. Yost felt the criticism was unfair. Nevertheless, Yost adopted nearly all of Allen's suggestions for how to improve the standing of the newspaper business, from the code of ethics to the anti-union sentiment. Moreover, Yost embraced Allen's linking of the schools of journalism and the larger professionalism project.

One of Yost's main practical concerns was the supply of workers. For Yost, the fundamental task of journalism was getting the news. The ability to get the news was likened to the ability of an artist to find beauty where others saw nothing. Journalists, like artists, were shaped by their experiences, he wrote. The future of journalism rested on the character and capacity of news gatherers. It was useless for editors to strive for perfection without considering the sources of production. Moreover, the newspaper business required "not only more workers but workers who are better equipped *at the beginning* of professional practice."¹⁸⁶ Granting the value of training through experience, Yost argued that specialization in the metropolitan newspapers meant little opportunity for experience in all the elements of journalism.

"The schools of journalism," he wrote, "must be increasingly relied upon as the sources of supply from which the ranks of journalism are to be recruited."¹⁸⁷ If journalism was to achieve professional status it must "reach the point where for its own protection it will set up definite standards of qualification for admission to practice."¹⁸⁸ A good school of journalism

¹⁸⁶ Yost, *Principles*, 73.

¹⁸⁷ Yost, *Principles*, 72.

¹⁸⁸ Yost, *Principles*, 73.

could “lay a foundation of useful knowledge, impart the elements of professional practice and inculcate professional ideals.”¹⁸⁹

Silas Bent was a journalist, publicist, and biographer. He worked in the newspaper business in Louisville and St. Louis before joining Walter Williams at the school of journalism at Missouri in 1908. Later, he moved to Chicago and then on to New York City where he worked for several newspapers.¹⁹⁰ Bent reviewed Yost’s *Principles of Journalism* for the *New York Times*. Little surprise that he agreed with Yost. “When all newspaper men have been taught in schools of journalism,” he wrote, “they will be professional men.”¹⁹¹

Like ASNE, journalism educators in the AASDJ were serious about quality control. The AASDJ would operate like an accrediting agency, recognizing individual institutions and making them eligible for membership. In contrast, the AATJ operated more like a professional development organization, supporting individual journalism instructors regardless of their affiliation. Journalism educators were active in both organizations, but one had to teach at an AASDJ institution to participate in its proceedings. In 1922 the AASDJ organized the Committee on Classification and tasked the committee with classifying journalism schools and departments at particular levels: A, B, and C.¹⁹² By 1924, the AASDJ Committee on Classification became a collaborative effort with members of AATJ and was renamed the Council on Education for

¹⁸⁹ Yost, *Principles*, 74.

¹⁹⁰ Biography Reference Bank, “Bent, Silas.” World Authors 1900-1950, January 1, 1996.

¹⁹¹ Silas Bent, “Journalism as one of the learned professions,” *New York Times*, May 11, 1924, BR6.

¹⁹² Emery and McKerns, *75 Years*.

Journalism, with Bleyer of Wisconsin as chair.¹⁹³ The boundary between the two journalism organizations would remain, but the Council on Education would serve the interests of both.

The Council on Education did not complete a comprehensive classification, but it did write the Principles and Standards of Education for Journalism. The Principles and Standards would regulate institutional membership in AASDJ and lay out best practices in the training of journalists.

The Principles and Standards enumerated 12 standards for journalism education. To be accepted in the AASDJ, a journalism program had to be recognized on its campus as a department or school of journalism. A program could not be embedded in another department, as so many journalism programs operated under the authority of an English department. Accreditation would only be conferred upon programs with a four-year plan of study, including course offerings in reporting, copy reading, editorial writing, the writing of special articles, “and instruction in the history of journalism, and the principles, or ethics, of journalism (with particular reference to the duties and responsibilities of the journalist to society), and the law of the press.”¹⁹⁴ Accredited programs would have journalism libraries and sufficient laboratory equipment to support instruction. Only the best institutions would be capable of satisfying the Principles and Standards. Admission standards and graduation requirements would be “sufficiently high to prevent students lacking in knowledge, ability, and proficiency from

¹⁹³ Conn, “The American Council.”

¹⁹⁴ “Official Notices,” *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1924, 31.

obtaining a degree in journalism.”¹⁹⁵

The AATJ and AASDJ adopted the Principles and Standards at their annual meetings in late December, 1924, in Chicago.¹⁹⁶ With the Principles and Standards, the AASDJ wrote itself into power, positioning itself as the official voice of journalism education. By 1929, the Department of the Interior’s Bureau of Education reprinted the Principles and Standards in their bulletin, *Accredited Higher Institutions*, and recognized the AASDJ as the official accrediting body for journalism programs in higher education.¹⁹⁷

A small group of accredited programs would be known as Class A programs. All Class A programs would belong to AASDJ. Journalism programs which failed to meet the criteria but were nevertheless seen as offering some degree of rigor would be known as Class B programs. All other programs in higher education would be referred to as Class C programs. Trade schools and correspondence schools were not addressed. At the same time, educators hoped their Principles and Standards would encourage a university to either invest in its journalism program to such a degree that it would become accredited, or it would shut its journalism program down. Accreditation would be a pass/fail challenge to the entire field of journalism education. Editors and educators hoped Class B schools would aspire to a Class A classification, or accreditation, and Class C schools, trade schools, and correspondence schools, would be driven from the field. If editors and educators could explicitly link participation in journalism and

¹⁹⁵ “Official Notices,” *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1924, 31.

¹⁹⁶ R.R. Barlow, “Official Notices,” *Journalism Bulletin* 1, (January 1924): 30.

¹⁹⁷ Ella B. Ratcliffe, *Accredited Higher Institutions* (Washington, DC: Department of the Interior, 1929).

journalism education to accreditation they could neutralize the unaccredited programs. Later, in the mid-1940s Class B schools would coalesce around Perley I. Reed of West Virginia University.¹⁹⁸

A certain amount of cooperation between the two groups was required if they hoped to accomplish their goals. Editors needed to know which schools possessed the resources and talent to train future reporters. Educators needed to know what kinds of skills and knowledge editors required. Together, they wanted to raise the status of journalism from an occupation to a profession. They believed that through their particular methods and values they might produce a journalist capable of adding something of value not only to the newspaper, but to society.

While editors and educators can be accused of feathering their own nests, they were nevertheless quite serious about improving the quality of journalism school graduates and ultimately they would. Editors wanted to communicate to their audience that their newspaper was a cut above the rest and hiring well-trained newspaper reporters was therefore important to the overall mission. Journalism educators, meanwhile, wanted to communicate to editors that their particular institution could supply well-trained journalists.

V. Regulating participation

AASDJ's membership criteria evolved over the years, both in terms of electing new members and enforcing existing rules on its current members. Educators wanted their Principles and Standards to be as widely distributed as possible, but enforcing those standards

¹⁹⁸ Perley I. Reed's creation of the American Society of Journalism School Administrators for Class B programs is covered in Chapter Five.

on its own members was less of a priority than using the standards to keep out other institutions. At the 1925 convention, AASDJ amended their constitution, adding that any college or university that maintained the principles and standards would be eligible for AASDJ membership.¹⁹⁹ Satisfying the standards meant eligibility, not automatic membership.

By 1930, AASDJ amended their constitution to require “favorable vote of a majority of the members of the Council on Education for Journalism and of two-thirds of the members of the association shall be required for the election of new members.”²⁰⁰ Bleyer’s Council on Education for Journalism were first to see new applications for AASDJ membership. He asked members to consider whether they wanted to adopt a liberal or conservative policy with respect to membership expansion. They agreed that if a member met all the qualifications, they were entitled to a full vote.²⁰¹

Discussion turned again to new membership at the 1934 AASDJ meeting. Any school could apply to AASDJ, but admission was based on their ability to satisfy the standards and principles. Some members wanted to institute an invitation only policy. AASDJ would invite schools to apply, but as a general rule, applications would not be received unless they were requested by AASDJ. The motion proved divisive and the issue was set aside until 1935.²⁰²

¹⁹⁹ Myers, “Official Notices,” 43.

²⁰⁰ H. H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ” *Journalism Bulletin* 8, (January 1931): 191.

²⁰¹ H. H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” 183.

²⁰² H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 12, (January 1935): 60.

At the 1935 AASDJ convention, members finally amended Article 3, Section 5, of the AASDJ constitution.²⁰³ Henceforth, membership would be by invitation only. “Applications are not received,” the amendment read.²⁰⁴ Approval from the Council on Education for Journalism with no more than two dissenting votes, and two-thirds of the full association would result in an invitation to membership. Instructors and deans from those schools or departments who wished to be part of AASDJ must have had a hard time keeping up.

The deck was stacked in favor of AASDJ institutions. Only large, well-funded, predominately white institutions would be capable of satisfying the AASDJ standards, thereby reaping the rewards of accreditation. Women’s colleges and historically Black colleges would be left on the sideline. The first school or department of journalism to be denied AASDJ membership was the School of Journalism at the Baylor Female College, in Belton, Texas, now known as the University of Mary Hardin-Baylor.²⁰⁵ The rejection was consistent with the exclusion of women, and people of color, in both journalism education, the industry, and the broader society.

Yet individual women were welcome as part of AATJ. While there were no women members present at the 1912 meeting, their numbers did improve until the Great Depression. By 1927, forty-two women were members of AATJ. M. Virginia Garner was head of the School of Journalism at Mercer University and the Department of Journalism at Wesleyan College in

²⁰³ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 13, 1, (March 1936): 37.

²⁰⁴ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” 44.

²⁰⁵ Jo-Ann Huff Albers, “AEJMC’s First Woman President: Dr. Mary A. Gardner,” in *Seeking Equity for Women In Journalism and Mass Communication Education: A 30-Year Update*, Edited by Pamela J. Creedon, Ramona R. Rush, Carol E. Oukrop (New York: Routledge, 2004); Emery and McKerns, *75 Years*.

Macon, Georgia. In 1924 she was elected as vice president of AATJ.²⁰⁶ That same year she was also named associated editor of *Journalism Bulletin*, the official journal of AATJ and AASDJ.²⁰⁷

Susan Henry is professor emerita of journalism at California State Northridge. Henry writes about women in the history of journalism education. In her essay, “But Where Are All the Women?” she recounts an exchange between Walter Williams, dean of the Missouri school of journalism, and Frank Kane, a professor of journalism at the University of Washington. In 1916, Kane was searching for a faculty member to teach advertising. He wrote to Williams to ask for a recommendation. Williams responded that unfortunately the best man for the job was a woman. Her name was Merze Marvin. “I do not think you have the nerve to appoint her to the position,” he wrote. “I am sure I would not.” She was the best qualified, though, he had to admit. “Her sex is her only drawback,” he added.²⁰⁸ Williams did hire a woman in 1921. Sara Lockwood taught in the Missouri school of journalism from 1921 until she married Williams in 1927.²⁰⁹ She returned to teaching in 1937, after Williams’s death. She taught Opportunities in Journalism for Women at the University of Washington.²¹⁰

Classification

²⁰⁶ Albers, “AEJMC’s First Woman President.”

²⁰⁷ *The Atlanta Constitution*, News of Interest of Wesleyan College, *The Atlanta Constitution*, March 22, 1924, F4.

²⁰⁸ Susan Henry, “‘But Where Are All the Women?’: Our History, in Seeking Equity for Women” In *Journalism and Mass Communication Education: A 30-Year Update*, Edited by Pamela J. Creedon, Ramona R. Rush, Carol E. Oukrop (New York: Routledge, 2004), 3.

²⁰⁹ Albers, “AEJMC’s First Woman President.”

²¹⁰ Henry, “‘But Where Are All the Women?’”

Dean Walter Williams, founder of AASDJ, the de facto accrediting organization for journalism education, was invited to speak at the 1925 ASNE meeting. He gave his presentation on Saturday afternoon.²¹¹ Titled “Are the Schools of Journalism Getting Anywhere?” Williams told the ASNE members there were ten or fifteen first-rank schools and departments of journalism. Those institutions gave four-year courses leading to a degree in journalism or gave some kind of notation on their academic degree showing a specialization in journalism. Williams would focus on these ten or fifteen institutions in his report. “It is of these schools,” he said, “that I assume the inquiry is made.”²¹²

Journalism schools were eliminating the unfit and lifting the professional spirit. “The school of journalism has been a sieve, eliminating some of the incompetent,” he said.²¹³ One obstacle to recruiting better talent though, was the low pay of newspaper reporters. “If you wish better reporting,” Williams said, “you must pay your reporters larger salaries.”²¹⁴ Further, there were too many “quack” courses in journalism education, designed to make a quick buck for the institution. ASNE should not encourage this trend, he warned.

ASNE and the other journalism organizations, including the American Newspaper Publishers Association (ANPA), could help the situation by offering a sympathetic attitude, he continued, and “by differentiating between schools and departments of journalism which have

²¹¹ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Third Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1925).

²¹² Problems of Journalism, 1925, 114.

²¹³ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 116.

²¹⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 116.

adequate personnel and equipment and purpose and those which have not.”²¹⁵ For the ASNE audience, Williams drew the boundary between the “ten or fifteen schools” offering high quality instruction and the rest of the field, based on personnel, equipment, and purpose. Williams asked ASNE to join ANPA and the National Editorial Association (NEA) to “undertake a study and classification of the instruction for journalism.”²¹⁶

Arthur Howe, chair of ASNE’s committee on schools of journalism and editor of the *Brooklyn Eagle*, reminded his ASNE audience that classification was a priority for all interested parties in his April 1927 report on journalism education. “The importance of classification,” he said, “is everywhere recognized.”²¹⁷ There were too many schools discrediting reputable institutions, according to him. Following ASNE’s 1927 meeting, Howe’s committee on journalism schools offered to cooperate with AATJ and AASDJ on classification, but nothing came of it. “Classification stands today on the uncertain foundation occupied a year ago,” Howe reported one year later, at the 1928 ASNE meeting.²¹⁸ The 18 schools in AASDJ were rated informally as belonging to the A class by Howe’s committee, but there was no rating for B or C schools.

The first real opportunity for educators and editors to collaborate on survey and classification of journalism education came in 1930 with the creation of the Joint Committee. A

²¹⁵ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 116.

²¹⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 116.

²¹⁷ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Fifth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1927), 157.

²¹⁸ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Sixth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1928), 42.

comprehensive survey of journalism education would be the committee's top priority. At the 1930 AATJ convention held at Boston University, Fred Fuller Shedd, editor of the *Philadelphia Evening Bulletin*, announced that he had convinced the NEA to join with ASNE in the formation of a committee to study the problems of journalism education. Shedd then invited AATJ and AASDJ to name 3 representatives each, forming a committee between educators and professionals. The NEA would represent rural newspapers, and ASNE would represent metropolitan newspapers. AATJ would represent journalism instructors, and AASDJ would represent the class A schools.

Members called the Joint Committee the "most significant forward step in education for journalism."²¹⁹ The Joint Committee was seen as the agency through which ASNE could make its most significant contribution to relations between the schools and the press, but progress was slow.²²⁰ Not long after the initial announcement, Shedd told ASNE members that ANPA had joined the Joint Committee, but little else had been done to conduct a survey and classification of journalism education. There was still hope that the Carnegie Foundation might support a survey, but all agreed that further action be put off until economic conditions improved.²²¹ The Joint Committee did not meet in 1934 either.²²² Depression era conditions had smothered the momentum toward cooperation between the industry the academy.

²¹⁹ H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AASDJ," 15.

²²⁰ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Tenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1932).

²²¹ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Eleventh Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1933).

²²² H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AASDJ," *The Journalism Quarterly*, 12, (January 1935): 60.

When the Joint Committee was reborn in the late 1930s it would be without the assistance of the AATJ²²³. Both the AATJ and AASDJ had equal representation in the Joint Committee of 1930. The AASDJ operated as an accrediting agency and the AATJ as a professional development organization, but both had been included when the industry came calling in 1930. The reincarnated Joint Committee, however, would include only instructors from the AASDJ. The AASDJ was exclusive to accredited, Class A programs, but the AATJ included instructors from both Class A and Class B programs. By 1936, the AASDJ reasoned that only instructors from accredited programs should have a voice on how best to set up a new, collaborative accrediting agency with the industry. Things boiled over the 1937 AASDJ convention.

Grant Hyde, chair of the long dormant Joint Committee, addressed the issue of future committee appointments at AASDJ's annual meeting in 1937. Before a renewed effort to collaborate with the industry on accrediting could take place the educators needed to settle once and for all on who could participate in the committee's work. Hyde told the audience that he planned to submit a new proposal to AASDJ that would recommend rotating terms on the Joint Committee. An AATJ representative asked Hyde if action had been taken on the six AATJ representatives appointed to the Joint Committee at the 1936 AATJ meeting. Hyde replied that he felt it unnecessary to include the new appointees. The Joint Committee was already too big. If they added more teachers, the industry would want more members, too.²²⁴ Hyde, and the Class A programs in AASDJ were cutting the teacher organization out of the Joint Committee.

²²³ A reborn Joint Committee is covered in Chapter 5.

²²⁴ H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AATJ," *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938).

H.E. Birdsong, an instructor from Temple, a Class B program, had pushed AATJ to add more members at its 1936 convention. He had further argued at the 1936 meeting that non-AASDJ instructors should have a voice on the Joint Committee. Now, Birdsong asked Hyde if the Joint Committee plan of rotating members would include instructors from Class B programs. Hyde answered Birdsong by saying there had been some confusion about what was meant by “joint committee.” Hyde explained the “joint” referred to the AASDJ and newspaper groups. If the teachers had suggestions, they could submit them to the AATJ, but the AATJ would not representation. In his view, the AATJ’s role was to work with state and local groups of newspapers, and should not concern itself with regional and national issues.²²⁵ The Joint Committee was operating in a national context, he noted. Hyde referred to the original Joint Committee founded by Fred Fuller Shedd in 1930 as a “predecessor.” It was in the past. The most recent incarnation, “was set up by action of the president of AASDJ, who in 1936 appointed a group of journalism teachers and directors.”²²⁶ In other words, this would be a new Joint Committee, and AATJ would not be included.

Birdsong pointed out that the interests of Class B schools were not being considered by the Joint Committee. The plan for AASDJ graduates to carry identification cards, first proposed in 1928, was a perfect example, he said. Graduates from other institutions were clearly at a disadvantage, he went on.²²⁷ Others noted that the planned merger of AATJ and AASDJ would

²²⁵ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938), 122.

²²⁶ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938): 140.

²²⁷ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938).

fail because the newspaper editors wanted to explicitly distinguish between “fully organized and equipped departments and those of smaller size and lower standards.”²²⁸ Maintaining the separation between the AATJ and AASDJ helped make that distinction.

Hyde went on to lay out the future of a new Joint Committee and detail its priorities. First on the list was to encourage “with rather wide publicity, the various schools to equip their graduates with identification cards certifying their college and professional school training.”²²⁹ They also “laid the groundwork for a classification or differentiation of the various colleges and universities that teach journalism.”²³⁰ The concerns of Class B schools had been ignored again. At first, AATJ, which included many Class B programs, was told it could not have representation in the organization of a new Joint Committee because the committee already had too many members. When members pushed back, Hyde told them they were confused about what exactly “joint” meant.

While the Joint Committee continued to stall in the late 1930s, AATJ pursued a different strategy in the aftermath of their clash with AASDJ. In 1938, AATJ organized six regions. This would enable them to continue to support the regional groups, which would become a feature of AATJ.²³¹ Both AATJ and AASDJ moved to hold biennial meetings after their 1938 meetings.

Credentialing

Beyond comprehensive surveys and classification, AASDJ and ASNE considered other solutions to address their problems of demarcation. While a national survey would be cost

²²⁸ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938), 123.

²²⁹ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938): 141

²³⁰ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938): 141

²³¹ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 16, 1, (March 1939): 114.

prohibitive, an official journalism education credential might help professional editors identify and hire graduates from accredited schools and departments of journalism. At the same time, such an arraignment would disadvantage journalism students enrolled at institutions unaffiliated with AASDJ, but that was the point.

The president of AASDJ suggested at its annual meeting in 1928 that AASDJ work with ASNE to develop some means “to protect schools and departments of journalism from the discredit often brought upon them by students who misrepresent themselves to editors as accredited graduates in journalism.”²³² Stone had identified a credentialing problem, and suggested a solution lay in cooperating with ASNE.

AASDJ recognized the need for a comprehensive classification of journalism education. Their response was to admit they lacked the resources to carry out such a survey. In the meantime, AASDJ schools would issue identification cards to their graduates. AASDJ requested that ASNE members “request all applicants from schools and departments of journalism to show their identification cards.”²³³ In the discussion that followed, many felt that most editors would ignore the request. Nevertheless, they produced a draft of the identification card just a few hours later. The front of the card would list AASDJ and ASNE as sponsors, and verify the applicant’s credentials. On the back would be a list of all the AASDJ schools.²³⁴

Henry Claus succeeded Arthur Howe as chair of ASNE’s committee on schools of journalism in 1929. He introduced the idea of identification card to ASNE members when they

²³² John Lewis Brumm, “Minutes of the AASDJ,” *Journalism Bulletin* 6, 2 (January 1929): 34.

²³³ Brumm, “Minutes of the AASDJ,” 36.

²³⁴ Brumm, “Minutes of the AASDJ,” 34.

gathered in April of 1929 for their annual meeting. Claus began his report by reminding ASNE of the value of classification, and what the editors hoped to gain from it. Managing editors were bombarded with applications, he said, and they needed to know “which schools make a serious business of training for journalism and which schools are in it for revenue or only because they feel that they must keep up with the procession.”²³⁵ He acknowledged the great need of classification, but admitted the cost of visiting every school or department of journalism was too much for ASNE or the educator groups. He then threw his support behind AASDJ’s identification card plan.

Until a survey and classification could be completed, AASDJ schools would issue identification cards to their graduates and request that ASNE require its members to “request all applicants from schools and departments of journalism to show their identification cards.”²³⁶ Claus reminded his audience that identification cards had been covered in a recent issue of the ASNE bulletin and he recommended that ASNE cooperate with AASDJ on identification cards, and ASNE’s committee on the schools of journalism agreed.

It is difficult to know the extent to which graduates from AASDJ institutions were given identification cards on the one hand, and the frequency with which newspaper editors asked job applicants to produce them on the other. The plan for AASDJ graduates to carry identification cards did come up again, ten years later, in 1938.²³⁷ As the effects of the Great

²³⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Seventh Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1929), 42.

²³⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1929, 42.

²³⁷ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938).

Depression lessened, journalism educators and industry representatives were resuming their collaborative effort on the Joint Committee. In the planning sessions leading up to restarting the Joint Committee, an instructor from Temple, a non-AASDJ institution, pointed out that the interests of non-AASDJ schools was not being considered by the Joint Committee. The plan for AASDJ graduates to carry identification cards, first proposed in 1928, was a perfect example, he said. Graduates from other institutions were clearly at a disadvantage, he had protested.²³⁸

Those comments do not tell us whether the plan to issue identification cards got off the ground, but it does show that the move created tension among journalism educators. When the industry came looking for a partner in the academy, it was AASDJ that seized the opportunity, and it was AASDJ that made certain only affiliated instructors would be part of an eventual accrediting process. Through classification and accrediting, AASDJ, representing the top tier of journalism programs in higher education, and ASNE, representing metropolitan newspapers, would bring order to education for journalism and profit at the same time.

VI. Conclusion

Journalism educators and metropolitan newspaper editors set themselves apart through boundary work. They founded professional organizations, and developed the Canons of Journalism and the Principles and Standards for Journalism Education. They set the rules on organizational membership, and then turned their organizations into a de facto accrediting body for journalism. They were focused on participation –who could be a journalist, who could teach journalism, who could enroll in a journalism course. AASDJ instructors tried to

²³⁸ H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AATJ," *The Journalism Quarterly*, 15, 1, (March 1938).

monopolize the production of metropolitan journalists, and metropolitan editors saw in specialized accreditation an opportunity to bolster their own case for professional status.

In the next chapter, I focus on boundary work around practices in journalism education. Then, I explore how serious challenges to journalism's professional status –from other educators, university administrators, the federal government –forced the AASDJ and other industry organizations, like ASNE, to get serious about specialized accrediting.

4. Practices

I. Introduction

Members of the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ) authored the Principles and Standards of Education for Journalism in 1924 to create a criterion for membership in their organization and to establish best practices in journalism education. With that bit of boundary work the AASDJ positioned itself to regulate who could participate in journalism education, and which practices were appropriate in the training of future journalists. In the previous chapter, the focus was on boundary work around participation in journalism education. Teachers of journalism in the interwar period debated who was best qualified to offer education in journalism and which institutions were most capable. In this chapter, I focus on their boundary work around practices in journalism education.

In boundary work, practices refer to the methods used by a particular social group to pursue their goals. Practices in the context of journalism education refer to the methods embraced by AASDJ member institutions pursuant to the goal of educating students. Practices in journalism education encompass administrative and organizational matters such as whether journalism programs would establish graduate schools, or maintain focus on undergraduate education. Would undergraduate programs be better served if organized as an independent school of journalism or as an academic department within a larger academic unit on campus? Practices in the context of journalism education further include issues related to curricular focus. Some, like Columbia and Missouri, emphasized hands-on, practical experiences. Others,

like Wisconsin and Minnesota, put the liberal arts, and later, the social sciences, at the center of journalism curricula.

Practices are fundamental to boundary work because they are invoked by members of a social group to differentiate insiders from outsiders. As a social group develops a repertoire of practices they also develop a set of practiced-based rhetorical moves that are selectively invoked when they believe it will secure material advantages. When a social group finds its authority challenged, it accentuates specific practices to distinguish itself from the field and muscle out the competition.

Yet even as AASDJ closed ranks to regulate participation, its members could not agree on what exactly participating institutions would or should do in the classroom or how best to structure their programs. The presumed connection between who could participate in journalism education and what exactly those participants would be expected to do never materialized. Instead, AASDJ programs were free to pursue nearly any model of education they desired while programs at smaller, less prestigious institutions would have to jump through hoops and undergo rigorous evaluation before their graduates could reap the benefits of AASDJ membership. For observers who believed the AASDJ was serious about enforcing standards and principles in journalism education the disconnect between participation and practices must have raised some questions. Seen through the lens of boundary work, however, one can begin to make sense of how the AASDJ turned these internal contradictions to their advantage to keep the boundary between the haves and have-nots in journalism education intact.

In this chapter I use Gieryn's framework to explore the diverse educational practices among AASDJ members. I begin with a review of the mechanics of boundary work: role strain

and group interest. I then document the variety of educational practices among AASDJ institutions in the interwar period and link those diverse practices to role strain and the rhetorical reflexes they enabled. Finally, I show how group interest among AASDJ members determined which repertoire, or rhetorical device, to invoke in the credibility contests that ensued as the scope of journalism education began to expand.

II. Strains and interests

Gieryn's boundary work framework integrates two theoretical orientations in the sociology of ideologies –strain and interest theories –to explain the rhetorical style common to boundary work.²³⁹ His model of role strain and group interests within social groups is well suited to explain the diverse educational practices among AASDJ members on the one hand, and the rhetorical moves they made to protect their boundaries on the other.

To explain strain and interest theories Gieryn borrows from Harvard sociologist Talcott Parsons, who attempted to develop a single theoretical framework to analyze major institutions within society, and economist and historian Karl Marx.²⁴⁰ From Parsons, Gieryn adopts strain theories, which suggest social roles are essential to social systems, but that conflicting demands and competing expectations produce role strain, contradiction, and disequilibrium in certain groups of people and/or professional groups. Ideologies, Parsons argued, help integrate these conflicts and smooth inconsistencies within the social group. Marx, on the other hand, put self-interest at the center of ideology. He explained ideologies as weapons used by particular social

²³⁹ Thomas F. Gieryn, "Boundary-Work and the Demarcation of Science from Non-Science: Strains and Interests in Professional Ideologies of Scientists," *American Sociological Review* (1983): 781-795.

²⁴⁰ *Current Biography*, Talcott Parsons, December 13, 1902 - May 08, 1979, (Bio Ref Bank), 1961.

groups to advance their political or economic interests. Gieryn suggests strain and interest theories are not necessarily incompatible. An ideology can smooth inconsistencies and advance interests at the same time.

Building on the work of Parsons and Marx, Gieryn argues that role strain, brought on by inconsistencies, conflicting demands and competing expectations, is a blessing in disguise, because it provides the ideologists with diverse rhetorical resources, what he calls “alternative repertoires.”²⁴¹ Thus, contradiction, or role strain within a social group enables a certain rhetorical flexibility in a jurisdictional dispute among social groups. Just as a prizefighter might develop a repertoire of punching combinations, ideologists within social groups develop a set of rhetorical moves. Some moves are offensive. Some are defensive. In any case, alternative repertoires are derived from diverse practices among a social group, and group interest guides the selection of which alternative repertoire, or rhetorical move to make.

In Gieryn’s study, scientists embraced both empirical and theoretical practices.²⁴² While these diverse practices created some degree of tension among scientists as a social group, it also meant that scientists could invoke either their empirical methods or their theoretical models, depending on the boundary they were trying maintain. When scientists clashed with religious authority in Victorian England, they invoked their empiricism and used religious theory as a foil. When they clashed with mechanics and industry, they emphasized their own scientific theories and criticized the trade groups for being unimaginative, or too empirical. Through boundary work, scientists protected their autonomy and monopolized authority and resources.

²⁴¹ Gieryn, “Boundary Work,” 792.

²⁴² Gieryn, “Boundary Work.”

Role strain is brought on by conflicting demands and competing expectations.

Journalism educators in the AASDJ were facing conflicting demands and competing expectations as they tried to position themselves as the authority on training journalists. They needed the approval of two very different constituencies, each with their own ideas about best practices. The industry expected journalism educators to serve its interests. In an era when college enrollment was miniscule compared to modern standards, editors in the American Society of Newspaper Editors expected aspiring journalists to complete a professional education.²⁴³ That meant graduate schools. Short of graduate schools, the industry wanted journalism educators in four year programs to weed out the unfit and relieve them of technical training. University presidents and administrators, of course, had their own strongly held feelings about the nature and character of journalism education. They were skeptical of journalism education in general, and often contemptuous of the idea of graduate education in journalism. They expected journalism educators to embrace the university tradition of the liberal arts, and avoid technical training. Journalism educators were caught between these two worlds.

The diverse educational practices among AASDJ institutions were the product of competing expectations, national and local contingencies. As program directors at AASDJ institutions tried to make the most of their situation at the institutional level, they inevitably embraced different administrative models and curricular focus. As they developed a repertoire of educational practices within their social group, educators developed role strain and a set of

²⁴³ About six percent of 18 to 21-year-olds in the United States were enrolled in college in 1915. In 1940 the number had only grown to 15.5%. Roger L. Geiger, *The History of American Higher Education: Learning and Culture from the Founding to World War II* (Princeton University Press, 2015).

alternative repertoires, or practice-based rhetorical moves. Diverse educational practices made it more difficult for AASDJ to standardize their curricula and made it more likely that members would experience role strain, but it also gave educators the ability to tailor their arguments to win jurisdictional disputes and respond to attacks that would compromise a boundary.

Group interests would dictate which alternative repertoire to invoke. To the industry they could showcase their graduate schools of journalism. If some ASNE members were unenthusiastic about recognizing AASDJ's authority based on a particular educational practice, like offering undergraduate degrees instead of graduate degrees, AASDJ members could point to specific AASDJ-affiliated institutions that did prioritize graduate study. They could accentuate a program like Columbia or Northwestern, where educators did make graduate study the ultimate goal in training professional journalists, as an example to which all members of AASDJ were aspiring. To the wider campus community, they could accentuate programs that were embracing the university tradition. If AASDJ institutions needed the approval of the wider academic community they could highlight programs like Wisconsin and Minnesota, where educators were embracing the liberal arts and social sciences.

In the following two sections I report on the diverse educational practices among AASDJ institutions. I begin with a look at competing administrative models before moving on to consider the evolution of curricular focus among AASDJ programs. I try to demonstrate that the repertoire of educational practices within the AASDJ enabled the rhetorical flexibility necessary to smooth their practice-based inconsistencies and defend the boundaries of journalism education.

III. Administrative strains

The University of Missouri was the first to create a separate academic unit for journalism in 1908, but journalism education in higher education began before that.²⁴⁴ Cornell University and Washington and Lee University were offering journalism courses in the aftermath of the Civil War, but the first curriculum in journalism was organized at the University of Pennsylvania in 1893.²⁴⁵ By 1900 journalism courses were being offered in a handful of universities in the United States.²⁴⁶ The first four-year curriculum was developed at the University of Illinois in 1904. When Missouri established journalism as a separate academic unit in 1908, other universities began to do the same.

Many of the first journalism courses were taught in English departments, but journalism instructors and state press associations urged university administrators to organize journalism as a separate academic unit. Journalism educators used boundary to work to differentiate themselves from English and raise journalism from a handful of courses to a functioning academic unit. Journalism was an applied art while English was pure art, they wrote.²⁴⁷ The journalism teacher was comparable to the professors of law and medicine. English professors belonged to the arts college. Journalism had utilitarian ends that required laboratory work and practical assignments, but English departments were incapable of providing those opportunities to students interested in pursuing newspaper work. Journalism would be “a step-child, and one

²⁴⁴ Betty Houchin Winfield, *Journalism, 1908: Birth of a Profession* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2008).

²⁴⁵ Michael C. Emery and Edwin Emery, *The Press and America: An Interpretive History of the Mass Media*. 7th ed. (Englewood Cliffs, N.J.: Prentice Hall, 1992).

²⁴⁶ Jean Folkerts, "History of Journalism Education," *Journalism & Communication Monographs* 16, no. 4 (2014): 227-99.

²⁴⁷ John Drewry, "Journalism and the English Department," *Journalism Quarterly* 6, 2: 22

that is looked down upon,” as long as it operated under the jurisdiction of an English department.²⁴⁸

Administrative status and organizational structure were important matters to early journalism educators. A journalism program’s place in the organizational hierarchy of its institution mattered a great deal to members of AASDJ and ASNE, too. Whether a journalism program was organized as a graduate school, an undergraduate department, or school, or independent school of journalism, said a lot about its status, authority, and autonomy, on campus. Journalism educators had left English departments because faculty there never made training for newspaper work a priority, and journalism instructors would never be free to pursue their interests.

Moreover, a journalism program’s place in the organizational hierarchy of its institution could determine important matters related to curriculum, tenure, and promotion. Journalism educators’ aspirations for autonomy, which were cheered on by members of ASNE, were often tempered by local contingencies. University administrators tolerated journalism education, but they were in no mood to let journalism instructors go unsupervised.

Journalism educators themselves were torn between emphasizing undergraduate education and establishing professional graduate schools of journalism. Educators debated whether to set up independent schools of journalism, or embed programs within their university’s liberal arts community. Organizing journalism programs as graduate schools would increase autonomy, raise the visibility of journalism education, and stress the professional nature of newspaper work. Many in both AASDJ and ASNE preferred graduate schools as the

²⁴⁸ Drewry, “Journalism and the English Department,” 22.

ultimate home for journalism programs. Taken together, these competing visions and expectations for journalism educators would produce a diverse set of administrative models among AASDJ programs.

Graduate schools of journalism

Members of AASDJ had been inspired by the American Medical Association's (AMA) regulation of medical education. The AMA wanted to reduce the number of medical schools and the number of medical students, and they had been very successful. They began with a survey and classification of medical schools and colleges in 1906. By 1910, the Carnegie Foundation released a study on American and Canadian medical education which led to the closing of smaller schools with non-standardized curricula.²⁴⁹ The AMA, with an assist from the Carnegie Foundation, had reduced the number of medical students by thirty percent, from 1904 to 1919.²⁵⁰ Journalism educators hoped to follow that blueprint. *Journalism Quarterly* suggested in June of 1929 that 60 accredited schools of journalism could supply the profession for one hundred years.²⁵¹

Members of AASDJ argued in their Principles and Standards that newspapers and magazines were as important to society as medicine and law. No other profession was as vital to a functioning democracy as journalism. Therefore, they wrote, "adequate preparation is as necessary for all persons who desire to engage in journalism as it is for those who intend to

²⁴⁹ Kent J. DeZee, Anthony R. Artino, D. Michael Elnicki, Paul A. Hemmer, and Steven J. Durning, "Medical Education in the United States of America," *Medical Teacher* 34, no. 7 (July 2012): 521–25.

²⁵⁰ "Medical education in the United States," *Journal of the American Medical Association*, August 16, 1924, 83: 509-31.

²⁵¹ "Journalistic Education in the United States, 1928-29," *Journalism Quarterly*, Jan 1, 1929; 6, 2: 2.

practice law or medicine.”²⁵² If journalism was a profession then its practitioners needed a professional education. Journalism educators had invoked law, medicine, and professional schools, in their Principles and Standards, but instead of recommending graduate programs, the AASDJ had recommended undergraduate programs. The rhetoric and logic of professionalism demanded graduate schools of journalism, but the AASDJ would never be able to sell such a move on campus.

ASNE members were interested in journalism education in so far as it would bolster their case for professional status, equal to law and medicine. As such, they supported graduate school as the ultimate goal for journalism education. When Walter Williams and the University of Missouri launched the first school of journalism in 1908 the focus was undergraduate education. When AASDJ—an organization created by Williams—adopted the Principles and Standards in 1924 they explicitly called for undergraduate education. “Under present conditions,” they wrote, “the best means of acquiring this essential knowledge and of learning its application is a four-year course of study in a college or university.”²⁵³ They made no mention of graduate schools or master’s degrees, but one year after the release of the Principles and Standards, Williams was embracing graduate education in front of an ASNE audience. He appeared at the 1925 ASNE meeting where he explicitly argued in favor of graduate schools of journalism. “We ought to declare that the development of schools of

²⁵² “Principles and Standards of Education for Journalism.” *Journalism Bulletin* 1, no. 2 (June 1924): 30–34.

²⁵³ “Principles and Standards of Education for Journalism,” *Journalism Bulletin*.

journalism must be in the direction of making all of them graduate schools instead of undergraduate schools.”²⁵⁴

In the discussion that followed Williams’s presentation, Casper Yost, founder of ASNE, affirmed ASNE’s commitment to journalism education, calling it “one of the first purposes in the organization.”²⁵⁵ Later in the afternoon Yost introduced a resolution stating “academic training for journalism” should move from undergraduate colleges to graduate schools. Williams spoke up to request the words “and professional” be added between the words “academic” and “training.” The statement would read “academic and professional training for journalism should move from undergraduate colleges to graduate schools.” He wanted the statement to explicitly link professional education with graduate schools of journalism. “That would suggest,” he said, “that it isn’t altogether merely academic but it is also for the profession of journalism.” Yost agreed and the resolution passed.²⁵⁶

ASNE affirmed its commitment to graduate schools of journalism at its 1930 meeting. Employees with undergraduate degrees from AASDJ institutions held no advantage whatsoever in the workplace, the committee on journalism schools reported.²⁵⁷ Journalism educators were aware of this troubling trend, too. One educator, ASNE pointed out, had diagnosed the problem at a recent meeting of journalism educators. The speaker scolded the audience of journalism educators for operating what amounted to trade schools. “There does not exist a genuine

²⁵⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 121.

²⁵⁵ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 124.

²⁵⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1925, 127.

²⁵⁷ Problems of Journalism, 1930.

professional school of journalism,” he had said.²⁵⁸ The ASNE committee agreed. Journalism schools ought to be professional, and therefore the trade could be taught in the shop. The journalism schools had it “out of joint.”²⁵⁹ Students should complete a liberal education for four years before receiving an education in journalism. Education in law and medicine worked the same way. Too many students were enrolling in undergraduate journalism courses for an easy A. The “curriculum in the schools of journalism are a convenient side channel through which to slide.”²⁶⁰ Students should be more carefully selected and entrance to both the schools and the profession made more difficult, and graduate programs were a means to those ends.

The emphasis on graduate education for journalism is striking. It illustrates the great leap editors were hoping to make in terms of status and prestige. Historian Robert Geiger writes that the development of mass higher education in the interwar period represented a challenge to the established order. Elite higher education, he writes, was intended for students from privileged backgrounds, but public universities were expected to admit any student who met admission requirements.²⁶¹

Indeed, undergraduate enrollment was small in the 1920s, but it was growing. By 1927, institutions of higher education in the United States were awarding over 100,000 bachelor’s degrees per year.²⁶² By 1948 they were graduating over 300,000 students per year. Graduate

²⁵⁸ quoted in *Problems of Journalism*, 1930, 47.

²⁵⁹ *Problems of Journalism*, 1930, 47.

²⁶⁰ *Problems of Journalism*, 1930, 51.

²⁶¹ Geiger, *American Higher Education*.

²⁶² National Center for Education Statistics, *120 Years of American Education: A Statistical Portrait*, (Washington, DC: ERIC Clearinghouse, 1993).

education, though, did not grow at that pace. In 1925, when Walter Williams told ASNE members that graduate schools of journalism were the ultimate goal, institutions of higher education awarded 9,735 master's degrees. The number of master's degrees awarded in a single year did not top 100,000 until the 1964-1965 academic year.

Some members of AASDJ acknowledged that graduate education was preferable and necessary to obtain professional status.²⁶³ In the 1920s, most undergraduate degrees in journalism required a 30-35 credit hours in the major subject.²⁶⁴ Some required as little as 24 credit hours. That was hardly enough to instill the professional spirit in students, according to some.²⁶⁵ "Journalism students," wrote one critic, "will never be raised to the true professional level as long as journalism courses are merely part of the four years' work for a liberal arts degree."²⁶⁶

Many schools did develop small graduate programs, but by the mid-1930s editors and educators came to accept the industry would be unable to adequately compensate a reporter with a master's degree.²⁶⁷ Arthur T. Robb, editor of *Editor & Publisher*, an industry trade magazine, wrote in the *Journalism Quarterly* in 1940 that small city editors "do not need and cannot, indeed, afford to pay men with qualifications of a master of arts or a doctor of

²⁶³ Eric W Allen, "Presidential Address: Medical Schools, Law Schools and Schools of Journalism," *Journalism Quarterly*, January 1, 1931; 8: 196

²⁶⁴ "The Council Survey of Instruction in Journalism," *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1928; 5: 14.

²⁶⁵ Fred J. Lazell, "Weeding Out the Unfit," *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1927; 4, 1: 25.

²⁶⁶ Fred J. Lazell, "Weeding Out the Unfit," 30.

²⁶⁷ Folkerts, *Journalism & Communication Monographs*.

philosophy.”²⁶⁸ While some institutions continued to develop graduate programs, AASDJ would remain focused on journalism education as undergraduate endeavor. Educators would debate whether to accredit graduate programs in journalism well into the 1960s.²⁶⁹ The ambivalence shown graduate education by editors and educators was evident when David H. Weaver and G. Cleveland Wilhoit surveyed 1,000 full-time journalist in 1982 and 1983. A little over 11 percent of journalists in their sample held a graduate degree.²⁷⁰

Schools and departments

Curtis MacDougall, a journalism professor at Northwestern and a lifelong leader in journalism education, described the need for administrative and organizational autonomy in an oral history interview conducted in 1970. Reflecting on his career, MacDougall suggested that journalism had to be a separate unit “because we’re not popular –journalism education –has never been popular on any campus that I know of.”²⁷¹ Educators, according to MacDougall, were caught between their former newsroom colleagues who believed they had “gone highbrow, and ivy tower, idealistic and impractical – lost our professional skills,” and their campus colleagues who regarded them “as superficial and mostly illiterate.”²⁷² MacDougall’s

²⁶⁸ Arthur T. Robb, “Education for Journalism - One of Its Problems,” *Journalism Quarterly*; Mar 1, 1941; 18, 1: 36.

²⁶⁹ Earl Lewis Conn, “The American Council on Education for Journalism: An Accrediting History,” *Educational Research*, Indiana University, 1970. ProQuest Dissertations & Theses Global.

²⁷⁰ David Hugh Weaver and G. Cleveland Wilhoit, *The American Journalist in the 1990s: US News People at the End of an Era* (Psychology Press, 1996).

²⁷¹ Curtis D. MacDougall, interviewed by Richard A. Schwarzlose, October 6, 1970, Mss 154AF, Box 50, Folder 8, Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication Records, 1912-2003, Madison, WI.

²⁷² Curtis D. MacDougall, interviewed by Richard A. Schwarzlose, October 6, 1970, Mss 154AF, Box 50, Folder 8, Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication Records, 1912-2003, Madison, WI.

comments highlight the competing expectations placed upon journalism educators, the role strain educators experienced, and the way in which they believed administrative autonomy would alleviate some of those pressures.

Unlike the vertical organizational structure found in the industry, the world of higher education had a much more complex bureaucratic system comprised of various academic units and sub-units.²⁷³ Schools, colleges, departments, and divisions, all had a place in the social world of higher education. Schools and colleges operated with more autonomy while departments and divisions could be buried in administrative layers, struggling to justify their existence. An academic unit's standing in the overall organizational hierarchy affected the allocation of resources. A dean of a journalism school had more control over how to spend money than a department chair. Still, in this environment disputes over academic priorities were common, but the organizational structure in place was rarely up to the task of settling disputes.²⁷⁴ In an environment where disputes were common, autonomy was the coin of the realm.

When AASDJ was founded in 1917, seven of the ten programs operated as schools of journalism.²⁷⁵ Only Kansas, Indiana, and Texas, operated as departments. By 1926, AASDJ had grown to 20 institutions. Schools of journalism outnumbered departments 12 to eight. Schools

²⁷³ James B. Hartman, "Change and Conflict in the University," *The Journal of Educational Thought (JET) / Revue De La Pensée Éducative* 11, no. 1 (1977): 3-15.

²⁷⁴ Hartman, "Change and Conflict in the University."

²⁷⁵ Founding AASDJ members included schools and departments of journalism from Columbia, Indiana, Kansas, Missouri, Montana, Ohio State, Oregon, Texas, Washington, and Wisconsin.

of journalism on average employed one more full time instructor than did departments.²⁷⁶ By 1936 AASDJ had grown to 32 institutions. Most of those programs operated as a schools of journalism, but only ten of those eighteen schools operated as fully independent units within their university systems. All other programs were operating as a sub-unit within larger academic units, usually in their university's college of arts and sciences or college of liberal arts.

One educator wrote to AASDJ's flagship publication, *Journalism Quarterly*, in 1929, to lay out the reasons why separate academic units were desirable. For faculty, a separate academic unit allowed for administrative smoothness and a separate budget with the freedom to allocate resources in the interests of the program. A director could make long term plans and make careful evaluations. If the director is "worthy of his freedom," he wrote, "he can carry his plans into achievements without petty interference from persons who lack sympathy or understanding."²⁷⁷ Students benefited from a separate academic unit, he continued, from the sense of community engendered by a separate unit. "The very fact that the unit is to a degree its own boss," he wrote, "impresses the youngster."²⁷⁸

The department of journalism at Indiana University, an AASDJ charter member, was trying to broaden the scope of its mission even as the seriousness of its mission was in doubt among university officials. John Stempel became chair of the journalism department at Indiana University in 1938. Two years into his appointment Stempel was clashing with Selatie E. Stout, dean of the college of arts and sciences. The two were going back and forth over promotions

²⁷⁶ "The Council Survey of Instruction in Journalism," *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1928; 5: 14.

²⁷⁷ C.E. Rogers, "Discussion," *Journalism Quarterly*, January 1, 1929; 6, 1: 14.

²⁷⁸ C.E. Rogers, "Discussion," 14.

for journalism faculty. Stout wrote to Stempel that journalism was not a field of scholarly endeavor and that he did not believe “the Department of Journalism ought to expect its teachers to be promoted above Assistant Professorships [...] at least until the work and training given in the department approaches more nearly to the ideals of scholarship as they have been developed in the older subjects of study.”²⁷⁹ He also informed Stempel that the previous chair of the journalism department had wanted to offer a graduate degree in journalism, but Stout had shut that down, too. Graduate study in journalism would be a travesty upon graduate study, he volunteered to Stempel.

Journalism programs organized as departments within larger divisions of arts and sciences or liberal arts struggled to realize their potential. University administrators, like Stout at Indiana, often believed that journalism professors were of a trade school orientation.²⁸⁰ They were generally unimpressed with journalism curriculum and even more dismissive of the faculty. University administrators like Stout wanted journalism instructors to complete PhD degrees, and when they collectively moved to require PhDs of journalism faculty, journalism educators reacted with a scathing statement arguing adequate professional experience was an indispensable qualification for training young journalists.²⁸¹

Deans of journalism schools operated with more autonomy than department chairs and for that reason journalism educators preferred their programs be organized as a school of

²⁷⁹ Selatie E. Stout, to John Stempel, March 5, 1940, Indiana University School of Journalism Chair’s records, 1922- 1976, Indiana University Archives.

²⁸⁰ William David Sloan, “In Search of Itself: A History of Journalism Education,” in *Makers of the Media Mind: Journalism Educators and Their Ideas* (Hillsdale, N.J.: L. Erlbaum Associates, 1990). Sloan does not identify Stout, but his description of university administrators captures Stout well.

²⁸¹ William David Sloan, *Makers of the Media Mind*.

journalism. There was also a certain amount of prestige that came with an independent school of journalism. So much so that from 1934 to 1936 the AASDJ –the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism –attempted to change its organization’s name at three consecutive annual meetings. After all, ASNE, AASDJ’s closest partner, had a committee on the schools of journalism, not the schools and departments of journalism.

The proposal to strike the words “and Departments” from the organization’s name proved too divisive. Members believed the name change would “drive a wedge between the two classes of membership in the association.”²⁸² They agreed at the 1936 AASDJ meeting to put the matter off until the 1938 convention, but an organizational name change would not be proposed again until 1948 when the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism became the Association of Accredited Schools and Departments of Journalism.²⁸³

IV. Curricular strains

In the Principles and Standards, adopted in 1924, AASDJ members laid out what they believed to be best curricular practices. A bachelor’s degree in journalism would include journalism courses and background courses. Journalism courses, most of them technical in nature, were to include reporting, copy reading, editorial writing, the writing of specialized articles, and the history and law of the press. Students would also be required to complete background courses in history, economics, government and politics, sociology, literature, natural science, and psychology or philosophy. Students would complete background courses in

²⁸² H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 14, 1, (March 1937): 97.

²⁸³ Norval Neil Luxon, “AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 25, 4, (December 1948): 461.

the first two years, with the majority of technical journalism courses coming in the final two years of a four-year plan of study.

Despite these prescriptions AASDJ institutions as a social group adopted competing curricular models. Some in AASDJ prioritized technical training in journalism over background courses in the liberal arts. Others privileged the liberal arts and later the social sciences at the expense of technical courses. The diverse curricular models developed amongst AASDJ institutions were due in large part to the competing expectations placed upon them. Journalism educators in the interwar period had to create journalism programs that were technical enough to satisfy ASNE and others in the industry, and scholarly enough to survive the scrutiny of their colleagues on campus.²⁸⁴ These competing interests produced a diverse, ever-changing curricular focus among AASDJ members. While the inability for AASDJ members to coalesce around their own prescribed model for journalism education produced tension within the organization, it nevertheless enabled a rhetorical flexibility capable of defending the authority and autonomy educators desired.

AASDJ and ASNE would eventually settle on a proper balance between journalism and background courses, but as the scope of journalism courses expanded to accommodate specialized sequences, new disputes and strains in educational practices would emerge within AASDJ. At the same time, the rise of the social sciences would offer new opportunities for boundary work in journalism education.

Journalism courses

²⁸⁴ James G. Stoval, "The Practitioners" in William David Sloan, *Makers of the Media Mind: Journalism Educators and Their Ideas* (Hillsdale, N.J.: L. Erlbaum Associates, 1990).

Much of the tension between the industry and journalism educators, and among journalism educators themselves, revolved around issues of curricular focus. When ASNE formed in 1923 they were unsure of what to make of the schools and departments of journalism. Casper Yost, who founded the organization, saw in journalism education an opportunity to raise the status of his vocation from an occupation to a profession. As such, he and his colleagues in ASNE believed technical training ought to be the focus of any journalism program.²⁸⁵

ASNE members expected institutions of the AASDJ to relieve them of technical training and journalism educators did precisely that in the early interwar period. By 1926, AASDJ required its members to offer the following courses: reporting, copy reading, editorial writing, the writing of special articles, the history of journalism, the principles or ethics of journalism, and the law of the press.²⁸⁶ The emphasis on technical training in journalism education in those formative years of the 1920s made a bad impression on university administrators. When a few educators complained to ASNE editors that practical skills were being overemphasized at the undergraduate level, the chair of ASNE's committee on journalism countered that the two best journalism schools –Columbia and Missouri –emphasized practical skills training.²⁸⁷

Norval Neil Luxon worked in journalism education from 1928 to 1969. Luxon was one of AASDJ's most vocal supporters. Asked to characterize the industry's influence on journalism

²⁸⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the First Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1923).

²⁸⁶ "The Council Survey of Instruction in Journalism," *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1928; 5: 14.

²⁸⁷ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Fourth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, DC: The Society, 1926).

education in an oral history interview, Luxon said journalism educators in the early period, “perhaps hoping to curry favor with the editors and publishers,” responded too favorably to suggestions for technical training.²⁸⁸ Those that did curry favor often added courses of dubious academic value, he said.

Fred Siebert of the University of Illinois was president of AASDJ in 1944. He was a key supporter of accrediting and helped get the final accrediting program across the finish line in 1948. He was asked about the industry’s influence on journalism education in an oral history interview in 1970.²⁸⁹ He said that some institutions had been more accommodating than others to the industry’s demands for professional training in the curriculum. In some places, he continued, pressure from the industry on university officials had led to the establishment of journalism programs. On the other hand, too much involvement in curricular matters tended to deteriorate the quality of a program.

AASDJ programs began to expand the scope of their journalism courses in the late 1920s. Two surveys by AASDJ, one conducted in 1926 and one conducted on 1936, shed light on that expansion. The greatest change among AASDJ programs came in the number of schools offering classes in contemporary affairs and public opinion, typography, and feature writing.²⁹⁰ By 1946 AASDJ institutions had transformed their technical journalism training repertoire into a

²⁸⁸ Norval Neil Luxon, interviewed by Maxwell McCombs, September 26, 1971, Mss 154AF, Box 50, Folder 7, Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication Records, 1912-2003, Madison, WI.

²⁸⁹ Fred S. Siebert, interviewed by Robert V. Hudson, April 21, 1970, Mss 154AF, Box 50, Folder 17, Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication Records, 1912-2003, Madison, WI

²⁹⁰ “The Council Survey of Instruction in Journalism,” *Journalism Bulletin*, January 1, 1928; 5: 14.

series of sequences.²⁹¹ A sequence was a set of courses intended to train students for a particular type of job in the industry. There were standard sequences like news-editorial and community journalism, but AASDJ institutions were soon offering sequences in radio, pictorial journalism, and advertising management.

Advertising programs developed in both business and journalism programs on college campuses.²⁹² Psychology departments, too, writes Jean Folkerts, were a natural home to advertising courses. Private universities approached advertising from a managerial and marketing perspective, and courses in those areas were offered through their business or commerce schools. Many state universities in the Midwest embedded advertising courses in their journalism programs. Journalism educators dismissed psychology as a waste of time and instead focused on practical skills training in advertising like design and layout.

While ASNE and AASDJ accepted advertising as integral at both the educational and professional level, both organizations claimed to be concerned about the rise of public relations. The emergence of public relations practices in the Progressive Era developed as press agency and the hiring of publicity writers by businesses became commonplace.²⁹³ When ASNE first met as an organization in 1923 they identified publicity agents as one of the top problems to be addressed in the industry.²⁹⁴

²⁹¹ Kenneth Olson, "Proceedings of American Council on Education for Journalism Meeting in Cleveland, Ohio, December 7, 1946," *Journalism Quarterly*, March 1, 1947; 24, 1: 88.

²⁹² Folkerts, *Journalism & Communication Monographs*.

²⁹³ Emery and Emery, *The Press and America*.

²⁹⁴ Problems of Journalism 1923.

The development of public relations presented a challenge to journalism. As the public was learning to distrust advertising and propaganda, business owners were looking for more creative ways to tell their stories.²⁹⁵ They turned to press agents whose job it was to circumvent the traditional newspaper-advertising model by creating free publicity for their clients. Press agents had one foot in their client's office, and one in the newspaper office.²⁹⁶ Some of the more unethical actors created fake consumer organizations to spread disinformation, paid off journalists to plant stories, and, worse, hurt a newspaper's bottom line.²⁹⁷ Advertising generated revenue. Stories planted by press agents did not. Editors and publishers were afraid press agency would reduce their revenue.²⁹⁸

The rise of public relations also threatened journalism instructors. University presidents were increasingly turning their own journalism instructors into press agents.²⁹⁹ When a president wanted to inform the alumni about some new initiative journalism instructors were expected to "filter the endowment propaganda to the press." Instructors were directed to write stories and use their industry connections to generate free publicity. As a result, relations with newspaper editors were strained. Many believed that professors were "prostituting their profession" by participating in these schemes. Worse still, journalism educators often

²⁹⁵ Helen Woodward, "Pocket Guide: The Press-Agent Racket," *Nation* 147, November 26, 1938, no. 22: 565.

²⁹⁶ "Portrait of a Press Agent," *TIME* 35, no. 2 (January 8, 1940), 50.

²⁹⁷ Helen Woodward, "Pocket Guide: The Press-Agent Racket," *Nation* 147, November 26, 1938, no. 22, 565.

²⁹⁸ Denise E. DeLorme and Fred Fedler, "Journalists' Hostility Toward Public Relations: An Historical Analysis," *Public Relations Review* 29, no. 2 (2003): 99-124.

²⁹⁹ Maynard Brown, "Publicity Problems of the School," *Journalism Bulletin*; Jan 1, 1928; 4, 4: 10.

depended on university press offices to supply their students with practical journalism experience. Journalism students were being socialized as press agents. No wonder that by 1923 an increasing amount of journalism school graduates were abandoning the newsroom to pursue more lucrative careers as press agents.³⁰⁰

Both university presidents and newspaper editors were sending mixed signals on the appropriateness of publicity. University presidents were happy to use journalism faculty and students to produce publicity for the university, even if journalism educators believed public relations to be the antithesis of journalism. Newspaper editors claimed to reject publicity pieces yet the success of public relations suggested press agents found more than enough willing collaborators in ASNE newsrooms.

Still, educators were mixed on the question of teaching courses in publicity when they met in December, 1929. *Editor and Publisher* had just suggested in an article that teaching publicity would be a negation to the ethics of journalism, and educators were discussing the merits of that piece. Some at the meeting were critical of the newspaper industry, who they believed complained about publicity agents yet nevertheless subscribed to their services. Other educators believed there was a difference between propaganda and publicity for a worthy cause, and as such courses in publicity should be developed in respectable programs. The solution to the publicity problem, said one instructor, "lies with the newspaper themselves." Debate continued until Bleyer of Wisconsin said he felt it unnecessary to offer a course in publicity. "If we train our students to handle news," he said, "haven't we done all that is

³⁰⁰ Bruce Bliven, "Newspaper Morals," *New Republic*, May 30, 1923, 18.

necessary to handle publicity?"³⁰¹ About one quarter of AASDJ schools offered courses in publicity in 1926. By 1936 one third of AASDJ programs were offering courses in publicity. Educators had to find a middle ground on publicity courses and their dialogue at the 1929 meeting shows how quickly they used the rhetoric of boundary work to move from role strain to group interests on the question of publicity courses.

Gieryn argues that social groups insulate themselves from criticism by building a boundary between the knowledge they produce, and the ends to which that knowledge is used.³⁰² Journalism educators did exactly that. To those who criticized journalism educators for adopting the practices of press agency, educators would say that publicity work was appropriate under some circumstances and therefore publicity courses were appropriate, too. Even if public relations did represent an existential threat to journalism, they said, it was up to the industry, not the educators, to do something about it. Finally, educators didn't need to make publicity courses a priority because a training in journalism was sufficient to prepare students for the demands of public relations work. In short order the educators smoothed their internal inconsistencies and put distance between the knowledge they produced and its application among public relations practitioners. By doing so they claimed the right to decide for themselves whether teaching publicity courses was appropriate.

Background courses

³⁰¹ J.O. Simmons, "Convention Proceedings, 1929, AATJ," *Journalism Bulletin* 7, (January 1930): 64

³⁰² Gieryn, *Boundary Work*.

The emphasis on practical journalism skills training put educators in an awkward position. Many AASDJ members felt that the industry's demand for technical instruction and their disregard for history, political science, and economics, in the journalism curriculum, gave journalism education a bad reputation on campus.³⁰³ Further, if the market could not support 200 journalism schools then AASDJ institutions would need to differentiate themselves and foregrounding their institutions' liberal arts traditions would serve that purpose.³⁰⁴

The opportunity to reduce the proportion of skills training in the curriculum presented itself when AASDJ and ASNE began to partner on the Joint Committee in 1930. That collaboration was ultimately slowed by the economic conditions brought on by the Great Depression, but educators took the initiative to increase the proportion of background courses in their journalism programs. They were following the lead of Willard Bleyer at Wisconsin who had been concerned about press agentry, public relations, and the general direction of the newspaper business for many years. He was concerned that journalism students were not prepared to navigate in an industry where shady practices were commonplace. Those concerns were the driving force behind his interest in prioritizing background courses, including the liberal arts and later the social sciences, in journalism education.

While journalism educators began to explicitly urge their students to take coursework outside the journalism department, they convinced key ASNE members that a journalism program that favored the liberal arts might produce a reporter capable of offering deep,

³⁰³ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Sixteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1938), 48.

³⁰⁴ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Fourteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1936).

informed analysis. AASDJ members suggested that type of reporting might give ASNE newspapers a competitive edge in the marketplace and it was a message that resonated.³⁰⁵

When ASNE urged AASDJ schools to pursue graduate programs in 1930 they also called for undergraduate journalism programs to change their focus from practical skills training to the liberal arts. ASNE's committee on journalism schools wrote that the newspaper of tomorrow needed a reporter with a broad background, a cultural foundation, and a better understanding of the relationships of men to society.³⁰⁶ In 1939 the Joint Committee conducted an exhaustive survey of journalism education that showed journalism programs in the AASDJ had shifted their focus to background courses. They reported that "analysis of degree requirements shows that an average of 76.7 percent of the four- or five-year program is devoted to background courses; only 23.3 per cent to journalism courses."³⁰⁷

Bleyer at Wisconsin had been among the first to call for an emphasis on background courses in journalism programs and by the end of his career he had expanded the scope of background courses to include social science subjects like sociology and psychology.³⁰⁸ Bleyer and others in journalism education saw in the social sciences an opportunity to develop more respectable research agendas, and please both newspaper editors and their campus colleagues. Journalism educators would use social science methods to conduct original research, and they

³⁰⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Eighth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1930), 48.

³⁰⁶ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Eighth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1930), 48.

³⁰⁷ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Nineteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1941): 177.

³⁰⁸ Carolyn Bronstein and Stephen Vaughn, "Willard G. Bleyer and the Relevance of Journalism Education," *Journalism & Mass Communication Monographs* 166 (1998): 1-36.

would be more deliberate about introducing social science concepts into their instructional practices.

At the same time, a newspaper reporter with a background in the social sciences could translate the chaos of the contemporary world into words and images the public would understand. A newsroom full of social scientists, the theory went, would give ASNE newspapers a competitive edge in the marketplace. One educator noted that the newspaper advertising department was outgrowing the editorial office precisely because the advertising staff had embraced social science research methods like surveys.³⁰⁹ The advertising department simply understood its audience better than the editors. He argued that journalism educators ought to use the social sciences to train students for specialized roles in the newspaper, and he wasn't alone.

Others were more specific about the ways in which newspaper editors would benefit from the social sciences. Newspapers could provide chronological accounts of yesterday's news but they could not account for the psychological dimensions of the events and personalities on which they reported. Divorce, lynching, and suicide, represented a complex breakdown in human relations. Newspapers were providing the "frothy" results of those breakdowns, but they could not explain the underlying causes. A reporter trained in the social sciences could "extend the interpretive function."³¹⁰ The future of newspaper reporting was not flash news. By

³⁰⁹ E.M. Johnson, "The Utilization of the Social Sciences," *Journalism Bulletin*; Jan 1, 1927; 4, 2: 30.

³¹⁰ Sidney Kobre, "The Social Sciences and the Newspaper," *Journalism Quarterly*; Sep 1, 1938; 15, 3: 262.

1942 flash news belonged to radio. Journalism educators were betting that the future of newspaper work was news analysis.³¹¹

V. Conclusion

Journalism instructors were caught between the industry and the world of higher education. They had to get close enough to the industry and university officials to win their support, but not so close as to lose autonomy. Yet the industry and the academy had very different priorities. Competing expectations, filtered through campus power dynamics, produced a diverse set of educational practices that created role strain within the AASDJ community. To thread the needle, educators used boundary work to turn their internal inconsistencies to their advantage.

When educators were conflicted on offering courses in public relations, they created a boundary between their instruction practices and the ends to which that training might be used. If the field of public relations was growing and recruiting journalism school graduates with better paying jobs, the fault lies with the newspaper industry, not educators. In any case, they reasoned, there were plenty of good causes to which a public relations expert might lend their services. Educators could not be held responsible for those graduates who sacrificed integrity for financial gain. AASDJ institutions would decide for themselves on the appropriateness of public relations.

The industry had wanted professional, graduate education, but educators knew university administrators would never support such a thing. Instead, AASDJ accentuated the

³¹¹ Basil L. Walters, "Training and Research in Schools of Journalism," *Journalism Quarterly*; Mar 1, 1942, 19, 1: 58.

potential of graduate schools while quietly focusing on developing autonomous undergraduate programs. Graduate schools of journalism were on display at ASNE meetings, but AASDJ was focused on expanding their undergraduate repertoire.

In 1930 they began their campaign to convince the editors that emphasizing background courses in the liberal arts and social sciences was the most appropriate practice for journalism education. Editors were intrigued with the idea of a newspaper reporter providing deeper, informed analysis. At the same time, educators knew that a hard turn toward the liberal arts and social sciences would be well received by university administrators. Further, accentuating the university tradition and prestige of the liberal arts would give AASDJ an advantage over smaller, less prestigious institutions.

Educators used their diverse educational practices to deftly execute a series of difficult rhetorical moves. Their mission to standardize journalism educational practices had met with mixed results, but their use of practice-based boundary work brought them closer to achieving the autonomy and authority they desired.

In the next chapter I show how boundary work around participation and practices in journalism education reached a crescendo as educators and editors faced their most serious challenger –the federal government. Together, ASNE and AASDJ would weaponize specialized accrediting to reap the benefits of professionalism and maintain the boundary between the industry the government.

5. Professionalism

I. Introduction

Thus far I have addressed boundary work around participation and practices in journalism education. In this chapter I focus on boundary work around issues of professionalism. The sociology of professions, and boundary work in particular, pay close attention to the ability of occupational groups to establish and maintain professional control. In Gieryn's original boundary work case study, scientists in Victorian England had to negotiate with university administrators and political and legal officials in government to secure the authority and autonomy they sought. They adjusted their rhetoric depending on their audience. When they needed to secure funding from government officials they emphasized that science had commercial value and powered innovation. When they wanted to see the science curriculum updated in universities, they told university administrators that science was pure, that it took as its mission the betterment of mankind. They had to get close enough to policy makers to win their support, but not so close as to lose autonomy. Through boundary work, Gieryn shows that scientists were able to thread this needle.

Like the scientists in Gieryn's case study, journalism educators had to work with a variety of stakeholders in their effort to take control of their field. Journalism educators in the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ) were seeking to monopolize the production of metropolitan journalists, but to do so would require support from a number of professional organizations in the industry. Metropolitan editors, rural editors, publishers and labor unions, would all have something to say about the training, paying, and organizing of future journalists. At the same time, while university administrators had helped

create institutional accrediting, they were suspicious of specialized accrediting, the very type the AASDJ and the American Society of Newspaper Editors (ASNE) were pursuing. University officials saw it as challenge to their authority, and journalism educators would tread carefully.

The AASDJ, the self-proclaimed accrediting agency for journalism education, and the ASNE, an organization comprised of metropolitan newspaper editors, began cultivating relations in the early 1920s. Shared interests between the two organizations included standardizing curricula, and surveying and classifying journalism education programs. Their efforts at an official accrediting program waxed and waned over the years for many different reasons, but their authority and autonomy to regulate journalism education went unchallenged until the late 1930s. In the aftermath of the Great Depression, these select groups of educators and editors had their authority challenged in very direct, public ways.

In the following pages, I explain how AASDJ and ASNE responded to those challenges, and why specialized accrediting became a priority for AASDJ and ASNE. I begin with a very explicit decision made by journalism educators to spurn the American Newspaper Guild to instead partner with ASNE in their struggle to achieve professional status for journalism. I then chronicle a series of credibility contests among journalism education stakeholders, including so called Class B schools, university administrators, and the federal government. Members of AASDJ and ASNE believed specialized accrediting was key to maintaining their autonomy, and unlocking professional status for their field.

II. The academy and the guild

While the Great Depression slowed cooperation between the industry and journalism educators it brought with it New Deal legislation from President Roosevelt that would challenge

the autonomy of the newspaper industry. Roosevelt's National Industrial Recovery Act was passed and signed into law in June 1933.³¹² The legislation gave the president authority to appoint a National Recovery Administration (NRA) and charge them with setting up codes for more than 500 industries, including the newspaper industry. The codes would amount to industry-wide employment rules dealing with minimum wage and limits on hours worked per week.³¹³ Newspaper publishers, represented by Elisha Hanson, successfully argued to regulators that newspaper editorial employees were professionals, and thus exempt from the new NRA regulations.³¹⁴ Publishers had managed to save themselves a great deal of money while raising the status of newspaper work to professional rank. While the newspaper codes were a major issue for publishers, journalism educators and ASNE paid surprisingly little attention to the government's 1934 designation. The irony of classifying a group of workers as professional in order to pay them less than their fair share was not lost on newspaper workers, however.

While Roosevelt's comprehensive effort to regulate industry was eventually declared unconstitutional, it nevertheless helped workers get organized. Against this backdrop, the American Newspaper Guild was established in December 1933.³¹⁵ As more and more

³¹² "National Industrial Recovery Act." Funk & Wagnalls New World Encyclopedia, January 1, 2018.

³¹³ Cindy Elmore, "Terry Pettus and the 1936 Seattle Newspaper Strike: Pivotal Success for the Early American Newspaper Guild," *American Journalism* 36, no. 3 (Summer 2019): 300–321.

³¹⁴ "New Exemptions from NRA Code: Members of Newspaper Editorial Staffs and Other Professional Workers Excepted," *New York Times*, August 1, 1933; Special to *The New York Times*, "News Men Demand 5-Day Week in Code: 'Professional' Classification Is Denounced as Depriving Them of NRA Benefits. Newsboy Use Defended," *New York Times*, September 23, 1933.

³¹⁵ Walter M. Brasch, *With Just Cause: Unionization of the American Journalist* (Lanham, MD: University Press of America, 1991).

newspapers folded or were bought up during the Great Depression, workers were faced with dwindling options: work for the newspaper in your town, or do not work at all.³¹⁶ Workers in the newspaper industry were facing long hours, little pay, and instability in the labor market.

When the Guild launched its members were faced with a choice. Would the Guild be a professional organization or a union? They could be like a press club, represent editors, and advocate for better pay. Or, they could negotiate with publishers for better pay and better working conditions under the threat of a strike.³¹⁷ Publishers warned that trade unionism would compromise journalists' objectivity and *Editor & Publisher* complained of radicalism and class-consciousness within the Guild's ranks. Mechanical operators in the newspaper business, like printers, had long been unionized and often enjoyed higher wages than those employed in editorial work.³¹⁸ It was the first union for non-mechanical newspaper employees. Yet the Guild struggled early. Guild members found it difficult to organize and difficult to protect their ranks from retaliation by publishers.³¹⁹ Still, the Guild did raise wages and create contract security for journalists.³²⁰ In April 1934 the Guild reached its first settlement with the *Philadelphia Record*.³²¹ Provisions included a minimum wage, a cap on hours worked per week, overtime rules, and paid vacations.

³¹⁶ Brasch, *With Just Cause*.

³¹⁷ Philip M. Glende, "Trouble on the Right, Trouble on the Left: The Early History of the American Newspaper Guild," *Journalism History* 38 (3), 2012: 142-155.

³¹⁸ Maurine H. Beasley, "The Emergence of Modern Media, 1900-1945," in *The Media in America*, Edited by Wm. David Sloan (Northport, AL: Vision Press, 2002).

³¹⁹ Rodney Carlisle, "William Randolph Hearst's Reaction to the American Newspaper Guild," *Labor History* 10, no. 1 (Winter 1969): 74.

³²⁰ Glende, "Trouble on the Right, Trouble on the Left."

Despite their professed shared interests in raising wages for reporters and editors, educators in both the American Association of Teachers of Journalism (AATJ) and the AASDJ gave the Guild a cool reception. Journalism educators met privately with Guild representatives on a few occasions and Guild representatives participated in a handful of annual conferences, but journalism educators were cautious. They preferred to take a wait and see approach to the Guild's development.

Educators first met with the Guild in the summer of 1934, and soon both the Guild and AASDJ created committees to study how the two organizations might cooperate.³²² When educators hosted a symposium on the Guild in the fall of 1934, the chair of the Guild's committee on cooperation presented a tentative plan. He said the Guild would give "recognition to training received in the schools by prospective employees of daily newspapers."³²³ The Guild representative cautioned this was a tentative plan subject to the approval of the Guild's executive council and ratification at the next Guild convention in Cleveland, in 1935.

Educators were ready to approve the plan until it was clear the tentative agreement would be limited in application to graduates of AASDJ institutions. When journalism instructors from unaffiliated institutions objected to the agreement, Bleyer of Wisconsin, an AASDJ founding institution replied that membership in the AASDJ was "the only available standard for

³²¹ Steven Greenhouse, "More secure jobs, bigger paychecks," *Columbia Journalism Review*, Spring/Summer 2018, https://www.cjr.org/special_report/media-unions-history.php.

³²² H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AATJ," *The Journalism Quarterly*, 12, (January 1935): 81.

³²³ H.H. Herbert, "Proceedings of the AATJ," 83.

measuring schools and departments.”³²⁴ In the end, AATJ appointed representatives from non-AASDJ schools to join the AASDJ in their negotiations with the Guild.

Four years later the cooperation came to an end. A representative from AASDJ appeared at the Guild’s annual convention in 1938 and asked that AASDJ graduates be given “additional credit on their apprenticeship periods.”³²⁵ The proposal had the support of the Guild’s committee on education, but the Guild delegates voted against the move. In turn, the Guild asked the schools to promote junior guilds among journalism students on campus. The AASDJ representative said such a move would be inappropriate on a college campus. A few months later, AASDJ made it clear it would not work closely with the Guild. Educators discharged the committee on cooperation with the Guild, but agreed they would follow the Guild’s movements closely.

III. The academy and the industry

Journalism historian Gwyneth Mellinger chronicles the rise of ASNE in her 2013 book *Chasing Newsroom Diversity: From Jim Crow to Affirmative Action*.³²⁶ Mellinger explores newsroom diversity from the middle of the twentieth century to the year 2000. She describes ASNE as unrivaled in terms of prestige and exclusivity. ASNE never explicitly restricted membership by race, but Mellinger argues ASNE’s membership criteria imposed racial barriers and created professional norms that marginalized non-white journalists. By partnering with the

³²⁴ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AATJ,” 84.

³²⁵ H.H. Herbert, “Proceedings of the AASDJ,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 16, 1, (March 1939): 107.

³²⁶ Gwyneth Mellinger, *Chasing Newsroom Diversity: From Jim Crow to Affirmative Action* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2013).

industry to “raise standards,” journalism educators in the AASDJ did much the same to non-white students. All the schools in the AASDJ were predominately white institutions.

Yost always envisioned ASNE as a small body. Initially, membership was limited to editors in cities with more than 100,000 residents. The following year in 1924, ASNE amended its constitution to reduce the requirement to 50,000 residents. Yost would later say he did not want to compete with the National Editorial Association (NEA), an organization comprised of mostly small town newspaper editors. “If we opened to small towns,” he said, “the majority of the membership would very soon be in the hands of the small newspapers.”³²⁷ ASNE was intended for metropolitan editors and turning over control to small town newspaper editors would have defeated the primary purpose of the organization, he said. The same dynamic was at play in educator organizations. Too many small schools meant larger institutions in the AASDJ would lose control.

For Mellinger, ASNE was trying navigate the democratic paradox inherent in journalism. They were defending free speech but controlling access to the newsroom. ASNE’s professional project circumvented the open-participation ethos of the First Amendment. Mellinger points to the role of education in ASNE’s rise to power, and ASNE’s lack of newsroom diversity. Journalism educators were complicit if not fundamental to ASNE’s professionalism project. The credential for metropolitan journalism would legitimate the inequality of status and the closure of newsroom access, and the ramifications would disproportionately affect women and people of color. The pool of potential journalists would bottleneck at predominately white institutions,

³²⁷ Alice Fox Pitts, *Read All About It! 50 Years of ASNE* (Easton, PA: American Society of Newspaper Editors, 1974), 251.

while students at women's colleges and historically Black colleges would be excluded from working at ASNE-affiliated newspapers.

Jobs in white newspapers and magazines were almost entirely off-limits for African Americans until the 1960s.³²⁸ In the 1930s African Americans were challenging segregation in education. Lucille Bluford, a graduate of University of Kansas, applied to Missouri's graduate school for journalism in 1939.³²⁹ The university rejected her application and advised her to petition Lincoln University, a nearby historically Black college, to accommodate her request. Lincoln University lacked the resources to provide a graduate program in journalism, and even if they could develop one it would be unlikely to be accredited by AASDJ. The University of Missouri pressured the state legislature to appropriate \$60,000 for a new journalism school at Lincoln University.³³⁰ As a result, the first journalism school at a historically Black college was established at Lincoln University in 1942.³³¹

From 1925, through the Great Depression, AASDJ educators focused on establishing a degree from an accredited school or department of journalism as a prerequisite for newspaper work. Moreover, a degree from an AASDJ institution would be, they hoped, the official credential for metropolitan journalism. To get there, they would focus on classification and organizational membership while appealing to the interest of metropolitan newspaper editors

³²⁸ Phillip Jeter, "Journalism and Mass Communication Education at HBCUs: History and Current Issues." *Education* 123, no. 1 (2002): 200-205.

³²⁹ Larry Grothaus, "'The Inevitable Mr. Gaines': The Long Struggle to Desegregate the University of Missouri 1936-1950," *Arizona and the West* 26, no. 1 (1984): 21-42.

³³⁰ Grothaus, "'The Inevitable Mr. Gaines.'"

³³¹ Jeter, "Journalism and Mass Communication"

in ASNE at the same time. The AASDJ institutions hoped to become the industry's lone supplier of workers. A close relationship with ASNE would enable an educational monopoly for AASDJ schools.

Yet the early efforts between journalism educators in the AASDJ and newspaper editors in the ASNE produced mixed results. They had planned to bring order to journalism education and their cooperation began with the Joint Committee of 1930. Together, they discussed conducting a nationwide survey and classification of all the schools and departments in the United States offering journalism education, but nothing came of those plans. When they discovered their survey was cost-prohibitive they approached the Carnegie Foundation, who chose not to accommodate their request for financial assistance. Later, journalism educators squabbled amongst themselves over representation on the Joint Committee, even as the momentum for cooperation withered in the depression years.

Educators in the AASDJ positioned themselves to set the agenda should the opportunity to cooperate with the industry present itself again. The authority of AASDJ alone had not been enough to elevate accredited programs and the plan for identification cards for graduates of accredited programs had fizzled. From 1936 to 1938, AASDJ presidents appeared at ASNE's annual convention. For three consecutive years journalism educators Carl Ackerman from Columbia, Lawrence Murphy from Illinois, and Kenneth Olson from Northwestern, took turns making pleas for industry support for so called class A schools.

Their comments to the ASNE members in those years lay bare the transactional relationship educators in the AASDJ hoped to establish. The AASDJ presidents would defend their decision to emphasize the liberal arts in undergraduate education for journalism. They

would say graduate school was the ultimate goal for journalism education, and they would declare that with the assistance of the industry AASDJ could produce 100% of all journalism graduates by 1947. Assistance from the industry was crucial, educators would say. Together, they would convince Casper Yost and the ASNE organization to reconvene the Joint Committee in 1938. The effects of World War II would slow cooperation, but the momentum educators and editors established in the late 1930s culminated in a collaborative, specialized accrediting agency for journalism education.

Carl Ackerman, president of AASDJ and dean of Columbia journalism school, provided the ASNE gathering of 1936 with a brief overview of the development of journalism education in the United States.³³² From 1908 to 1919, journalism schools were resourceful, ambitious, industrious, he said. They produced journalists who in 1936 held many important positions in the newspaper business. After the war, from about 1920 to 1929, journalism schools attracted a new kind of student, interested primarily in operating newspapers. In 1929, he continued, journalism schools faced the reality that there were not enough jobs to support 100 or 200 schools. Starting in 1929, journalism schools decided that instead of focusing strictly on the technique of reporting and copy reading, they would go in the opposite direction by focusing on a broad liberal arts background. Journalism schools wanted to attract and develop students who would go into a news room and grow with the newspaper. Columbia had managed to do what had never been done, he said. The university set up a graduate school of journalism and raised standards and requirements to equal medicine, law, and engineering.

³³² Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Fourteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1936), 83.

Lawrence Murphy, of the University of Illinois, was president of AASDJ. He stressed the selectivity of AASDJ and told the ASNE audience of 1937 that soon AASDJ schools would be producing one hundred percent of all journalism graduates. The association, as he called it, was for journalism education, what the American Law School Association and Association of Medical Colleges was for education in law and medicine. Membership in the AASDJ was by invitation only. "Mere compliance with this list of rules does not entitle a school to election," he noted. A school could not initiate the application process.³³³ Murphy then stressed that AASDJ hoped to monopolize the production of metropolitan journalists. In 1927, AASDJ was graduating 66% of the total number of all journalism graduates. Now, in 1937, AASDJ was graduating 80% of all journalism graduates. In ten years, Murphy said, with help from ASNE, AASDJ hoped to producing 100% of all journalism college graduates.

Murphy's emphasis on monopolizing journalism education raised some questions. At the conclusion of Murphy's speech, Dwight Marvin, editor of the *Troy Record* asked a pointed question. Mr. Murphy has 15 rules to qualify for AASDJ membership, he noted. "You say that if a school qualifies fully in those fifteen ways it is not necessarily then a Grade A school. What is the 16th of those provisions," he asked.³³⁴ In other words, what was the unwritten rule?

Murphy answered that it was "an intangible thing." Some institutions had created shoe-string departments that looked very good on paper, he said. AASDJ was also interested in the larger institution to which a school or department belonged. If they were lacking in the

³³³ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Fifteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1937), 27.

³³⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1937, p. 30.

departments of history, political science, or economics, “or if the institution is not a member of the American Association of Universities, we are inclined to go pretty slow on issuing an invitation.”

Marvin’s question regarding membership criteria – “What is the 16th of those provisions?” –had prompted a rather revealing answer from Murphy. The American Association of Universities (AAU) was a collection of elite universities that brought order to the field of education in the early twentieth century, and they were far more selective than Murphy’s AASDJ. In 2019 the AAU was comprised of only 65 institutions. It was just as selective in the interwar period, and Murphy was admitting that for all the talk of best practices, the best predictor for acceptance in the AASDJ was whether a journalism program was affiliated with the most elite universities in the United States. Schools and departments of journalism at universities unaffiliated with the AAU would find AASDJ membership very difficult to obtain.

Murphy and Marvin had emphasized graduate school, selectivity, and monopoly, in their speeches to the editors in 1936 and 1937. In 1938, Dean of the Medill school of journalism and president of AASDJ, Kenneth Olson, spoke at ASNE 1938.³³⁵ He painted a bleak picture of journalism education and challenged the editors to take control. He wasn’t there to apologize for the schools of journalism, he told them. I’m here to ask you to do something about them, he said. Olson had left his newspaper job to take over at Medill in the fall of 1937. Now in his second semester, he said President Hutchins of the University of Chicago was the only person

³³⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Sixteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1938).

who knew less about what was happening in journalism education than newspaper men. Olson was referring to Hutchins's recent comments on journalism education.

Robert Hutchins was president of the University of Chicago from 1929 to 1945. From 1945 to 1951 he served as the university's chancellor. Before that he was educated at Oberlin and Yale.³³⁶ He was a critic of what he saw as an overemphasis on practical and technical studies in higher education. Later, in the 1940s, as chair of the Commission on the Freedom of the Press, he would earn the outrage of newspaper editors and reporters everywhere with his very public critique of the media in United States.³³⁷ In 1938, it was journalism educators who were irate at Hutchins. His public comments on training for journalism might have sparked outrage among educators, but his remarks reflected the skepticism felt by many university administrators. They also capture the struggles journalism educators were facing on campus.

In a speech before the Inland Daily Press Association in 1938, Hutchins criticized journalism education's place in higher education. Many university presidents and administrators were suspicious of journalism education. That Hutchins made his critique before members of the Inland Daily Press Association, an organization journalism educators were pursuing as partner, made his statements particularly devastating. "The shadiest educational ventures under respectable auspices are the schools of journalism," he had said. "They exist in defiance of the obvious fact," he continued, "that the best preparation for journalism is a good

³³⁶ "Hutchins, Robert Maynard." Funk & Wagnalls New World Encyclopedia, January 1, 2018, 1.

³³⁷ Victor Pickard, "'Whether the Giants Should Be Slain or Persuaded to Be Good': Revisiting the Hutchins Commission and the Role of Media in a Democratic Society," *Critical Studies in Media Communication* 27, no. 4 (October 2010): 391–411.

education.”³³⁸ He summed it up by saying journalism could be learned only by being a journalist.

Hutchins was apparently under the mistaken belief that journalism schools taught four years of nothing but reporting and copy reading, Olson told the ASNE audience of 1938. That simply was not true, he continued, noting that three-fourths of coursework came from the liberal arts. Journalism schools were producing graduates with an appreciation of the newspaper profession and an educational background that would make them more useful than the ordinary cub reporter.

If Hutchins and others believed journalism education was limited to technical courses it was probably the industry’s fault. Olson said newspapermen only had themselves to blame for pushing too many technical courses. In the 1920s they were too critical of journalism schools, and journalism schools responded by overloading their coursework with technical courses. Journalism schools now, he said, were thinking more and more about five year programs instead of four year programs. Olson reminded ASNE 1938 that they had repeatedly called for graduate programs. Olson’s Medill school of journalism would open their graduate school in the fall of 1939.

Olson wondered aloud whether the ASNE audience understood how serious the problems were in journalism education. According to his numbers, there were 532 universities and colleges teaching journalism, followed by countless business colleges and high schools offering journalism instruction. What good are so called Class A schools if we allow “this chaos

³³⁸ "President Hutchins on Journalism Schools," *The Modern Language Journal* 22, no. 8 (1938): 640.

in journalistic education to exist?”³³⁹ Perhaps President Hutchins was more right than he knew when called journalism schools “shady educational ventures.” Many schools were indeed “little more than camouflaged publicity bureaus for their colleges,” he said.³⁴⁰ ASNE spoke of limiting enrollment in journalism schools, but it wasn’t Class A schools who were flooding the market. “Your Class A schools,” he said, “last year turned out 400 graduates, or one graduate for every five daily newspapers in the country.”³⁴¹ Little good it did to talk of professional schools if editors were going to hire high school graduates at \$12 per week.

There was no newspaper organization to represent all the interested parties, but the late Fred Fuller Shedd, he said, had the right idea when he founded the Joint Committee back in 1930. Olson asked ASNE to revive the Joint Committee, which had not formally met for several years. He requested they bring more professional organizations to the table. He added that the Joint Committee should consist of representatives from the better schools.

Casper Yost, founder of ASNE, offered his views after Olson completed his report. His focus was on selectivity. He hoped any class A journalism program would come from an AAU affiliated institution, and that any program would have a definite program for weeding out the unfit. Yost asked ASNE to revive the old Joint Committee, and members agreed. Kenneth Olson and Casper Yost supported passage of the ASNE resolution and it passed at the end of the ASNE convention in April 1938.

³³⁹ Problems of Journalism, 1938, p. 48.

³⁴⁰ Problems of Journalism, 1938, p. 49.

³⁴¹ Problems of Journalism, 1938, p. 49.

The new, re-organized Joint Committee met in Chicago on January 21, 1939. Attending were five representatives from the AASDJ and one representative each from ASNE, American Newspaper Publishers Association (ANPA), Inland Press, Southern Press, and the National Editorial Association (NEA). They established an agency to supervise the schools, calling it the National Council for Professional Education in Journalism (NCPEJ). Like the Joint Committee, it would be composed of five representatives from the AASDJ one representative each from ASNE, ANPA, Inland Press, Southern Press, and NEA.

The NCPEJ completed the long awaited comprehensive survey of journalism instruction in 1939.³⁴² The survey covered 901 four-year institutions, of which 542 were offering instruction in journalism. Of those 542 institutions, 418 were universities and colleges, 103 were teachers' colleges, and 21 were Historically Black Colleges. There were 216 schools, departments, and divisions of journalism, with professional objectives, but the NCPEJ referred to the 32 AASDJ schools as the only "accredited professional schools." Eight months after the results of the 1939 survey were made public, the United States would be drawn into World War II. Once again cooperation between the AASDJ and the ASNE came to a standstill.

IV. Contested credibility

Since their founding, AASDJ and ASNE were concerned with regulating participants and practices in the field of journalism. ASNE wanted to achieve professional status for their members and AASDJ set itself up as the lone authority in journalism education. Attempts at collaborating on their shared vision had stalled. The original Joint Committee began in 1930 but

³⁴² Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Nineteenth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1941).

was unable to carry on through the depression. The second iteration of the Joint Committee, initiated in 1938, reported on their comprehensive survey and classification in 1941, but made no further progress. The 32 schools and departments in the AASDJ were recognized as unofficially accredited. That was as far as they got before the United States entered World War II. The AASDJ would not meet again until 1945.

In 1941, the AASDJ invited several institutions to “submit reports on their qualifications.”³⁴³ Seven institutions replied. They included Alabama, California, Emory, Ohio, Oklahoma A&M, Temple, and West Virginia University (WVU). All submitted statements on their qualifications, and chair of AASDJ’s Council on Education for Journalism asked each institution to submit references from the industry and the academy. The chair also wrote to “newspaper men and journalism teachers whose judgment or interest seemed to warrant consultation.”³⁴⁴ The chair also consulted with AASDJ institutions located in each applicant’s region. Ideally the Council on Education for Journalism would have hired an outside agency, but they were unable to secure a grant-in-aid.

Before announcing the AASDJ’s decision, the selection committee chair asserted that “no other consideration except quality of educational program has any bearing upon qualifications for membership.”³⁴⁵ Emory was the only institution to receive two-thirds of the committee’s support. Members explained that Emory was approved because of its high caliber

³⁴³ Norval Neil Luxon, “Convention Proceedings, AASDJ” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 19, 1, (March 1942): 123.

³⁴⁴ Norval Neil Luxon, “Convention Proceedings, AASDJ,” 123.

³⁴⁵ Norval Neil Luxon, “Convention Proceedings, AASDJ,” 123.

instruction, standing of its institution, and the character of its staff. A roll call vote was held and Emory was award membership by the full body of AASDJ.

Olson asked where the other institutions fell short. Rogers answered that the Council on Education for Journalism felt “that institutions under consideration for membership should meet median standards of member schools rather than mere minimum standards.”³⁴⁶ Once again, AASDJ had moved the goal post. In the beginning there were standards for membership. Then, meeting the standards merely made one eligible for membership, but did not guarantee an offer of membership. Then membership was controlled through an invitation-only system. Now, AASDJ wanted applicants to meet median, rather than minimum, standards.

AASDJ agreed to re-visit the decisions on the University of California and WVU applications. At the 1943 informal meeting of the AASDJ, Rogers, chair of AASDJ’s Council on Education for Journalism on education gave an update. The Council on Education for Journalism visited a handful of schools. Eric Allen of Oregon visited the University of California, and Ralph Nafziger visited WVU. Both had submitted their reports. The question of admitting California to membership would be settled by a mail vote of the full AASDJ membership, but WVU would not receive a mail vote.³⁴⁷ AASDJ’s rejection of the journalism program at WVU did not set well with the school’s dean, Perley I. Reed. Just a few years earlier Reed had described his program to an audience of ASNE members. “We have a small university,” he had said.³⁴⁸ He wanted the ASNE

³⁴⁶ Norval Neil Luxon, “Convention Proceedings, AASDJ,” 123.

³⁴⁷ J.E. Pollard, “Informal AASDJ Meeting, Chicago, January 9, 1943,” *The Journalism Quarterly*, 20, 1, (March 1943): 94.

³⁴⁸ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Twelfth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1934), 23.

members to know that the journalism school “hand-picked” its students, and that even in a depressed economy his graduates were finding employment in the newspaper business.

A few years after Reed’s program was rejected by the AASDJ, he would be leading a rival organization, and, later in the early 1950s, challenging the AASDJ as the final authority in specialized accreditation for journalism. In 1945 Reed founded the American Society of Journalism School Administrators (ASJSA) to represent the interest of Class B schools, institutions of some quality but not recognized as accredited by the AASDJ. Asked about the creation of ASJSA in a 1972 oral history interview, Reed explained that ASJSA was created for educators representing programs that valued independence of thought and action. “They didn’t just subscribe to the idea that a few persons had a monopoly on what the best journalism would be,” he said.³⁴⁹ Reed would be able to turn the AASDJ’s rhetoric against itself. Reed would differentiate his Class B group by accentuating its independence as preferable to AASDJ’s (over) standardization.

Meanwhile, as the Joint Committee’s momentum dissipated over the duration of the war, challenges to their authority increased. From their inception, neither ASNE nor AASDJ had faced any serious threats to their authority. Beginning in the late 1930s and early 1940s, ASNE and AASDJ found their credibility questioned by not only university administrators and so called Class B schools, but the federal government, too. University administrators were trying to take control of specialized accrediting. Class B schools, led by Reed of WVU, had develop their own organization to challenge AASDJ’s authority, and all three branches of the federal government

³⁴⁹ Perley I. Reed, interviewed by Stewart (last name only), February 21, 1972, Mss 154AF, Box 50, Folder 15, Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication Records, 1912-2003, Madison, WI

would challenge the professional status of journalism. Disputes among journalism education stakeholders in the late 1930s and early 1940s amounted to credibility contests. The boundary work that began with a focus on participation and practices was now explicitly focused on professionalism.

Thomas Gieryn wrote that credibility contests among social groups could be attributed to problems of demarcation. Boundary work was the means through which social groups would struggle to settle a credibility contest. Gieryn argued that credibility contests create three social roles.³⁵⁰ First, people attach epistemic authority to their claims by erecting social boundaries. Journalism educators and newspaper editors had done precisely that when they formed their organizations and authored their canons, codes, principles, and standards. Second, Gieryn wrote that credibility contests affect the public and policy makers as they try to make sense of the maps created by the social boundaries drawn by adversaries. AASDJ and ASNE hoped the public would recognize the boundaries they had drawn and reward them with the cultural authority they desired. Third, the public is in turn affected by the allocations of epistemic authority, especially where institutional decisions are made. Some schools get accredited. Some do not.

The allocation of resources and the official recognition they sought would also come from political and legal authorities. Adversaries in credibility contests seek the force of law to secure legitimacy for social boundaries that serve their best interest.³⁵¹ It was there that

³⁵⁰ Thomas F. Gieryn, *Cultural Boundaries of Science: Credibility On the Line* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1999.).

³⁵¹ Thomas F. Gieryn, "Cultural Boundaries: Settled and Unsettled," in *Clashes of Knowledge: Orthodoxies and Heterodoxies in Science and Religion*, eds. Peter Meusbürger, Michael Welker, and Edgar Wunder (New York: Springer, 2008).

jurisdictional disputes would be settled; where the soft power and rhetoric of boundary work might be converted into material rewards. Practical decisions would be negotiated and settled by the formulation of public policies and investments in the creation of new knowledge.

Journalism and the Fair Labor Standards Act

Newspaper publishers challenged Roosevelt's regulatory actions and successfully argued their employees qualified for the legislation's professional exemption in 1933. Elisha Hanson, attorney for the American Newspaper Publishers Association, argued on behalf of all publishers that reporters who received more than \$35.00 per week were "professional" and not subject to the 40-hour work week limit. He also suggested that the regulations were a threat to the constitutional guarantee of freedom of the press.³⁵²

Roosevelt's 1933 labor regulations were ultimately ruled unconstitutional in 1935, but its provisions on minimum wage and overtime would reappear as part of the Fair Labor Standards Act (FLSA) signed into law in the summer of 1938. Like the NIRA legislation, the FLSA included an exemption for certain categories of workers. As the industry challenged the FLSA's applicability to the newspaper industry, Hanson would use different justifications for why newspaper reporters and editors were not entitled to FLSA protections. Representing 12 newspaper publishers' associations, Hanson began writing to regulators for clarification on the law's interpretation in October 1938. Publishers weren't concerned with minimum wage, he wrote, but they were concerned that newspaper reporters would be entitled to overtime pay

³⁵² Special To *The New York Times*, "News Men Demand 5-Day Week In Code: 'Professional' Classification Is Denounced As Depriving Them Of NRA Benefits. Newsboy Use Defended Publishers Concede Right Of Collective Bargaining, But Oppose 'Third Parties,'" *New York Times*, Sep 23, 1933.

beyond 40 hours. Hanson claimed it would lead to financial ruin and “undoubtedly would greatly restrict the service of the press in gathering and dissemination of information to the citizens of this country.”³⁵³

In July of 1940, Hanson and a group of journalism educators appeared before the Wage and Hour Administration to urge an exemption from the FLSA. Dean Carl Ackerman of Columbia and Dean Kenneth Olson of Northwestern testified to the quality of journalism education and pointed to their organization, AASDJ, as evidence of the professional character of journalism education and newspaper work.³⁵⁴

Whether they realized it or not, journalism educators were limiting the earning potential and the political and economic security of their graduates by participating in the hearings. They must have known that at least in this particular context and forum, professionalism and fair wages were negatively correlated. That is, if the Wage and Hour Administration granted newspapers a professional exemption under the FLSA, newspaper workers would be denied better wages and limits on overtime. Their willingness to forego the future well-being of their students is striking.

Boundary work is about rhetoric, but participants hope their rhetoric leads to material gains. Those gains, in the form of social and economic capital, begin when the rhetorical boundary created by a particular social group is endorsed by political and legal authorities. That

³⁵³ “Publishers Seek Status Ruling On Wage-Hour Law,” *Los Angeles Times*, Oct 31, 1938: 9.

³⁵⁴ “Rate Journalism as a Profession,” *New York Times*, Jul 27, 1940, 7.

is precisely what the educators and editors were hoping would occur in this instance. They hoped to see their boundaries actualized and codified by the federal government.

Educators had always paid lip service to raising the wages of newspaper reporters. So had the editors. Better wages, they had argued, would keep their best reporters from abandoning the newsroom for the publicity office, and would attract better talent at both the educational and industrial levels of journalism. Yet here they were, implicitly sacrificing better wages on the altar of professionalism. That educators would side with the industry at the expense of their own graduates on the matter of wages and professionalism is no surprise, though. Already, journalism educators had snubbed one of the few organizations responsible for increasing wages and protecting newspaper workers –the American Newspaper Guild. Call us professional, educators and editors seemed to say, no matter the cost.

By September 1940 newspapers were challenging the legislation in federal court, usually for failing to make their records available to regulators. Hanson represented two Easton, Pennsylvania, newspapers, after they refused to allow the Wage and Hour Administration to examine their payrolls to see if they were complying with the wage hour law. Hanson wrote to federal regulators to inform them that their “subpoena order violated the rights of a free press and would not be obeyed.”³⁵⁵ In October 1940, Hanson was in court on behalf of a Lowell, Massachusetts, newspaper that refused to allow regulators access to their payroll information. Hanson argued in court that “newspapers were a public service and outside the provisions of

³⁵⁵ “Newspapers Fight Payroll Access,” *New York Times*, Sep 7, 1940, 10.

the wages and hours regulations.³⁵⁶ In April 1941, Hanson argued the law was unconstitutional and that his clients were not engaged in interstate commerce.³⁵⁷

The Lowell Case ultimately went to the United States Supreme Court. There, in February of 1942, Hanson's arguments rested on the constitutional guarantee of freedom of the press. Congress lacked the "power to classify the press for any regulatory purpose whatever."³⁵⁸ The United States Supreme Court ruled in favor of the Lowell newspaper, but did not address Hanson's claims that the law violated the newspaper's freedom of speech. Instead, the court found that government agencies had improperly delegated subpoena power to the wrong government office, thus the subpoena was void.³⁵⁹

The FLSA, like its legislative predecessor, the National Industrial Recovery Act, included a professional exemption to its minimum wage and overtime rules. The Wage and Hour Division of the Department of Labor was responsible for interpreting the regulations. They defined "professional" workers as "those whose work requires 'educational training in a specially organized body of knowledge.'"³⁶⁰ In the next important test of the FLSA applicability to the newspaper industry, Hanson would argue that newspaper reporters and editors were professionals, and thus exempt from FLSA regulations. His argument that newspaper workers

³⁵⁶ "Calls Papers Exempt: Hanson Holds They Are Outside Wages and Hours Law," *New York Times*, Oct 8, 1940, 11.

³⁵⁷ "Paper Fights To Balk Subpoena By The NLRB," *New York Times*, Apr 5, 1941, 8.

³⁵⁸ "Calls Wage-Hour Act Outside Newspapers," *New York Times*, Feb 6, 1942, 13.

³⁵⁹ "High Court Curbs Wage-Hour Agents," *New York Times*, March 3, 1942.

³⁶⁰ Peter D. DeChiara, "Rethinking the managerial-professional exemption of the Fair Labor Standards Act," *Am. UL Rev.* 43 (1993): 139.

were professionals based on their pay rate had worked in the 1934, when the Roosevelt administration first tried to regulate minimum wage and overtime hours. Hanson and the publishers had won the recent Lowell case on a technicality, their arguments having had no effect on the court's ruling. Having missed the mark in that case he would now make professionalism the center of his case against the FLSA. Moreover, he would make journalism education central to the industry's claim to professional status.

On September 29, 1942, the United States District Court for the Western District of Tennessee found the Sun Pub. Co. in violation of the FLSA. The Administrator of the Wage and Hour Division for the U.S. Department of Labor had taken legal action against the Sun Publishing Company, alleging the Jackson, Tennessee, radio broadcaster and newspaper publisher had violated the FLSA on several counts. The court rejected the argument that the FLSA violated the publisher's First Amendment rights, and rejected the notion that Congress lacked the authority to regulate the newspaper industry.³⁶¹

On November 30, 1943, Hanson appealed that ruling before the United States Court of Appeals for the Sixth Circuit, in Cincinnati, Ohio. The Associated Press's coverage appeared in the New York Times. Hanson argued that newspapers employed professional workers including reporters, re-write men, cartoonists, and feature writers, and they should be exempt from the FLSA regulations. Hanson cited the 32 schools and departments of the AASDJ as evidence of the professional nature of newspaper work.³⁶²

³⁶¹ Walling v. Sun Pub. Co., 47 F. Supp. 180

³⁶² "Paper Sues To Halt Wages-Hour Law," *New York Times*, Dec 1, 1943, 22.

On January 24, 1944, the United States Court of Appeals for the Sixth Circuit reached a decision in the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling*, 140 F.2d 445 case. The court rejected the argument that newspaper reporters and editors were professionals. It was common knowledge, according to the court, that most newspaper employees had not attended a journalism school. Further, most editors of experience believe the newspaper office was the best school of journalism, he added.³⁶³

The outcome was a significant blow to the publishers, editors, and educators. Publishers would have to fairly compensate employees. The professionalism project begun by members of the ASNE was in shambles. Journalism educators in the ASSDJ had allied themselves to ASNE's professionalism project. First it was President Hutchins, from the University of Chicago, who called journalism schools an altogether shady enterprise, now the federal government had just agreed.

V. Specialized accreditation

While the educator groups did not meet during the height of the second world war, the NCPEJ, an agency to supervise journalism programs created by the recently reincarnated Joint Committee, did.³⁶⁴ In January of 1943 and 1944, the educators and industry representatives set about preparing for what many believed would be a post-war boom in journalism education. The NCPEJ had accomplished its survey and classification of journalism education in 1939, but

³⁶³ *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling*, 140 F.2d 445

³⁶⁴ Norval Neil Luxon, "Informal Meeting, Chicago, January 14, 1944," *Journalism Quarterly*, 12, 1, (March 1944), 94.

little else since the war began. Establishing an accrediting program was not discussed at either their 1943 or 1944 meetings.

On January 24, 1944, when the United States Court of Appeals for the Sixth Circuit ruled against the industry in *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling*, and the judge said journalism was not a profession and journalism education was useless, members of the NCPEJ reacted, in their own words, rather violently. Publishers were disappointed with the ruling because it meant their workers were not exempt from the Fair Labor Standards Act, and they would have to pay their employees overtime wages. Editors, meanwhile, were upset because it was a significant blow to their professionalism project. Educators bristled at the suggestion future journalists were better trained in the newsroom than the university. Editors were willing to forgo fair compensation if only to attain professional status. Publishers were certainly willing to oblige if only they could convince the government.

The key to solving the professionalism puzzle, according to Elisha Hanson, longtime counsel to the industry and litigator in their case against the federal government, was an official specialized accrediting program. AASDJ was long considered the accrediting body for journalism education and Hanson had invoked that body's authority during the Sun trial, but the federal judge dismissed the notion of a journalism curriculum in higher education. If the industry was going to hang its hat on education as the key to professional status for journalism, the accrediting program would need a significant upgrade.

J.N. Heiskell of the *Arkansas Gazette* was ASNE's representative to NCPEJ in 1944. A few months after the Sixth Circuit's ruling, he was updating editors at the ASNE annual convention of 1944. He reminded the editors that NCPEJ was created because there had been no standards

for the schools of journalism. NCPEJ began their work by completing a survey in 1939 covering all the schools “and so called schools,” but since the war, their focus had shifted to accelerating their programs to keep up with the labor demand.³⁶⁵ “Still later,” he said, “we had a special matter in a decision of a United States judge in which he said that journalism was not a profession.”³⁶⁶ Heiskell added that Richard Carter of the *Roanoke World-News* and chair of NCPEJ “reacted rather violently to that decision, and all of us stood back of him in his reaction.”³⁶⁷ Heiskell then suggested that Carter make a statement on the judge’s decision.

“I admit I did react rather violently,” to the decision, Carter began.³⁶⁸ He was not concerned with whether the judge’s obiter dictum, or passing remarks, were part of the opinion. The judge had said journalism was not a profession, but that was nothing new. “But he went a little further than that and said that education was of no value in newspaper work,” he added. “You can see what a spot I was in,” he continued. “I did not know whether to dissolve the council or come out with a statement that might put us all in jail.”³⁶⁹ Instead, he had called a meeting of educators and newspaper representatives.

That meeting took place two days later in New York City, on April 23, 1944. Elisha Hanson, attorney for the Sun Publishing Company and longtime counsel to the industry, and Lin Noyes, president of the American Newspaper Publishers Association (ANPA), discussed the

³⁶⁵ Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Twenty-Second Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1944), 27.

³⁶⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1944, 27.

³⁶⁷ Problems of Journalism, 1944, 27.

³⁶⁸ Problems of Journalism, 1944, p. 27.

³⁶⁹ Problems of Journalism, 1944, p. 28.

recent court decision. Elisha Hanson had pointed to the AASDJ schools as evidence that newspaper work was a profession in his role as an attorney for the industry in *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling*. Now, he told the NCPEJ members to “build a strong program around the accrediting and rating of schools, the setting and maintenance of standards and certification of graduates.”³⁷⁰ NCPEJ members agreed to meet the following day at the Waldorf. No records of that meeting could be found. In any case, Hanson and Sun Publishing Company’s appeal to the Supreme Court of the United States was denied the very next day, on Monday, April 24, 1944.³⁷¹

Nevertheless, ten months after the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* ruling, NCPEJ had regained its footing. In October 1944 it struck a deal to create the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism (ACEJ), a new, official accrediting body for journalism education, at an informal meeting. By 1946, ACEJ had a plan in place. By 1947, they had surveyed some 100 schools as to their interest in accreditation for journalism and accrediting committees were soon making official visits. The following year, in 1948, the first list of ACEJ-approved schools was unveiled.

Specialized accrediting was central to the journalism professionalism project, and the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* became Exhibit A in NCPEJ’s case to win support for an official accrediting program. As key members of the educator-industry group convinced their colleagues in the AASDJ and the ASNE to support the new effort they pointed to the ruling time and time again. J.N. Heiskell of the *Arkansas Gazette* was ASNE’s representative to NCPEJ.

³⁷⁰ “National Council on Professional Education for Journalism, Minutes of Meeting, April, 23, 1944,” *Journalism Quarterly*, June 1, 1944, 21, 2.

³⁷¹ April 24, 1944, *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling*, 322 U.S. 728, Supreme Court of the United States

Richard Carter of the Roanoke World-News was chair of the NCPEJ. Both suggested the court ruling was behind their new found sense of urgency at the their annual ASNE meeting in April, 1944. Elisha Hanson had even met with NCPEJ to urge its members to get specialized accrediting done, before the United States Supreme Court ultimately denied the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* appeal. Dwight Marvin of the *Troy Record*, another member of the NCPEJ and future president of ACEJ, also said the judge's remarks in *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* forced the industry to get serious about specialized accreditation. He said so at ASNE meetings in both 1946 and 1948. Educators were well aware that the industry was eager to develop an official accrediting program in response to the case, too. Fred Siebert of the University of Illinois, and president of the AASDJ, told journalism educators that the industry had been the impetus behind the new push toward an accrediting program at the AASDJ meeting of January 1945. Kenneth Olson of Northwestern, a member of ACEJ told the same AASDJ audience of January 1945 that the industry was keen on professional status, in the aftermath of the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* ruling. Specialized accreditation was ready for liftoff.

The 1948 ASNE meeting featured a panel discussion on ACEJ. ASNE president N.R. Howard asked Dwight Marvin of the *Troy Record* and chair of ACEJ to explain to the membership "what it was we got into."³⁷² Marvin reminded the gathering of editors that things began with Joint Committees appointed first in 1930 and revived again in 1938. That was the beginning the real work, he said, but their role was largely advisory, their biggest contribution being the survey of 1939. "They did not do very much until suddenly we had the Jackson Sun

³⁷² Problems of Journalism: Proceedings of the Twenty-Fifth Annual Convention, American Society of Newspaper Editors (Washington, D.C.: The Society, 1948), 128.

statement in 1944,” he said. Marvin quoted the judge, saying ““newspaper reporters have not generally been recognized as members of the learned professions.””³⁷³ Many of us believed we were professional, Marvin added. Not all reporters are necessarily professionals, he admitted, but “the implication was that none of us were professionals.” When the Jackson judge thought “we were tradesmen, immediately something had to be done.”³⁷⁴

Talk of accreditation began when ACEJ was established, Marvin said. “Men like Elisha Hanson, men like Lin Noyes, were very anxious to have this done, and they really did a wonderful job in backing the organization.”³⁷⁵ ACEJ members felt that if they did not organize an accreditation committee the Jackson case would put journalists in the same position as a bootblack, barber, or peddler. Simple tradesmen. Journalism schools, said Marvin, were trying to build up a student so they could earn more money, but “we felt,” he added, “that a journalist was a man who was trying to learn to do a finer service to his community and to the world.”³⁷⁶

Of the 120 or so universities who received the ACEJ questionnaire, between 40 and 50 wished to proceed with the accreditation process right away. A few more deferred action until the following year. Many schools backed down after they saw the questionnaire, Marvin said. By April of 1948, Marvin told the ASNE meeting about 40 schools had already been visited by ACEJ representatives.

³⁷³ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 129.

³⁷⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 129.

³⁷⁵ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 130.

³⁷⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 130.

Stephen Nolan of the *Indianapolis News* was first to comment on ACEJ when Marvin finished his report at ASNE 1948. Nolan had gone on three accrediting visits. He was hesitant to join the accrediting effort, knowing he and his professional colleagues would be outnumbered by educators but found the group always acted in consensus. Nolan said that as long as journalism schools were here, “something had to be done about cleaning out some of the incompetent schools.”³⁷⁷ Nolan said four out of five schools were not up to the task. “It was for that reason,” he said, “that I was glad to go into it and serve a second year.”³⁷⁸ Nolan said the ACEJ accreditors always met with the president of the institution for a frank conversation. When asked where their schools or departments of journalism rank, Nolan was amazed by how many directors said their journalism programs ranked very low. “They are not fooled,” said Nolan.³⁷⁹ Some journalism instructors welcomed sharp criticism, he said, because they believed they could get more money from budget committees to build up their journalism program. He was disappointed to find that many students were going into public relations and advertising instead of journalism. Nolan endorsed ASNE cooperation.

Tom Wallace of the *Louisville Times* had served as ASNE president. He was next to speak after Nolan at ASNE 1948. Wallace disagreed that journalists were professionals. They were more than that. They were statesmen. They should have higher morals than the learned professions. Wallace, like Nolan, had heard from many journalism students who were planning

³⁷⁷ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 133.

³⁷⁸ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 133.

³⁷⁹ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 134.

to work in public relations. Wallace said most he spoke to wanted to go into journalism, but didn't want to starve.

Wallace also voiced strong support for women working in the newsroom. On one visit with the accrediting committee, Wallace heard an instructor tell a group of women to expect and accept certain limitations in newspaper work. One of the women, said Wallace, got "hot under the collar."³⁸⁰ "Well my mother is deputy sheriff; why can't I get along as a reporter?" she wanted to know.³⁸¹ Wallace later discovered that the woman's mother was indeed deputy sheriff of Rowan County, Kentucky, "one of our tough mountain counties," he said.³⁸² The sheriff's daughter in Rowan County is capable of more than the society page, he added.

Marvin Creager of the *Milwaukee Journal* was next to comment on ACEJ. Creager remained skeptical about journalism education. Journalism was a way of life, he said, and that was a matter of understanding and inspiration. Blueprints and dogma were of little use. "I must confess," he continued, "that I know little about what they are doing and understand even less."³⁸³ There was a tendency to "fret over categories, a trend toward futile classification."³⁸⁴ Worse, there were some directors whose main concern was building up their department into a school so he could be "dean" and have a salary increase. Nevertheless, we should leave the

³⁸⁰ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 136.

³⁸¹ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 136.

³⁸² Problems of Journalism, 1948, 137.

³⁸³ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 139.

³⁸⁴ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 136.

education to the educators, he said. But make no mistake, he added, despite ACEJ, the training of journalists was still ASNE's problem.

Norval Neil Luxon was last to speak. Luxon was a faculty member in the school of journalism at Ohio State University. Luxon had visited five schools as part of ACEJ. Luxon was president of AASDJ, and chair of ACEJ's accrediting committee. He told the ASNE audience he was not there to defend schools of journalism. He had been doing that for 26 years. He recognized some in the ASNE audience were for the schools, some were against the schools, "and a good many of you do not know a great deal about schools of journalism."³⁸⁵

ACEJ would meet in mid-May, in Cleveland, to settle on ACEJ's first list of accredited schools of journalism. With that, AASDJ would officially cede its accrediting authority to the ACEJ. "How many are already on the accreditation list at the moment I cannot say," added Luxon.³⁸⁶ Luxon then reiterated ACEJ's objectives. In closing, Luxon told the ASNE what kind of graduates they could expect "of these 31, 32, or 33 schools that are accredited."³⁸⁷ Graduates from accredited schools will have completed coursework comprised of 25% journalism courses, and 75% courses in political science, history, sociology, economics, languages, and science, he said. Teachers in accredited schools will be capable, and their equipment will be sufficient for their objectives. They will come from nationally accredited institutions, as recognized by the AAU, he said. ACEJ wasn't perfect, but it was a step in the right direction. A rallying point, he hoped.

³⁸⁵ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 147.

³⁸⁶ Problems of Journalism, 1948, 148.

³⁸⁷ Problems of Journalism, 1948, p. 149.

The first list of ACEJ approved journalism programs was announced in June 1948. It included 13 different sequences at 35 institutions. Thirty-one institutions were accredited in the news-editorial sequence. Thirteen in radio news. Two in pictorial journalism. Other sequences were advertising, community journalism, advertising management, home economics journalism, agricultural journalism, magazine writing, management, science journalism, communications and public opinion, and informative writings.³⁸⁸ Boston University, University of Nebraska, New York University, were all members of the AASDJ, but they were not included in the first ACEJ accredited list. Members had been warned that some AASDJ institutions might not be accredited by ACEJ. The Texas State College for Women was among the non-AASDJ schools to appear on the ACEJ accredited list.³⁸⁹ ACEJ published a booklet on the accredited programs and sent one to daily newspapers, university presidents, and educational organizations, across the country.

The 28th annual meeting of the AASDJ took place in Boulder, Colorado, in early September, 1948, just a few months after ACEJ published their first accredited list. AASDJ president Norval Neil Luxon gave his address, "Professional Journalism Education."³⁹⁰ Kenneth Olson of Northwestern proposed a rule change regarding membership. Effective the following year, AASDJ would be made up of ACEJ-approved institutions. Olson's proposal was met with

³⁸⁸ "First List of Accredited Schools of Journalism Issued by ACEJ," *Journalism Quarterly*; Sep 1, 1948; 25, 3: 317.

³⁸⁹ The first school or department of journalism to be denied AASDJ membership was the School of Journalism at the Baylor Female College, in Belton, Texas, now known as the University of Mary Hardin-Baylor. The Baylor Female College and Texas State College were unaffiliated.

³⁹⁰ Norval Neil Luxon, "AASDJ," *The Journalism Quarterly*, 25, 4, (December 1948): 458.

disapproval from many present. One member pointed out that ACEJ had been set up to remove the stigma of not being affiliated with the AASDJ. Further, said another, AASDJ had been supported by many individuals who would now be “frozen out” of national programs and would “turn to some other organization to gain a voice.”³⁹¹ Others supported that view. Ultimately, the motion passed when the proposal was amended, changing the words from “AASDJ would be made up of ACEJ-approved institutions,” to “AASDJ will be open only to ACEJ-approved institutions.”³⁹² A journalism professor from Columbia was next to offer an amendment. AASDJ would change its name to the “Association of Accredited Schools and Departments of Journalism.” The amendment was approved.³⁹³ At the close of the 1948 AASDJ meeting, members relocated to nearby Flagstaff Mountain where they were served a steak dinner, “cafeteria-style.”³⁹⁴

One year after the first ACEJ list of accredited programs was published, the National Commission on Accrediting (NCA) was organized.³⁹⁵ The NCA was created to respond to the proliferation of professional accrediting bodies, like the ACEJ. The NCA would work with regional accreditors, who were responsible for administering institutional accrediting, to take control of specialized accrediting. Regional accreditors would only recognize professional

³⁹¹ Norval Neil Luxon, “AASDJ,” 461.

³⁹² Norval Neil Luxon, “AASDJ,” 461.

³⁹³ Norval Neil Luxon, “AASDJ,” 461.

³⁹⁴ Norval Neil Luxon, “AASDJ,” 466.

³⁹⁵ William K. Selden, “Accrediting: What Is It?” *AAUP Bulletin* 42, no. 4 (1956): 629-635. The NCA is the predecessor to the Council for Higher Education Accreditation.

accrediting bodies designated by the NCA, and there would be only one accrediting body per profession.

ACEJ struggled to win the NCA's recognition. It wanted the autonomy to enforce its own standards. Their disagreements were such that in 1953 the NCA notified the regional accreditors to coordinate specialized journalism education with the American Society of Journalism School Administrators (ASJSA), an organization of so-called Class B schools founded by WVU's Perley I. Reed, whose journalism program was rejected by AASDJ in 1941.

The long simmering rivalry between Class A schools, represented by ACEJ and AASDJ, and Class B schools, represented by Perley I. Reed's ASJSA, erupted in the pages of the *New York Times* just a few years after ACEJ's first accredited list. In January of 1951, Reed had attacked ACEJ and the AASDJ in a letter to the *Times*. "Restricting Press Freedom; Danger Seen of Limiting Writers to Those From Accredited Schools," read the headline.³⁹⁶ Reed asked the audience to imagine a world in which "certain intellectuals" decided to bureaucratize the press and radio, accredit a select few publications, and see to it that all other unaccredited publications be discredited. Reed declared that the subtle beginnings of just such a system was playing out in the field of journalism education. He characterized ACEJ as a "a self-created agency which, upon invitation and receipt of \$100," sends an inspection team of educators and newspaper men to rate schools and departments of journalism. Their aim, he continued, was to "disqualify the graduates of a small arts college, or a self-educated man, for publishing activity until he had been 'accredited' by some self-created agency." Reed closed his letter by noting

³⁹⁶ Perley I. Reed, "Restricting Press Freedom; Danger Seen of Limiting Writers to Those From Accredited Schools," *New York Times*, January 27, 1951, 12.

the ACEJ had yet to be recognized by the NCA as of 1951, and extolled the independence and democratic nature of his organization, the ASJSA.

Alfred H. Kirchhofer, president of ACEJ in 1951, responded to Reed in the *Times* a few weeks later. Kirchhofer wondered if perhaps Reed failed “to understand what the journalism accreditation program comprehends.”³⁹⁷ Given that over 500 four-year institutions and 250 junior colleges were offering journalism instruction, Kirchhofer wrote that it was “apparent that some measuring stick is required that will help students to avoid disillusionments and employers to avoid disappointment in the graduates they employ.”

The accredited programs in ACEJ and members of the AASDJ were flabbergasted by the NCA’s offer to Reed’s ASJSA, which represented Class B schools. To avoid being shut out of the NCA’s plans, members of ACEJ and AASDJ agreed to give representation to unaccredited schools on the ACEJ committee. Longtime proponents of the ACEJ were deeply disappointed by the concession to Class B schools in the ASJSA and pointed to the compromise as a significant step backward in their crusade to bring standards to journalism education.

VI. Conclusion

AASDJ partnered with ASNE to bring order to the field of journalism education. Members of AASDJ rejected a close relationship with the American Newspaper Guild when it became clear the Guild would not give graduates of AASDJ institutions any special privileges. The AASDJ was turned off by the trade-unionism the Guild pursued and worried it might antagonize the AASDJ’s partners in the industry. ACEJ was created with a sense of urgency at

³⁹⁷ Alfred H. Kirchhofer, “Checking Journalism Schools; Accreditation Program Explained, Menace to Freedom Denied,” *New York Times*, February 17, 1951, 9.

the behest of the industry. Newspaper publishers and newspaper editors were pursuing professional status for journalism, and after the *Sun Pub. Co. v. Walling* ruling they explicitly linked their professional project to specialized accrediting in journalism education. Members of the AASDJ were eager for a new accrediting model, too. They were under fire from university presidents, like Robert Hutchins at the University of Chicago, who questioned the value of journalism education. When the United States Court of Appeals for the Sixth Circuit ruled journalism was not a profession it had not spared journalism educators in its critique of the field.

Editors, for their part, were no better off with ACEJ than they had been when the United States Court of Appeals for the Sixth Circuit ruled they were not professionals. The Supreme Court had refused to review the *Sun* case well before ACEJ published their first list of accredited schools. It was too little, too late, for ACEJ. Publishers had to live with the ruling. All the early rulings sided with the Wage and Hour Division. Journalists were covered by the Fair Labor Standards Act. They were not exempt “professionals.”³⁹⁸

³⁹⁸ Edward D. Cavanaugh, "Journalists as Professionals: Rethinking the Professional Exemption under the Fair Labor Standards Act," *Loy. LA Ent. LJ* 16 (1995): 277.

6. Conclusion

As journalism matured it was shaped by the professional and educational organizations and associations that developed in the late nineteenth century and early part of the twentieth century. Industry groups developed to represent particular visions for the development of journalism. All were concerned with the supply of workers: how to train them, how to compensate them, and how they ought to behave once they had been compensated.

There were Franklin Dinners and Printers' Festivals in the early and mid-nineteenth century, where newspapermen gathered to celebrate the tradition of journalism in the United States and recognize individuals for their good work. The American Newspaper Publishers Association (ANPA) formed in 1887 to pursue the economic well-being of newspaper owners and operators. By 1933 there were two more important industry groups on the scene. The American Society of Newspaper Editors, formed in 1923, represented the interests of metropolitan newspaper editors as they pursued a vision of professionalism. Ten years later, in 1933, the American Newspaper Guild was established to advocate for rank-and-file newspaper workers who were often overworked and underpaid.

Journalism students and educators wondered how best to position themselves regarding the industry's expectations for the training of future journalists. There was Sigma Delta Chi, a college fraternity, formed in 1909 at DePauw University to focus on the ethics of journalism. By 1917 two important journalism educator groups had formed. One, the American Association of Teachers of Journalism (AATJ), acted as professional development organization open to nearly anyone, anywhere, in anyway involved with journalism education. The other, the American Association of Schools and Departments of Journalism (AASDJ), acted as an

accrediting agency and was open to only a select group of educators whose programs had been recognized as Class A, accredited schools or departments of journalism. Later, Class B schools formed the American Society of Journalism School Administrators (ASJSA) to challenge the supremacy of the AASDJ. Each of these groups played an important role in the development of specialized accreditation.

The AASDJ, a self-selected group of journalism instructors, set out to bring order to the field of journalism education. They appealed to the goals and interests of stakeholders in both the industry and academy. It was a difficult task given the power dynamics and divergent priorities of newspaper editors and university administrators. Educators needed support from both groups, but they could not relinquish control of their curricula entirely. Educators had to get close enough to win support from their constituencies, but not so close as to lose autonomy. Boundary work was the mechanism through which the AASDJ navigated these competing interests and raised their own status and prestige at the same time. Boundary work enabled educators to define their mission, articulate their vision, and accentuate particular attributes and philosophies they knew their constituencies valued.

Metropolitan editors in the ASNE wanted to transform newspaper work into a profession on par with law and medicine. Like professional organizations in law and medicine, ASNE wanted to anchor its journalism professionalism project in the university. Journalism educators embraced their role in raising newspaper work to professional status, and the AASDJ modeled its takeover of journalism education on the American Medical Association's (AMA) regulation of medical education. The AMA prioritized reducing the number of medical students

and medical schools, and so did the AASDJ.³⁹⁹ The AASDJ positioned itself to monopolize journalism education, and specialized accreditation served as its legitimating mechanism. Through specialized accreditation the AASDJ regulated participation and practices and created a tiered system of journalism education. For a while, membership in the AASDJ alone constituted specialized accreditation, but educators always sought recognition from the industry.

Specialized accreditation would serve the interests of newspaper editors and publishers, but in very different ways. Specialized accreditation would help ASNE by propping up its professionalism project and by identifying top programs. Publishers in the ANPA were not particularly interested in raising newspaper work to the status of a profession until it was clear that doing so would help them circumvent labor regulations. As newspaper publishers sought to take advantage of the professional exemption to the Fair Labor Standards Act, ASNE and AASDJ joined the fight. Educators believed they were providing a professional education. Metropolitan editors in ASNE believed they were doing professional work. Publishers knew the professional exemption would save money. It was not until a United States Court of Appeals ruled newspaper employees were ineligible for the professional exemption that all three groups coalesced around the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism (ACEJ).

In the early 1980s the ACEJ changed its name to better reflect the broadening scope of journalism education.⁴⁰⁰ ACEJ became the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and

³⁹⁹ Educational Number of the American Medical Journal, "Building Schools of Medicine, A Reprint," *Journalism Bulletin*, Jan 1, 1924: 99-102.

⁴⁰⁰ Jean Folkerts puts the name change at 1981 in "History of Journalism Education," *Journalism & Communication Monographs* 16, no. 4 (2014): 227-99. Gale A. Workman puts the name change at 1982 in "The Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications: A History, 1970-1985," Ph.D., The Florida State University, 1988.

Mass Communication (ACEJMC). Its mission now encompassed mass communication. Standards for accreditation remained largely unchanged until 1983, when the United States Department of Education awarded only partial recognition to the ACEJMC.⁴⁰¹ The Department of Education asked ACEJMC's leadership to explain its reasons for adverse accrediting actions, provide better guidance, and modify the appeals process. In response, journalism educators gave the accrediting process an overhaul that included training programs for site inspectors, and term limits on elected officers. As of 2020, the ACEJMC remains the official accrediting agency for journalism instruction in higher education.

In 1951 the AATJ became the Association for Education in Journalism (AEJ; later AEJMC).⁴⁰² The new AEJ served as an umbrella for the AASDJ and ASJSA organizations. The creation of AEJ provided individual membership to teachers. Moreover, placing the AASDJ and ASJSA below the AEJ, in hierarchical arrangement, would put the focus back on teaching. Some, especially educators at Class B schools felt the AASDJ had claimed far too much power for itself in the interwar period.⁴⁰³ The AEJMC remains journalism education's preeminent organization.

Both ASNE and ANPA continue to be players in the field of the journalism, as does the American Newspaper Guild. In recent years a wave of media outlets has unionized, though not always with the American Newspaper Guild. More than 60 newsrooms have unionized since 2015, according to Nicole S. Cohen and Greig de Peuter, authors of *New Media Unions*:

⁴⁰¹ Workman, "The Accrediting Council."

⁴⁰² Edwin Emery, *AEJMC : 75 Years in the Making*, Edited by Joseph P. McKerns (Columbia, SC: Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, 1987).

⁴⁰³ Emery, *AEJMC : 75 Years in the Making*.

Organizing Digital Journalists.⁴⁰⁴ Organized newsrooms include workers at *The Los Angeles Times*, *Vice*, *The Daily Beast*, *Salon*, and *StoryCorps*.⁴⁰⁵

The culminating project for elite journalism education in the twentieth century was the organization of the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism (ACEJ). As the field of journalism education developed accreditation was a way to signal to the industry, the academy, and potential students, that a journalism program had been approved by an authoritative body and was worthy of a certain degree of autonomy, prestige, and status. Still, journalism educators use specialized accreditation to set and maintain standards.⁴⁰⁶ More than seventy years later, the Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications (ACEJMC) continues its work, but whether specialized accreditation for journalism can survive in the twenty-first century is an open question.

In recent years, longtime accredited programs at Northwestern, UC Berkeley, and the University of New Mexico, have abandoned the accreditation process.⁴⁰⁷ David Weiss, chair of the journalism program at the University of New Mexico, called the accrediting program “smoke and mirrors,” adding, “I think we are a quality department because we are a quality

⁴⁰⁴ Nicole S. Cohen, Greig de Peuter, *New Media Unions: Organizing Digital Journalists* (New York: Routledge, 2020).

⁴⁰⁵ Cohen and de Peuter, *New Media Unions*.

⁴⁰⁶ Standards include: 1. Mission, Governance and Administration, 2. Curriculum and Instruction, 3. Diversity and Inclusiveness, 4. Full-Time and Part-Time Faculty, 5. Scholarship: Research, Creative and Professional Activity, 6. Student Services, 7. Resources, Facilities and Equipment, 8. Professional and Public Service, 9. Assessment of Learning Outcomes. Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, “Nine Accrediting Standards,” Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, accessed February 19, 2020, at <http://www.acejmc.org/policies-process/nine-standards/>

⁴⁰⁷ Ryan Boetel, “UNM journalism department to lose accreditation,” *Albuquerque Journal*, July 28, 2019, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://www.abqjournal.com/1345949/unm-journalism-dept-to-lose-accreditation.html>

department. Not because we wake up every day and try to comply with (ACEJMC) standards.”⁴⁰⁸ The journalism program at the University of New Mexico was the only accredited program in the state.⁴⁰⁹ Brad Hamm was dean of Northwestern’s journalism program when it abandoned specialized accreditation in 2017.⁴¹⁰ Hamm had suggested that ACEJMC limited the journalism program’s curriculum, restricted a student’s ability to take courses outside the school, was resistant to change, and lacked transparency.⁴¹¹ Northwestern’s current dean, Charles Whitaker, has defended journalism educators, noting that the crisis in the industry was not their responsibility. “You’re not going to lay this at the feet of journalism schools,” he said.⁴¹² Asked about ACEJMC’s plans for navigating the increasingly hostile environment journalists face, Peter Bhatia, president of ACEJMC and editor and vice president of the *Detroit Free Press*, told the *Times Higher Education*, “That’s a work in progress.”⁴¹³

Journalism education developed in the midst of what scholar Robert McChesney calls a “critical juncture,” in media and communication.⁴¹⁴ Critical junctures occur, he writes, when at

⁴⁰⁸ Ryan Boetel, “UNM journalism department to lose accreditation.”

⁴⁰⁹ Kyle Land, “C&J Debates Undergoing Accreditation,” *DailyLobo.com*, January 24, 2019, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://www.dailylobo.com/article/2019/01/cj-accreditation-unm-acejmc>

⁴¹⁰ Robin Blom, Brian J. Bowe, and Lucinda D. Davenport, “Accrediting Council on Education in Journalism and Mass Communications Accreditation: Quality or Compliance?” *Journalism Studies* 20, no. 10 (2019): 1458-1471.

⁴¹¹ Brad Hamm, “Note from Dean Brad Hamm,” Northwestern University Office of Alumni Engagement, May 1, 2017.

⁴¹² Paul Basken, “US journalism schools search for answers in Trump era,” *Times Higher Education*, June 23, 2019, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://www.timeshighereducation.com/news/us-journalism-schools-search-answers-trump-era>

⁴¹³ Paul Basken, “US journalism schools search for answers in Trump era.”

⁴¹⁴ Robert McChesney, *Communication Revolution: Critical Junctures and the Future of Media* (New York: New Press, 2007).

least two of the following conditions are met: (1) when the public views journalism as discredited or illegitimate, (2) when new communication technology challenges the status quo, and/or (3) when a major political crisis exposes widespread social disequilibrium and the public demands reform. McChesney identifies three critical junctures in twentieth century media and communication, the first occurring in the Progressive Era, when trust in newspapers and government plummeted, the second in the 1930s, when radio challenged the dominance of newspapers, and third during the social movements of the 1960s and 1970s.

Professional journalism and journalism education were developing in the Progressive Era critical juncture and maturing in the critical juncture of the 1930s. It was during these years of breakdown that the range of policy options were more diverse and the outcome of policy debates more unpredictable than usual. The outcome of policy debates during critical junctures set the course for years to come. McChesney was arguing in his 2007 book, *Communication Revolution*, that we are living in a critical juncture in media and communication in the early twenty-first century. It seems clear, too, that a critical juncture in journalism education is well underway in 2020.

In the interwar period, journalism organizations courted the favor of newspaper editors, newspaper publishers, and university administrators. Elite journalism programs hoped to win the support of metropolitan newspaper editors through a collaborative accrediting agency, and expected editors to show a certain preference for graduates of accredited programs. From university administrators, journalism educators expected autonomy and better funding for their programs based on their ability to distinguish the program by satisfying the standards of

accreditation. The boundary work of twentieth century journalism education was rooted in standardization. With good reason, the ASNE and the AASDJ, and later, ACEJ and ACEJMC, wanted to bring order to the field.

Now, the industry fundamentals that inspired those journalism education standards no longer exist. Newspaper editors, newspaper publishers, and university administrators, have much less to offer the graduates of elite journalism programs than they did in the interwar period. Newsroom jobs and newspaper circulation are in decline in the 21st century, and technological advances have revolutionized the field of journalism. At the same time, university presidents expect faculty and academic units to do the heavy lifting of fundraising.

As educators navigate this shifting landscape, a transformative new force in journalism education has arrived in the 21st century. As in previous critical junctures, stakeholders are rushing in to reorder the field of journalism education in particular ways. None more so than the Knight Foundation.⁴¹⁵ John S. and James L. Knight created the Knight Memorial Fund in 1940. When the two newspaper publishers died their bequests to the Knight Foundation made the non-profit the 21st largest foundation in the United States.⁴¹⁶

The Knight Foundation seeks to create “informed, engaged citizens,” according to its website. It influences journalism education through the programs and initiatives in which it chooses to invest and the partnerships it pursues in the academy. The Knight Foundation gave five million dollars to New York University to create the Center for Social Media and Politics and

⁴¹⁵ Jean Folkerts, “History of Journalism Education,” *Journalism & Communication Monographs* 16, no. 4 (2014): 227-99.

⁴¹⁶ Knight Foundation, “History,” Knight Foundation, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://knightfoundation.org/about/history/>

four million dollars to create the Knight News Innovation Laboratory at Northwestern University.⁴¹⁷ At the same time, the Knight Foundation's influence can be felt at smaller institutions, too. Queens University in Charlotte, North Carolina, a small private school, and Mercer University in Macon, Georgia, together received close to \$10 million from the Knight Foundation.⁴¹⁸

The Knight Foundation makes clear that it will not fund journalism programs unwilling to change and that it prefers that programs change to be more like medical teaching hospitals. In 2012, the Knight Foundation was joined by several other foundations in an open letter to university presidents. In the letter, the foundations wrote that the future of journalism education was the "teaching hospital."⁴¹⁹ The foundations would support ACEJMC's attempt to modernize its standards, but they would not offer financial support to programs which refused to update their curricula. Moreover, they wrote, "universities must become forceful partners in revitalizing an industry at the very core of democracy." Those that fall behind, the letter continued, "risk becoming irrelevant to both private funders and, more importantly, the

⁴¹⁷ Andrew Hamilton, "Bringing Science to Bear on Social Media," Knight Foundation, accessed February 19, 2020 at <https://knightfoundation.org/articles/bringing-science-to-bear-on-social-media/>; Knight Foundation, "Knight News Innovation Laboratory Launches at Northwestern university," Knight Foundation, accessed February 19, 2020 at <https://knightfoundation.org/press/releases/knight-news-innovation-laboratory-launches-at/>

⁴¹⁸ Eric Newton, "How Knight Endowments Advance Journalism Excellence, Knight Foundation," April 14, 2014, accessed February 20, 2020, at <https://knightfoundation.org/articles/how-knight-endowments-advance-journalism-excellence/>.

⁴¹⁹ Eric Newton, "Journalism Funders Call for 'Teaching Hospital' Model of Education," Knight Foundation, accessed February 19, 2020 at <https://knightfoundation.org/articles/journalism-funders-call-teaching-hospital-model-education/>

students they seek to serve.”⁴²⁰ Knight’s resources put it in much stronger position than ACEJMC to regulate participation in journalism education.

Eric Newton, a senior advisor to the Knight Foundation president and vocal proponent of reform, explained the teaching hospital model for journalism education at a symposium, *The Journalist in Training*, in 2013.⁴²¹ In teaching hospitals, he began, medical students learn how to draw blood, set broken arms, and deliver babies, under the supervision of experienced doctors. Newton said that teaching hospitals were indispensable to medical education because simple book learning is not sufficient to train future doctors. One learns by doing, he said, and the same was true for journalism. A teaching hospital for journalism is the future, he concluded.

The teaching hospital model for journalism is a prescription for educational practices. According to Newton, the teaching hospital innovates in medical education by experimenting and finding cures. The journalism teaching hospital would do the same for the industry, the academy, and more importantly, the community. The journalism teaching hospital encompasses a university-based community-news organization. The journalism teaching hospital, says Newton, incorporate six practices, including professionals mentoring students who produce high quality journalism, and innovators pioneering new tools and techniques to inform and engage a community. Professors and academics collaborate, Newton says, by bringing in topic knowledge, raising issues, and completing major research projects.⁴²²

⁴²⁰ Eric Newton, “Journalism Funders Call for ‘Teaching Hospital’ Model of Education.”

⁴²¹ Eric Newton, “The ‘Teaching Hospital’ – A Goal for Journalism Education,” Knight Foundation, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://knightfoundation.org/articles/journalism-funders-call-teaching-hospital-model-education/>

⁴²² Eric Newton, “The ‘Teaching Hospital’ – A Goal for Journalism Education.”

In 2015, Newton was hired as the innovation chief of the Walter Cronkite School of Journalism and Mass Communication at Arizona State University.⁴²³ Upon assuming his new position, Newton said his goal was to create the first, true journalism teaching hospital by bringing all the stakeholders under one digital roof.⁴²⁴ In 2018, the Knight Foundation announced a \$1.9 million dollar grant to the Cronkite School at Arizona State University “to advance digital and broadcast innovation in local television news.”⁴²⁵

ACEJMC and the Knight Foundation focus attention on participation and practices in journalism education. Both specialized accreditation and the journalism teaching hospital make claims about who should participate in training new journalists and which practices are most appropriate. They both use boundary work to differentiate themselves. However, Knight possesses far greater economic resources than any other journalism education group. Affiliating with either, or both, organizations has its advantages, but only Knight has the means necessary to reorganize the field of journalism education. Only Knight is capable of awarding vast sums of money to schools and departments of journalism that choose to adopt its model. Only Knight is nimble enough to keep pace with a constantly changing media environment. As Seth Lewis writes in *Mass Communication and Society*, the Knight Foundation has opened up the

⁴²³ Walter Cronkite School of Journalism and Mass Communication, “Knight Foundation Executive Named Innovation Chief at Cronkite,” Walter Cronkite School of Journalism and Mass Communication, May 26, 2015, accessed February 20, 2020, at <https://cronkite.asu.edu/news-and-events/news/eric-newton-cronkite-innovation-chief-release-2015>.

⁴²⁴ Alfredo Casares, “Eric Newton: To Innovate While Cutting Jobs is a Challenge for Newspapers,” Knight Foundation, June 30, 2015, accessed February 19, 2020, at <https://knightfoundation.org/articles/eric-newton-innovate-while-cutting-jobs-challenge-newspapers/>.

⁴²⁵ Walter Cronkite School of Journalism and Mass Communication, “Knight Foundation Awards Cronkite School \$1.9M Grant to Innovate Local TV News,” Walter Cronkite School of Journalism and Mass Communication, February 8, 2018, accessed February 20, 2020, at <https://cronkite.asu.edu/news-and-events/news/eric-newton-cronkite-innovation-chief-release-2015>.

boundaries of journalism by emphasizing “information” over “journalism.”⁴²⁶ ACEJMC stresses standards for journalism education while Knight rewards innovation and emphasizes information over a standardized journalism curriculum.

While Knight differentiates itself from ACEJMC by accentuating innovation and information in its mission, some aspects of its rhetoric about participating and practicing journalism education are reminiscent of a much earlier era when educators and newspaper editors tied journalism and training for journalism to medicine and medical education. For journalism educators and newspaper editors in the interwar period, journalism was to the body politic what doctors were to the human body. Journalism education was too important to go unregulated. By invoking medicine, they were justifying their takeover of the field. The Knight Foundation has revived that tradition. The Knight foundation has updated the boundary work around journalism education, and backed its rhetoric with financial resources, which are sorely needed in higher education.

Sociologist Margaret Archer argues that as educational systems emerge, struggle among interest groups to control the education system influences both the content of curriculum and processes of change.⁴²⁷ Competing groups present what Archer calls a new definition of instruction. Dominant groups position themselves to monopolize educational resources and facilities and develop legitimating ideologies. So it was with the development of journalism education. As journalism education emerged across multiple critical junctures, interest groups

⁴²⁶ Seth C. Lewis, "From journalism to information: The transformation of the Knight Foundation and news innovation," *Mass Communication and Society* 15, no. 3 (2012): 309-334.

⁴²⁷ Margaret S. Archer, *Social Origins of Educational Systems* (New York: Routledge, 2013).

struggled to define its nature and character. With specialized accreditation, and help from the industry, journalism educators tried to monopolize the training of future journalists. Boundary work was the mechanism through which they articulated a new definition for journalism education.

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| 2020 | Doctor of Philosophy (Ph.D.), Mass Communication
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Experience

- **Student Success Librarian for Foundational Learning, Advise & Instruct, Miami University, Oxford, OH. Summer 2018-Present.**
 - Collection Development & Management: Collecting and managing collections that support curriculum, research and instruction in assigned or appropriate areas in collaboration with colleagues as required.
 - Engagement: Serves as liaison to or collaborator with appropriate campus units including academic departments or divisions, student support services or other appropriate campus units about resources, services, scholarly communications, and events.
 - Teaching and Training: Provides instruction or training in a variety of formats depending on client, staff or library needs. Designs instructional or training materials and participates in the development of instruction services and products or training.
 - Reference/Research Support and Public Services: Includes reference, research consultation, circulation services, or other services that help patrons find, access, evaluate and/or use information in a one-on-one setting at a point of need.

Experience (continued)

- **Academic Resident Librarian/Visiting Assistant Librarian**, Advise & Instruct, Miami University, Oxford, OH. **Winter 2017-Summer 2018.**
 - Instruction: Work with faculty, librarians, and students to create and implement initiatives to promote effective learning and information discovery. Assist in the development of instructional and outreach materials. Lead information literacy instructional sessions for first-year students. Lead workshops and course-integrated instruction sessions.
 - Collection: Manage funds and select materials for Asian/Asian-American Studies, Black World Studies, Interactive Media Studies, Middle East and Islamic Studies.
 - Reference: Staff research and reference services by providing in-person consultations at a drop-in public service point or by appointment, as well as virtual reference services. Assist in the development and maintenance of web-based resource guides.
 - Committees: Collection Development and Management Cluster; Developing Informed Digital News Consumers in the Era of Misinformation; Humanities and Social Sciences Collection Groups
- **Associate Instructor**, Department of Journalism, Indiana University Media School, Bloomington, IN. **Fall 2016.**
 - Primary instructor for two sections of laboratory learning. Assist with undergraduate course in visual communication. Instructing, grading, and guiding student projects.
- **Intern**, Center for Documentary Research and Practice (FKA Center for History & Memory), Indiana University, Bloomington, IN. **Spring 2015.**
 - Curate prototype for online exhibit of oral history interviews for Indiana University Bicentennial. Selected content (transcripts, audio clips, photographs), designed and built website.
- **Graduate Assistant**, Department of Journalism, Indiana University Media School, Bloomington, IN. **2011-2015.**
 - Assist with undergraduate-level courses in public relations and sports journalism, as Assistant Instructor. Gathering primary and secondary resources for scholarly articles and books as Research Assistant.

Recent Publications

Floyd, N., Birkenhauer, L. M., Spraetz, J., Miller, L. M., & Revelle, A. A. (2019). Navigating Student Success: Learning from the Higher Education Landscape. *Reference Services Review*, 47(3), 207–223.

Recent Presentations

Floyd, N., & Boehme, G. (2019). *First Year Research Experience (FYRE) and Miami University Libraries: Initiating and Sustaining Undergraduate Research Programs*. Oxford, OH: Council for Undergraduate Research.

Floyd, N., & Spraetz, J. (2020). *Demystifying the Fact-Checking Process: Using Lateral Reading with First-Year Students*. Washington DC: 39th Annual Conference on The First-Year Experience

Fernandes, J., Adkins, M., Craig, C., Floyd, N., and Konkolewicz. (2020). *Creating Opportunities for Underrepresented Student Groups to Participate in First Year Research Experiences*. Virtual: The Council on Undergraduate Research Biennial Conference.

Professional & Academic Organizations

- American Historical Association
- American Journalism Historians Association
- American Political Science Association
- Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication
- Association of College and Research Libraries
- Society of Professional Journalists

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Available upon request.